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THE FRAGMENTARY CLASSICISING HISTORIANS OF THE LATER ROMAN EMPIRE

EUNAPIUS, OLYMPIODORUS, PRISCUS AND MALCHUS

by

R.C. BLOCKLEY



FRANCIS CAIRNS

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INTRODUCTION

Aims and Methods of Study

The great historians of classical antiquity have long been the objects of intensive study. Thus, the history of the periods about which they wrote, insofar as it is based upon their works, is drawn from documents which are comparatively well understood. In contrast, the late imperial and Byzantine periods, which have only more recently attracted the full interest of a considerable number of able scholars, are still approached through documents which have often not received adequate and detailed attention. Certainly, advances have been made, notably in the burgeoning industry on Ammianus Marcellinus and, to take two from amongst a number of other examples, the work of A.M. and A.D.E. Cameron on Agathias and Claudian respectively. Nevertheless, there is much to be done.

The objects of the present study are the historical works, which survive only in fragments, of the fifth-century writers Eunapius, Olympiodorus, Priscus and Malchus. In their original state these covered, with only small gaps, the years from the death of Claudius II in 270 to the death of Zeno in 491, a period which saw the dismemberment of the western Roman Empire and the transformation of the eastern portion into the Byzantine Empire. The historians themselves are not well known, with the exceptions of Priscus as the historian of Attila, and, possibly, of Eunapius as the rabidly anti-Christian source of Zosimus. Yet they are of considerable importance, since later surviving writers drew upon them directly and indirectly as major sources for the history of much of the fourth and of the fifth century. Thus, their histories, though now largely lost, have greatly influenced the kind of information and the views which we have received upon a period which was an important age of transition but about which, especially the fifth century, we know all too little.

The general aim of this study is to describe, as clearly and in as much detail as the surviving material will permit, the historiography of these four writers and, where possible, to identify their interpretations of the events and policies which they were setting down. The approach has been in two stages, which have been perforce reversed in presentation. The first stage was to identify and order the surviving material.

Here the standard collections are deficient in two respects: their ordering of the fragments is in some cases suspect, and they draw most of their material from the *Excerpta* made in the tenth century at the order of the Emperor Constantine Porphyrogenitus, from the *Suda*, and, in the case of Olympiodorus, from the summary in Photius' *Bibliotheca*. As a result they usually omit a considerable body of material preserved by other historians and compilers. To remedy these defects new conspectuses of the fragments have been made which comprise the second part of this study. They were drawn up on the basis of repeated perusals of all relevant writings, both those of the ancients and those of the nineteenth- and early twentieth-century scholars who concerned themselves with source criticism. Each conspectus is prefaced by explanations of the reasons behind the selection, which has been made very conservatively, so as to provide as sound a basis as possible for the views developed in the second stage. The material in the conspectuses has been divided into two classes: 1. 'certain'; and 2. 'probable' or 'possible', the latter class being enclosed within square brackets. The footnotes to this part in no way constitute a historical commentary and contain material only relevant to the ordering of the fragments.

The second stage of the study was, using the material as arranged in the conspectuses, to describe as clearly and fully as possible the elements of the historiography and to identify and attempt to place the opinions of the historians in context. Considerable emphasis has been laid upon recovering the structure of the histories, on the ground that if it could be described, a framework would be provided for the appreciation of the overall coherence of the works and their individuality. In fact, what has surprised me most in working upon these histories is the realisation of how different they were from one another. The results of this second stage are presented in the first four chapters of the first part of the study, with the short fifth chapter offering a few general comments upon the histories and the background against which they were written.

References to the fragments in the first part of the study are to the collections in the fourth volume of Müller's *Fragmenta Historicorum Graecorum*, although the texts themselves have been checked against the de Boor-Boissevain editions of the *Excerpta* and Adler's edition of the *Suda*. My only deviation from Müller's numbering is that whereas he has only occasionally divided the fragments into sections (e.g. Eunapius *Fr.* 14,1, etc.), I have divided them in every place where the *Excerpta* mark a break (usually by ὅτι). Eunapius' *Lives of the Sophists* is cited from Giangrande's edition. References to other primary sources

are to the editions listed in the first part of the bibliography. The second part of the bibliography contains those secondary works which are referred to in the notes by name of author and date only (unless ambiguous). All dates are AD unless indicated.

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1980

Addendum

After this volume had gone to the typesetter I received a copy of a paper by R. Goulet, 'Sur la chronologie de la vie et des oeuvres d'Eunape de Sardes', *JHS*, 100 (1980) pp.60-72. I accept his redating of Eunapius' birth, stay at Athens and return to Sardis and have accordingly altered the relevant dates on p.1 of this volume. I have also made a few minor adjustments elsewhere in the light of parts of his discussion. But his arguments on the composition of Eunapius' History, on the identity of the editor of the second edition, and on the relationship of the work with that of Ammianus and other writers have not convinced me that I should change my views on these matters.

R.C.B.

PART I

THE HISTORIANS

CHAPTER 1

EUNAPIUS OF SARDIS

Born in 349 at Sardis, the provincial capital of Lydia, for five years a student at Athens of the sophist and Christian Prohaeresius, whom he greatly revered despite his own intense hatred of Christianity, Eunapius was summoned back to his home city in 369, where he seems to have spent the rest of his life teaching and associating with the sophist Chrysanthius, whose student he had been before his stay in Athens and to whom he was related by marriage. To what extent, if at all, Eunapius travelled outside Lydia after 369 is unknown, but it does appear that he never pursued a public career, which, even under the Christian Emperors, was open to a pagan with a sophistic training.[1] When Eunapius died, some time after 404, he had lived through a period of history that witnessed, amongst other events, the short-lived pagan reaction of Julian which ended with his disastrous failure against Persia; the destruction of a Roman army and Emperor at Adrianople; Theodosius' attacks upon the pagan cults; Alaric's invasion of Greece and the sack of its cities and temples; the mutual hostility of the eastern and western parts of the Empire during the period of the Gildonic war in Africa; the revolt of Gainas and the anti-German reaction in the East; and perhaps the fall of Rome to Alaric in 410.[2] Many of these, and other, events, especially those arising from, or affecting, the struggle between the Christian church and the pagan cults, coloured Eunapius' view of the world in which he lived, a view which, in its turn, influenced his presentation of these events. For much of what Eunapius wrote concerned persons and actions that indirectly affected his own life. Thus he wrote from a position of great emotional 'engagement', and it is this 'engagement', in combination with his provincialism and lack of experience of a public career, which go a long way to account for the nature of his historical writing with its many and serious faults.

Two works by Eunapius are known. His *Lives of the Sophists*, which survives complete, was written at the behest of his friend and mentor Chrysanthius (*Vit. Soph.* 23,1,1). That it appeared some time after 395 is indicated by its mention of Alaric's invasion of Greece which took place in that year.[3] His other work, the so-called *Universal History*, covered events from 270, the point at which the *Chronicle* of Dexippus ended, and was, as Eunapius himself remarks, a continuation

of the latter work.[4] The title of the History is uncertain. In the *Lives of the Sophists* Eunapius variously calls it *τὰ ἱστορικὰ ὑπομνήματα*, *τὰ καθολικὰ συγγράμματα* (which emphasises its universality) and *τὰ διεξοδικά* (which points to its detail).[5] Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 77) and the *Exc. de Sent.* call it *ἱστορία ἡ μετὰ Δέξιππον*, which is the title that should probably be preferred.[6]

A number of passages from the History have been preserved in the *Excerpta de Sententiis* and a few in the *Excerpta de Legationibus*. To these the *Suda* adds some articles attributed to Eunapius by name and a larger number unnamed but probably or possibly Eunapian. Eunapius was also a source for later writers both of secular and of ecclesiastical histories. Petrus Patricius used him, as did the anonymous author of the *Epitome de Caesaribus*, Philostorgius, John of Antioch, probably Sozomen and possibly Socrates. In all these cases it is impossible to establish the extent of the debt and, with a few exceptions, to prove the derivation of particular passages. It is clear, however, that Zosimus made great use of Eunapius for his *New History*. Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 98, II p.66) says of this debt, "One might say that [Zosimus] did not write a history but copied out Eunapius, differing only in that he abbreviates and that he, unlike Eunapius, does not attack Stilicho. For the rest of his History he is almost identical, and especially in his slanders against the pious Emperors." This is a rather tendentious and inaccurate statement – Zosimus *did* attack Stilicho, precisely in that part of his History where he drew upon Eunapius –, and its prime import is its condemnation of Zosimus' attacks on Orthodox Emperors. Nevertheless, it is frequently taken as the basis for the view that for the period common to both the histories (AD 270-404) Zosimus slavishly transcribed Eunapius' work and nothing but that work. This position has been challenged by those who point to divergences in detail and in attitude, especially towards religion. The challenge has not been completely turned aside, and I would add my own doubts that Zosimus made any, or much, use of Eunapius for the first book of his History, and my suspicions that for the rest he made transpositions of material to remove repetitions and bring some little chronological order to a narrative which, as Eunapius himself proclaimed (*Fr.* 1), paid no attention to chronology. When these reservations have been voiced, it still remains, however, that Zosimus made enormous use of Eunapius, and his History provides the framework for the reconstruction of his predecessor's narrative.[7]

Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 77, I pp.158f.) tells us that Eunapius' complete History was in fourteen books and that it appeared in two editions, the

second of which was called the New Edition (*νέα ἔκδοσις*) and was prepared in order to excise the more offensively anti-Christian passages of the first. That Eunapius himself was responsible for this second edition is now generally agreed; and certainly the fragments preserved in the *Exc. de Sent.*, which were taken from the second edition, contain enough anti-Christian material to cast grave doubts upon the old suggestion that it was the work of a Christian expurgator.[8] This suggestion was put forward partly to explain the statement of Photius (*loc.cit.*) that the second edition had many incoherences as a result of clumsy excision. But haste, carelessness, or Eunapius' old age are better explanations for these deficiencies, especially in the light of the author's own justification in the second edition of his failure to work in his new material on the Huns, which, he says, he merely set side-by-side with the old (*Fr.* 41: *καὶ ταῦτα διὰ τὴν ἀλήθειαν ἐφελκυσάμενοι καὶ παραξεύξαντες*).

Over twenty-five years ago Chalmers (*loc.cit.* at n.8 above) advanced a theory that the two editions of the History were radically different: the first was two separate *Lives* of Constantine I and Julian, together with an *Universal History* from 363 to 395, while the second, the production of which involved the re-writing of these *Lives* and the incorporation of material before Constantine and between his reign and that of Julian, was the complete History of which we have the fragments. That this theory, which is based on the nature of the references to the History in the *Lives of the Sophists*, is implausible and unnecessary, has been argued elsewhere.[9] It is unlikely that, had Eunapius done the re-writing and addition of material which Chalmers envisaged, he would have left the gaps and incoherences remarked by Photius. The form of the two editions was the same, and they probably covered the same time-span, 270 to 404. Certainly, in his *Lives of the Sophists* (7,3, 5) Eunapius does indicate that he has not yet written about Alaric's invasion of Greece in 395 and, thus, that there was a pause in publication. But this merely indicates that the History was published in parts, as, for example, was that of Ammianus Marcellinus. The first part to appear would have been that up to the death of Julian, or the short-lived Jovian, as seems clear from Eunapius' own prefatory remarks (*Fr.* 1 *ad fin.*; *Fr.* 8) that his work looked to Julian. Whether there was also a pause after the death of Theodosius I, as Chalmers and most scholars have assumed, is less clear. Barnes[10] has recently argued very persuasively that the two passages of the *Lives of the Sophists* which are taken to refer to events of the reign of Theodosius, could equally well refer to an earlier period. Especially important is *Vit. Soph.* 7,3,2-5, where

Eunapius describes how the hierophant who initiated him into the Eleusinian Mysteries prophesied to him the overthrow of the temples and the destruction of Greece, saying that after his death a man would be made hierophant who was already priest of another god and not even an Athenian citizen. The hierophant added that in his own time (ἐφ' ἑαυτοῦ) he would see the destruction of the temples, and his successor (κἀκεῖνον) would live to see the worship of the goddesses at Eleusis come to an end and would lose his office of hierophant and not reach old age. Eunapius then adds that this prophecy was fulfilled because the hierophant was succeeded by a priest of Mithras and soon afterwards many disasters happened, ὧν τὰ μὲν ἐν τοῖς διεξοδικοῖς τῆς ἱστορίας εἴρηται, τὰ δὲ ἐὰν ἐπιτρέπῃ τὸ Θεῖον λελέξεται, ὁ [τε] Ἀλλάριχος ἔχων τοὺς βαρβάρους διὰ τῶν Πυλῶν παρῆλθεν....[11] Most scholars have taken both the μέν- and the δέ- clauses to refer to Alaric's invasion, which would place the break in the History at 395. But Barnes, adducing the notice at *Vit. Soph.* 8,2,3 of the invasion as to-be-described-in-the-future, argues that only the δέ- clause refers to Alaric and that the μέν- clause refers to earlier disasters. A passage in Zosimus, which he does not notice, appears to clinch his case. This passage (4,18, 2-4) describes how Attica was saved from the natural disasters which befell Greece and Crete after the death of Valentinian I in 375. The ritual measures which protected the area were carried out by Nestorius, the hierophant who prophesied to Eunapius when he was at Athens between 362 and 367, since these measures could hardly have been ascribed to the short-lived, illegitimate, and final hierophant who succeeded him.[12] Zosimus describes him as "very old" (ὑπέργηρων) in 375, and so it is highly unlikely that he survived for almost twenty years to be succeeded by the illegitimate hierophant shortly before 395. Thus, the disasters already described by Eunapius in his History (noted in the μέν- clause) must have happened well before 395. They could have been the ones placed by Zosimus in 375, while those which followed soon after the succession of the illegitimate hierophant began during the Gothic revolt of 377-79 and continued to the invasion of Alaric. Barnes, adducing *Fr.* 41, where Eunapius says that nothing was known about the Huns when he wrote the first edition of his History,[13] argues that Eunapius, to have been so ignorant, must have written his first edition around 380, ending it, like Ammianus, with the battle of Adrianople in 378. The only modification to be made to this position is that Eunapius did not end his first edition there, but one of the parts of his first edition. Thus, three stages of publication of the first edition can be observed: from Aurelian to the death of Julian (or Jovian), from

the acclamation of Valentinian I to Adrianople, and from the aftermath of Adrianople to the end.[14]

Difficulty also surrounds the end of the History, since both the point of ending and the date of publication of the last part are in doubt. Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 77, I p.158) says that the work terminated with the elevation of Acacius to the episcopal throne to replace the exiled John Chrysostom and the death of the Empress Eudoxia, both of which took place in 404. However, *Fr.* 87 attacks official corruption ἐπὶ Πουλχερίας, which is taken to mean during the period when Pulcheria reigned as Augusta, a title which she assumed in 414 at the age of sixteen. The passage itself mentions the ruin of the corrupt Hierax by Herennianus and is thus linked with *Fr.* 86 which mentions the peculation and arrest of Hierax, who had to pay a large bribe to Herennianus for his release. Since *Fr.* 86 can be dated to 404, *Fr.* 87 could be a discussion of a later and harsher punishment of Hierax by his old adversary, which itself formed part of a wider discussion of imperial corruption under Pulcheria in the East and Stilicho (who is the subject of the last fragment, 88) in the West. This in turn could have been linked with an attack on the dead Eudoxia's corruption, thus forming an epilogue to the History and giving a date of composition after 414. However, it seems unlikely that Hierax would have suffered twice at the hands of Herennianus, the second occasion being at least ten years after the first. It is far more likely that *Frr.* 86 and 87 refer to the same circumstances, and, if this is so, then ἐπὶ Πουλχερίας, which is an introductory phrase inserted by the compiler of the *Exc. de Sent.*, should be amended to ἐπ' Εὐδοξίας or treated as an error on his part. If this is done, then publication could have taken place any time after 404,[15] and a reason for ending in that year, other than the death of Eunapius, can be advanced. For in the last fragments (80-88) two themes are interwoven: the intransigent anti-Germanism of John, the *comes sacrarum largitionum*, and his party, which led to the death of the heroic Fravitta and exacerbated East-West tensions (*Frr.* 80; 82; 85), and the corrupt behaviour of officials encouraged by Eudoxia (*Frr.* 83; 84; 86; 87; 88). To these can be added a third theme from Zosimus (5,23,3-6), the rabble-rousing of John Chrysostom and the hostility between him and the Empress. Eudoxia herself is the link between these themes: in the first she supported the anti-Germans,[16] in the second she encouraged corruption,[17] and in the third she was in conflict with Chrysostom and caused his exile. Thus it was appropriate that Eunapius, who elsewhere stressed divine punishment for evil,[18] should end his History with the exile of the troublesome prelate and the premature death of the Empress, who was to him

responsible for many of the ills of the state.[19]

In the preface to the first book of his History (*Fr.* 1) Eunapius, while declaring his intent to continue the *Chronica* of Dexippus and praising his style and selection of material, devotes most of his attention to a description of his predecessor's chronological method and to an attack upon it. In fact, he emphatically rejects any concern with chronology on the grounds that it lacks elegance, that chronological accuracy is unobtainable and that it contributes nothing towards the clarification of the virtues of the persons who appear in the narrative. Whether or not this is a mere excuse for laziness or an indirect attack upon Christian chronography with its concern for periods and relative dating,[20] Eunapius is categorical about his own approach:

> I have approached this work confident in my ability to write about the past and the present, and have declined to date events by the year or the day on the ground that the practice is irrelevant, preferring as more reliable those time-divisions which are circumscribed by the reigns of Emperors. My reader will learn that such-and-such an action was performed during the reign of such-and-such an Emperor. But I leave it to other writers to dance off into the delusion that they can date by the year and the day.

Certainly, this rejection of chronological detail is reflected both in the lack of time-indicators in the relevant part of Zosimus' History and in a similar lack in the surviving fragments, with the exceptions of the hint of a war-year at the end of *Fr.* 12 and Eunapius' declaration at *Fr.* 14,3 that he will set out the acts of Constantius II *ἐπὶ καιροὺς καθ' οὓς ἐγίνετο καὶ συνέπιπτεν*, which means nothing more than that he will put them in chronological order. When, however, there was a plurality of Emperors reigning together, Eunapius could not possibly have structured his narrative solely upon imperial reigns, as he appears to suggest. In fact, at the beginning of *Fr.* 75, which follows a passage on the West, he declares, "Now I shall direct my narrative to the disasters in Asia", thus indicating an East-West division of material, a practice of Ammianus also.[21] But it is *Fr.* 14,1 which offers the key to the overall structure. There Eunapius says that while he was describing the details of Constantius' reign, although he mentioned both Constantius and Julian, he gave the greater attention to the former; whereas now, since his subject is the life of Julian from his birth to his acclamation as Caesar, he will repeat (*ἐπιμνήσεται πάλιν*) the plots of Constantius against his cousin. This does not mean, as Chalmers thought,[22] that there was a separate *Life of Julian* which was clumsily worked into the second edition. Rather, Eunapius is indicating that he did not follow an overall annalistic structure in his History, but ordered his material

topically around a series of coherent actions or a particular figure, usually, but not always, the Emperor. Thus, while chronological order was preserved within each block of material, as *Fr.* 14,3 states, the blocks themselves could cover a number of years, which explains why some of the material in the fragments is apparently far out of chronological order.[23] Moreover, Eunapius is also making it clear that he reserves the right to repeat material for the sake of completeness and clarity, his practice also in the *Lives of the Sophists*.[24]

Although Eunapius was critical of Dexippus' concern with chronology, he nevertheless saw fit to continue his *Chronica*. He himself (*Fr.* 1) gives as a reason that there was no notable historical account after Dexippus ended. His criteria for approval of Dexippus seem to have been two: that Dexippus wrote with a dignified style (σεμνότερα) of which he approved, and Dexippus was "full of erudition and logical power",[25] which means that he was educated in the classical pagan tradition. Thus Eunapius (like Ammianus continuing Tacitus) linked himself to the great tradition of classical historiography. There was also a second, unstated reason – that Eunapius proposed to write his work, which had the Emperor Julian as its focus, from a highly anti-Christian point of view. To take up where Dexippus ended would have enabled Eunapius to continue a work of history which set out briefly the famous men of pagan antiquity and their deeds, to begin his own work with the great pagan Emperor Aurelian, to pass quickly through Aurelian's successors to the 'disastrous' reigns of Constantine and his sons, and to climax with Julian's pagan restoration.

The first book of the History was an epitome covering the years 270 to 355, from the death of Claudius II to the elevation of Julian to the rank of Caesar.[26] If Zosimus made use of Eunapius here (which is not certain)[27] and if his text accurately reflects what he found in Eunapius, the treatment of the material was uneven, dwelling on some persons and events in detail, such as Aurelian's campaigns against Palmyra, while briefly dismissing others, such as the overthrow of Tetricus. Fragments from elsewhere are so scanty as to allow little further comment, except that Eunapius dwelt on the vicious character of the Emperor Carinus, attacked Constantine and probably all his sons, dealt in some detail with the sophist Prohaeresius, and traced the evil dealings of Constantius II towards Julian.[28]

The proportions of the rest of the History cannot be established with any certainty. If Zosimus' *New History* roughly preserves the balance of Eunapius' narrative (and here clearly great caution must be used),[29] then they are what might be expected: much detail on Julian,

rather sketchy material on Valentinian I and Valens, more on their successors but not as much as on Julian.[30] Ammianus has similar proportions – much on Julian, less on Valentinian and Valens –, though overall it seems likely that his History was more detailed than that of Eunapius. Of the thirteen books of Eunapius' History which followed the summary first book, perhaps four were allotted to Julian, three to the period from the elevation of Valentinian I to Adrianople, and six from Adrianople to 404.

In the preface of his first book (*Fr.* 1 p.12) Eunapius, as part of his rejection of Dexippan chronology, declares:

> What do dates contribute towards the wisdom of Socrates or the cleverness of Themistocles? Were they good and great men only during the summertime? Did they grow and shed their virtues like leaves according to the season? Rather, both of them surely in their actions exhibited and preserved their natural qualities repeatedly and continuously.

The implication here, that the central concern of history is the qualities of great men, moves Eunapius, like other late historians, perilously close to biography.[31] Nevertheless, in the stress upon great men and their actions[32] he adheres strictly to the conventional view, as he does also in his later declaration of the didactic function of history:

> . . . the greatest of the benefits of history is that concisely and in a short space we can become familiar with a large, indeed countless, number of facts and, through a knowledge of past events, gain the experience of old age while still young, so that we know what is to be avoided and what to be sought after.

The programme set out in these statements gains more specificity from *Fr.* 8, which is apparently from the preface of the second book of the History. Here Eunapius declares that the Emperor Julian is the focus of the whole work, which admirers of Julian, and especially Oribasius of Pergamum, had urged him to write.[33] In this effusive declaration of both his own and the universal affection for the pagan Emperor (and as is clear from his celebrations elsewhere in the fragments of Julian's virtues and kingly nature[34]) Eunapius, unlike Ammianus, a more judicious and circumspect admirer, committed himself openly to a panegyric of his hero, as Photius complains (*Bibl. cod.* 77, I p.159). Indeed, this must have been very obvious if the first published portion of the History ended with the death of Julian or Jovian.

Whether Eunapius furnished the rest of the books of the History with prefaces is unclear. It is probable that, like Ammianus, he at least provided one for each new part of the History which he published; and he certainly shows a liking for the preface of Dexippus' *Chronica*.[35] On

the other hand, some of the passages of methodological discussion which occur amongst the fragments and have been assigned to prefaces might have come from the body of the narrative, if Eunapius translated to the History his tendency, which appears in the *Lives of the Sophists*, to ramble off into semi-relevant digressions, especially when his material became rather thin. The preoccupations of these methodological passages are two-fold: with sources, or rather the lack of them (*Fr.* 74), and with claims for the absolute primacy of the truth (ἀλήθεια, *Frr.* 28; 73; 75,1). Paschoud, who regards Eunapius as nothing more than an out-and-out propagandist and an unscrupulous falsifier, dismisses such passages, and especially their professed preoccupation with the truth, as nothing more than a smokescreen.[36] But they are important because they reveal, or rather confirm, a central aspect of Eunapius' attitude towards his function as a historian. In *Fr.* 75,1, speaking of the damage caused by Gainas, he says:

> For the whole span of time has not brought forth anything like this, and within a human lifetime no such upheavals and revolutions have taken place. Nevertheless, the truth must not be suppressed, since not to write the truth for fear of disbelief would be to act wrongly. It seems to me that it is the same as when one drinks something bitter and pungent for reasons of health. For just as these things bring health and safety, although their entry into the body is most unpleasant, so these horrible events that happened unexpectedly are not the unpleasant fault of the writer, and to those who desire an accurate record are something sweet and palatable because they are true.

Here Eunapius is not primarily interested in objective establishment of facts,[37] but rather in attitudes. His goals as a historian, as he declared in his first preface and as the medical simile used above suggests, are moral and didactic, which demand the assignation of praise or blame. His interest in truth is, therefore, one of interpretation, as is clear from *Fr.* 62:

> The children of Theodosius became Emperors in his stead. However, if the truer interpretation (τὸ ἀληθέστερον), which is the goal of history, be placed upon what happened, they had the title of Emperor, but the reality of power was in the hands of Rufinus in the East and Stilicho in the West.[38]

Certainly, it is hard to swallow Eunapius' statement in the first preface that the goal of history is "to write up what happened in the light of the truth and with a minimum of emotional bias" (ὅτι μάλιστα δίχα τινὸς πάθους), just as it is to take at face value Tacitus' statement to the same effect. Moreover, for Eunapius, again like Tacitus, the search for 'the truth' almost invariably involves a paranoid stripping away of

lies, folly and deceit to reveal the rottenness underneath. Nevertheless, his attitude towards 'the truth' is consistent, and while his treatment of the facts may be partizan, it is not cynical. Eunapius writes as an opposition historian under Christian Emperors, and his truth was primarily, though not entirely, pagan and anti-Christian. Therefore, to condemn Eunapius for falsifying facts while lauding truth is to misunderstand his psychology.

In his assertion of the function of history and of his own aims, as well as in his attack upon Dexippus' chronology and praise of other aspects of his work, Eunapius identifies himself as a historian in the classical grand manner. With the exception of the introductory first book, his History was large-scale, that is, it aimed to be more detailed and broader in scope than, for instance, Herodian's work, and is comparable in these respects with the History of Ammianus and the other works discussed in the present study. It was also universal, in that it was interested in events anywhere within the Roman Empire, although the relative importance of the events (partly determined by the presence of the Emperor), the adequacy of sources (cf. *Fr.* 74), and the natural interest of the eastern historian in events in his part of the world, all affected the balance.[39] Its orientation, again traditional, was towards war and politics, so that other material, such as geographical and anthropological data and happenings outside the Empire, was essentially digressional. Finally, and in common with all the important secular histories of the late Roman and early Byzantine periods, it dealt primarily with events contemporary with the author.

As a classicising historian Eunapius imported into his History many of the paraphernalia of the grand manner. Thus, since much of his narrative was concerned with military history, he was obliged to include accounts of battles and sieges. The fragments themselves show few traces of these, although this may be because most of the material is preserved in the *Exc. de Sent.*,[40] for Zosimus briefly remarks a considerable number. Nevertheless, in *Fr.* 9, which prefaced his account of the important battle of Strassburg, Eunapius declares that since Julian's own works give an inimitable account of the campaign, he will not do the same as "those who raise torches in daylight in order to discover something hidden", but will "run quickly through what happened, adding relevant details to what has already been said".[41] These remarks are specific to the battle of Strassburg, but they may well reflect a general unwillingness, or inability, to produce detailed and coherent descriptions of military manoeuvres. Certainly, with the exception of two accounts of sieges during Julian's Persian expedition,[42] the descriptions

in Zosimus of set-piece battles and sieges are vague, with a lack of numbers, topographical information, and details of troop dispositions. The interest of the writer seems to lie in key stratagems and other actions, or any element which is unusual or of particular interest. Thus, in the account of the battle of the river Frigidus in 394 it is the eclipse and the carelessness of Eugenius which receive the most attention, just as in the description of the battle of Strassburg it is Julian's punishment of a cowardly troop of cavalry which takes up most of the text.[43] Here Zosimus may well have been reflecting Eunapius' approach, and, indeed, the detail of the punishment of the troop of cavalry at Strassburg probably is an example of what Eunapius means in *Fr.* 9 by "relevant details". In short, if we can draw conclusions from Zosimus' narrative, Eunapius' accounts of battles and sieges were probably those of a writer with no experience of, or interest in, military affairs.

Set speeches were another characteristic of the grand style of historical writing, and these too Eunapius incorporated into the History. Examples in *oratio obliqua* are generally short, words of Julian (*Fr.* 10) and the general Sebastian (*Fr.* 47), letters from Julian to the German king Vadomar and a certain Cyllenius (*Frr.* 13 and 14,7), and a report of negotiations between Valens and the Goths (*Fr.* 37). The longest speeches, the pair delivered by Julian and the king of the Chamavi (*Fr.* 12), are, however, direct, and this may represent Eunapius' preferred practice, which is certainly the case in the *Lives of the Sophists*. The pair of speeches are themselves thoroughly artificial, and their function seems to have been to illustrate the wisdom and magnanimity of Julian. The Chamavian king speaks first. He has apparently lost his son in battle with the Romans and is now sueing for peace. Julian has asked for his son, whom he has captive, as a hostage. The king says that he would hand over the son were he not dead. In reply Julian reveals that the son is alive and his prisoner and will be kept as a hostage obtained not through agreement but by victory in war. If the Chamavi break the peace, the boy will not be harmed, but the Chamavi will suffer, because the Romans have always defeated them in battle. Zosimus (3,7,7) reduces this transaction to a summary of a few lines, and Ammianus (17,18,5) notes the incident briefly and merely remarks that Julian granted the pleas of the Chamavi for peace. In the light of this it is hard to escape the conclusion that in Eunapius' account of this incident the speeches formed the bulk of the text.[44]

Late historians in the grand manner made much use of various types of digressions, often comparatively long and formally introduced and concluded by expressions such as "I think it timely to describe . . ."

and "I have gone on too long and now I shall return to my subject".[45] They can be closely or only very loosely related to the narrative, and their subjects are varied: geography and topography, anthropological observations, foundation myths, general antiquities, interesting stories, and so on. Zosimus preserves a number of longish digressions, all on religious subjects, but whether they are from Eunapius or insets into the Eunapian material is a matter of dispute.[46] That Eunapius himself introduced digressional material on the Huns is clear from *Fr.* 41, and Zosimus (4,20,1), in a passage probably from Eunapius, promises to write about the names by which the Isaurians are called, a promise which might have been fulfilled in the lacuna which now stands after 5,25. Other material from digressions in the History might be preserved in Zosimus 2,27, a romantic account of the escape of the Persian prince Hormuzd; 3,15,3, a note on a bitumen spring; *Fr.* 2, on the Seleucas bird; and *Fr.* 60, a note on the name Liber used of the god Bacchus. However, since Eunapius seems to have been in the habit of introducing his own discursive commentary directly into the narrative, it is sometimes hard to say what is strictly digressional and what is not. Thus, *Fr.* 54, apparently a digression on the adventures of an actor during the reign of Nero, is actually part of a diatribe by Eunapius against the moral ills of the contemporary Roman state. In this case, the line between what is and is not a digression disappears.[47]

The 'romantic' material of the digressions, or quasi-digressions, appears to have been of a kind much liked by Eunapius, if the *Lives of the Sophists* are any indication.[48] The rest of the material is of a kind with that used by most of the late historians. Much of it seems to have been drawn from standard and often out-of-date handbooks, and to have been as much a diversion and parade of learning as a serious attempt to inform. Thus, in *Fr.* 41 Eunapius indicates that in the first edition of the History he had nothing up-to-date to offer on the Huns, and therefore included old material, drawn from writers such as Herodotus,[49] on tribes such as the Scythians and Massagetae, whose names were often used indiscriminately by late writers for such contemporary peoples as Goths, Huns, and Alans. Moreover, even in the second edition, for which he had recent information on the Huns, Eunapius makes it clear that he did not substitute it for the old material but merely placed it side-by-side.

References to antiquity do not end with the digressions. For Eunapius, again like most of the late historians, emphasises his place in the classical tradition by his frequent use of, reference to, and quotation from, authors of antiquity, amongst whom are Homer,

Hesiod, Pindar, Thucydides, Plato, Aristotle, Menander and Plutarch.[50] The list is a standard one, and so is the list of historical or mythical personages and actions adduced for comparison or contrast: Marius and Sulla, Alexander, Philip, Salmoneus, Scipio and Himilco.[51] Fourteen *exempla* are found in the fragments, a frequency of usage matched only by Ammianus amongst the late historians.

The language of the History, to judge from the fragments, was not very dissimilar from that of the *Lives*, which has been characterised as a mixture of Ionisms and Atticisms (drawn from the major classical authors and at times misused), elements of the *koinë*, vulgarisms, and neologisms.[52] Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 77, I p.159) is somewhat more charitable:

> He is an elegant stylist, if you eliminate words like ἀλεκτρυονῶδες, ἐλαφωδέστερον . . . and so on. For with these expressions he spoils and debases the rest of his vocabulary. In his use of figures of speech he is reckless in a manner inappropriate for a historical style, but the usual smoothness and urbanity of the writing prevents irritation. His organisation and clarity are suitable for history, and his periods are well-balanced and appropriate, except that in some places he uses overblown circumlocutions more suitable for forensic oratory than for history. He often innovates even in syntax, but not so as to cause inelegance or arouse criticism of his methods.

While one who has worked through the fragments of the History might disagree with Photius' judgement upon the organisation and clarity, he has certainly pointed to the most striking characteristic of Eunapius' language, its pompous rhetoric and striving after effect. Often this is no more than padding, apparently a substitute for historical substance, and in places a clear indication of the writer's inability to measure the importance of the events which he relates. Thus, Eunapius ends his account of the causes of the war between Valens and the Goths in the years 366 to 369 with the words:

> From these causes originated the Scythic war which would, it was thought, because of the fame of the people who clashed in it and the size of the forces involved, last for a long time and proceed with fluctuations of fortune to an uncertain outcome, but which was brought to a very calm and safe ending by the intelligence and foresight of the Emperor.
>
> (*Fr.* 37)

This might be appropriate for an imperial panegyric, and it perhaps says something for Eunapius that he could use such words of an Emperor whom he generally disliked. But the hyperbole, of a kind which is common in the *Lives*,[53] and the inept Thucydidean imitation inviting

comparison with the Peloponnesian War, compel us to take the historian's judgement less than seriously. For it is written about the causes of a war which Ammianus (27,5) presents as a series of skirmishes and Zosimus (4,11), who here takes directly from Eunapius,[54] describes as little more than a headhunt by camp-followers of the Roman army. Indeed, if the narrative of Zosimus is a fair reflection, however reduced, of the original, then it appears that Eunapius' account of the campaigns was written in an encomiastic style similar to that of his comments on the causes and that it offered little of substance. Further excess is found in the scenes, again reminiscent of panegyric, in which barbarians weep and grovel before the Romans or the Roman Emperor (*Frr.* 12; 42), and in the use of imagery, drawn especially from the animal world, medicine and philosophy.[55] Imagery is, of course, in itself very necessary, and even extended similes, of the kind favoured by Ammianus, could be effective in a history when used sparingly. But Eunapius has a habit of casting his imagery in the form of a simile which is often inappropriate, and then turning aside to develop the simile, as in *Fr.* 11 where the increase in Julian's forces when he had won over the brigand chief Charietto is likened to the multiplication of the Pythagorean monad.[56]

Another aspect of the style, which is common to most historians in the grand manner, is impatience with excessive detail and 'inappropriate' elements, both of subject-matter and of vocabulary.[57] As far as vocabulary is concerned the canons of classicism are influential, and thus there is a preference for words used by classical authors. A result of this is a tendency to avoid late-developed terminology, especially of government or the military, which was often in Latin. Greek equivalents, which are often anachronistic or ambiguous, are substituted, or circumlocutions are used, or, if the Latin term is admitted, it is often qualified by a formula such as "so the Romans call it", or by an explanatory phrase. Technical terminology is rare in the fragments, and Zosimus usually changes the language of his original,[58] so that it is impossible to be certain about Eunapius' usage there. From what is preserved in the *Excerpta* it appears that he mixed some Latin expressions (never introduced by the "so-called" formula),[59] Greek technical terms,[60] and a few circumlocutions.[61] In contrast, in the *Lives* Eunapius never uses Latin and only uses three Greek technical terms,[62] preferring non-technical alternatives or circumlocutions. Again, in his Christian terminology Eunapius seems to have used a mixture, if *Fr.* 55, the only passage where such usages appear, is representative.[63] Here, too, classicism played a part, but another influence

would have been the writer's strong hostility towards Christianity and Christians, which could be well expressed in contemptuous circumlocutions. This is certainly the case with the *Lives*.[64]

More galling from the point of view of the modern historian is the lack of interest shown in detail. Numbers are rarely given, either in the fragments[65] or by Zosimus, and impressionistic expressions of size, such as "countless tribes" (*Fr.* 55), are preferred, a practice unavoidable in many cases in view of the lack of records. The omission of time-indicators, a stated policy of Eunapius, has already been remarked.[66] Distances, too, are lacking in the fragments, and only a few examples occur in Zosimus.[67] Indeed, the geography and the general ordering of Zosimus' accounts of campaigns that derive from Eunapius are vague and confused. Judgement here can only be tentative, since suitable passages from the *Exc. de Legat.* are missing. But the general sloppiness and lack of interest which Eunapius had towards such matters, together with the fact that Zosimus shows a marked improvement when Olympiodorus becomes his main source,[68] suggest that here Zosimus accurately reflects his original.

The style of the History, as reflected in its language, is, therefore, elevated and rhetorical with a tendency to the general, which makes it a suitable vehicle for a writer who was intent upon moralising in his judgements on phenomena, whether political, social or economic. Thus history merged with biography, and character became the central preoccupation, rather than one of a number of ways of explaining events.[69] This was, in fact, a general characteristic of late historiography, perhaps to be expected in a highly stratified and centralised state, in which power was held by a few and whose propaganda represented the figure of the Emperor as the source of all action. But this tendency found an extreme in Eunapius. To him events and their context were of little importance, and so he rejected chronology. In his view problems of the Roman world resulted from faults of character, which was itself treated as a non-developing phenomenon. Thus, the woes of the early years of Arcadius' reign were caused by the evil deeds of Rufinus and Eutropius (*Frr.* 62; 88), the censure of the former taking on a class-bias as he is condemned for advancing people of the lower orders (*Fr.* 63). Conversely, successes such as those of the generals Sebastian and Fravitta spring from their innate virtues (*Frr.* 47; 60; 80). The contrast between good and evil was absolute; there was no subtlety and few grey areas. The 'good' Julian was a paragon of all that was desirable in a ruler; the 'bad' Constantine and Theodosius were epitomes of the opposite. Symbolism reinforced the morality, as when Festus, the proconsul of

Asia who had killed many pagan philosophers and thaumaturges during Valens' reign, collapsed and died on the steps of the temple of Nemesis, "an event which seemed an admirable example of Providence at work", exults Eunapius,[70] a sentiment which probably echoes that which he uttered at the deaths of Constantine[71] and other persecutors of the pagans.

The form of the characterisations was usually brief and direct. There is little evidence of the detailed and comprehensive exposition of virtues and vices such as Ammianus offered. Comments were spread through the narrative, so that when the *Suda* wished to draw a character sketch from Eunapius, it often did not have a complete excerpt to include, but had to bring together scattered remarks.[72] Vices predominated, as is natural since vicious people predominated in the History, and there was some stress upon the physical vices of sexual debauchery, greed, and gluttony, perhaps as obvious manifestations of a generally evil nature. Hierax was typical (*Fr.* 83): "An Alexandrian with an insatiable appetite like a crow, dissipated and with a cockerel's lust for pleasures – like the most incontinent of Alexandrians and more so, if that is possible".[73] The racism in the censure and a certain prurience underlying some of his words of disapproval were also typical of Eunapius.[74] Whatever their other faults, the characterisations were, however, often lively or striking. Anecdotes help, as, for instance, when Julian deflates the Cynic Heraclius (*Fr.* 18,3) or coolly frees the son of the Alaman king Vadomar while threatening war if the Roman captives are not returned (*Fr.* 13).[75] *Sententiae*, too, often in the form of proverbs, encapsulated the moral of the story,[76] and well-known *exempla* illustrated the point.[77] Unfortunately, here too the ever-discursive Eunapius could not leave well alone. Thus, after describing a conspiracy against Valens (*Fr.* 38) and pointing up the moral with a proverb, he fell to preaching; and when he remarked the punishment by Valens of the supporters of the usurper Procopius (*Fr.* 35), at the point where Ammianus (26,10,9-14) made some direct and relevant comments, Eunapius inserted platitudes on the magnanimity of pardoning the guilty, after which he ended with the banal formula, "but let each man judge these things according to his own opinion".[78] Even persons in the History fell to sermonising, such as Julian, when he extolled his own clemency and read a lesson in loyalty to the king of the Chamavi (*Fr.* 12). But this was probably true to character.

Eunapius was a strong and overt pagan, an initiate of the Eleusinian Mysteries and a follower, like his hero and fellow-initiate Julian, of the mystical form of Neoplatonism which was popular in the fourth

century amongst the educated classes of the Greek East.[79] One of its characteristics, which it shared with many Christians of the period, was a belief in magic and various forms of divination.[80] Eunapius himself mentioned oracles and prophecies in his History,[81] although he deprecated the inclusion of an excessive number of the former as "unsuitable for inclusion in the serious type of History" (*Fr.* 26). He also accepted the validity of thaumaturgy, although he condemned the excessive and imprudent manipulation of it by Maximus of Ephesus.[82]

Eunapius' Neoplatonism, like that of Julian, was firmly rooted in the Greek cultural tradition. Education was, therefore, of primary importance to him,[83] the major carriers of which were the great sophists of Athens and elsewhere, whose careers, especially in education, were the subject of the *Lives of the Sophists*. Eunapius, both in this work and in the History, showed himself eager to associate himself with these men. Fragments of the History mention Heraclius (*Frr.* 18,3; 31), Maximus and Priscus (*Fr.* 19), Libanius (*Fr.* 25),[84] Simonides, Patricius and Hilarius (*Fr.* 41), and perhaps Eueterius.[85] The *Lives* name as mentioned in the History Maximus (7,6,5), Priscus, Hilarius and Proterius (8,1,9 - 2,3), Tuscianus (9,1,3), Prohaeresius (10,1,1) and Libanius (16,1,9). Moreover, we can conjecture that others, such as Oribasius, who was one of Eunapius' sources, Chrysanthius and Eustathius were included. Some of these were important political figures and merited mention even by Ammianus, who did not include sophists for their own sakes. But, although Eunapius implies (*Vit. Soph.* 8,2,3) that in the History he treated the sophists strictly within the general context of events and not because of their merits as sophists, it is clear that, at least in the cases of Prohaeresius and Libanius, more biographical data than strictly necessary were included. Moreover, it is quite likely that, as a result of his estimation of their importance to the culture which he so valued, Eunapius overemphasised their political importance. Certainly, in the *Lives* (6,5,3-9) he played up the role of the sophist Eustathius on the embassy which Constantius II sent to the Persian King Shapur in 358. Ammianus, in contrast, limits himself (17,14,1) to a dry mention of its failure.

Eunapius and many of his fellow sophists – for he would certainly have considered himself as such by training – regarded Athens as the centre of their intellectual world.[86] Rome was treated with a certain distaste. Eunapius (*Vit. Soph.* 10,7,10-11) says that when the Romans asked Prohaeresius to send them one of his pupils, he sent Eusebius, who came from Alexandria and who "seemed to be especially suitable for that city, since he was skilled at flattering and fawning upon power.

At Athens he seemed to be a trouble-maker". This conscious provincialism sprang in part from a localism which the Greeks of the late Empire still cultivated,[87] and in part from a rejection by the Neoplatonic mystics of state politics.[88] *Fr.* 23, in which Eunapius says that Julian became Emperor not because he wished it but because he saw that it was necessary for the state, suggests that Cracco Ruggini goes too far when she claims that Eunapius despised all political activity and traced Julian's failure to his decision to enter politics.[89] Nevertheless, the distaste in the *Lives* (7,3,10 - 4,7) for the worldly ambitions of Maximus is clear.

More important than Eunapius' quietism for its effect upon the History is his attitude as a pagan towards Christianity and Christians. Writing at a period when, with remissions, the government was moving steadily towards the total suppression of non-Christian religions, Eunapius was notorious for his bitter hatred of the Church.[90] Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 77, I p.159) says that in the first edition "he scattered blasphemies against our pure Christian faith, extolling to the skies the superstitions of the pagans and often slandering those Emperors who were pious Christians". This hatred comes through clearly in the *Lives of the Sophists*, where Constantius II is contemptuously described as "wrapped up in the books of the Christians",[91] Christians as a group are termed "polluted",[92] and the monks are called, perhaps with some justification, filthy, swinish bullies and, less plausibly, traitors who opened Thermopylae to Alaric.[93] From the History itself only a few passages survive which mention Christians and Christianity, probably a fair reflection of the second edition from which, as Photius says, much of the virulent anti-Christian material had been excised.[94] In *Fr.* 78 Eunapius ridicules a prefect of Rome who, in celebrating a Roman victory over the barbarians, erected in the Circus paintings which did not in the conventional manner represent the victory as won by the courage of the Emperor or the strength of the soldiers, but showed the hand of God putting the enemy to flight. Here the historian, playing upon the replacement of the conventional themes of official propaganda, suggests that the Christianisation of the victory brought the imperial power into contempt.[95] In *Fr.* 55 another tack is taken and it is insinuated that Christianity could, albeit unwittingly, endanger the security of the Empire. Here Eunapius says that during the reign of Theodosius I a band of barbarians crossed a river, almost certainly the Danube, and, although they carried with them the objects of their ancestral worship, they kept these hidden and pretended to be Christians in order to obtain freedom of movement. Some of them

dressed up as priests, and amongst them also were monks who imitated their Roman counterparts by donning dark cloaks.

Eunapius' hostility arose, of course, from his pagan and classical background, which led him to condemn Christianity as innovative, inferior, and a source of evil, a view which was shared by many pagans of the period. Specific objections, too, were shared, especially the disgust at the behaviour of the monks which, it has been suggested, reflected the disgust of the cultured urbanite at the behaviour of the uncultured rustic.[96] But Eunapius expressed his hostility to Christianity more violently than most, which was probably partly because of his own personality, which from the *Lives* appears to have been prone to extreme and sweeping judgements of all kinds, and partly because of the time at which he was writing, when the government, especially under Theodosius I, was becoming more aggressively anti-pagan. Certainly, hostility to Christianity might have influenced the judgements of other secular historians of the late Empire also,[97] but generally they seem to have maintained a balanced approach. In Eunapius, however, the factor of religion was so pervasive that it tended to condition judgements in all spheres of activity.[98] Thus, for instance, the invasion of Greece by Alaric was not only viewed as an instance of the general success of the barbarians against the Christian Empire, but it was also specifically associated with Christianity through the allegation that Thermopylae was thrown open to him by monks. As a result Eunapius' analysis of events was generally simplistic and one-sided, far more so than that of other secular historians, who seem to have been better able to resist this tendency.

Since Eunapius' approach to historical explanation rested upon a view of a person as good or evil, his hostility to Christianity was frequently expressed in terms of character. This is especially clear in his treatment of the Emperors, who were the pivotal points of the History and whose reigns, according to the author, provided the framework of its organisation. Constantine I, who along with Theodosius I was the most hated enemy in the eyes of the pagans of the fourth century, would certainly have been one of the "pious Emperors" who, Photius says, were most vilified in the History. Unfortunately, there is little in the fragments on Constantine, so that recourse is necessary to the *Lives of the Sophists* supplemented by Zosimus. The emphasis in the *Lives* is naturally upon Constantine's relations with paganism and the philosophers. Thus, he is accused of destroying the most famous temples and building churches (*Vit. Soph.* 6,1,5). He is also blamed for the foundation of Constantinople, a city to which many pagans were

hostile as the Christian capital of the Empire.[99] Eunapius explains Constantine's motive for its foundation (*Vit. Soph.* 6,2,7-8) as the desire to give his name to a city and to be applauded in the theatre by a great crowd of drunken and fickle men. To this end he brought such people together on the old site of Byzantium and diverted a huge supply of corn to the new city to feed the populace. But since the site of the city was so bad that corn-ships often could not come to anchor, shortages and famines were frequent. During one such shortage the praetorian prefect, Ablabius, persuaded Constantine that the philosopher Sopater was to blame for the failure of the winds to drive the ships to harbour, and Sopater was put to death. Constantine's own subsequent death was a punishment for his honouring of Ablabius; and Ablabius himself was executed by Constantius II, so that the shade of Sopater gained its revenge (*Vit. Soph.* 6,3,9-13).[100] The stress here upon Constantine as a blood-thirsty tyrant was probably in the History also, since the first two lines of *Fr.* 7a, which probably refer to Constantius' execution of Gallus and compare Constantius with his father, suggest that Eunapius, like Zosimus (2,29), made something of Constantine's execution of Crispus and Fausta.

To a degree Zosimus differs from the Eunapius of the *Lives* in his approach to Constantine's activities. According to him the motive for the foundation of Constantinople was the desire to create a rival to pagan Rome (2,30,1), and although he notes the distribution of supplies to the populace (2,32,1) and the crowds that flocked there (2,35,1), he makes no disparaging references either to the drunken mob or to the unsuitability of the harbour. In fact, although he does mention Constantine's hostility to paganism, his family murders, and his luxurious living,[101] Zosimus primarily attacks the Emperor as an innovator in public life. Like Eunapius,[102] Zosimus is hostile to the monarchical form of government. He condemns Constantine for abolishing the tetrarchy, which, he says (2,8,2), was working well, and claims that after his accession to sole power his behaviour began to deteriorate (2,29,1). In war he was inept (2,31,3), he interfered with the established officers of government (2,32-33), and, by removing the military competence of the praetorian prefect, he made the soldiers unruly (2,33,4-5). He also weakened the defences of the Empire by withdrawing soldiers to the towns (2,34) and ruined businessmen by the imposition of heavy taxes (2,38). To what extent all this came from Eunapius is unclear, but the condemnation of innovation, the sweeping and superficial nature of the charges, and a certain orientation towards urban interests[103] look Eunapian.

On Eunapius' attitude towards Theodosius I much more can be gleaned from the fragments themselves. Again, the attacks are personal: the Emperor was wicked and intemperate (*Fr.* 48), negligent and slothful (*Fr.* 49) – vices which he permitted in his soldiers (*Fr.* 58) –, and generally incompetent (*Fr.* 56). All these charges are repeated by Zosimus,[104] who also adds the criticism, which he made against Constantine, that Theodosius was a dangerous innovator, especially in his increasing the number of the masters of the soldiers (4,27). In *Fr.* 55, while insinuating that the Christianity of Theodosius endangered the security of the Empire, Eunapius also condemns what he sees as the Emperor's policy of friendship towards the barbarians. Zosimus, too, repeats this condemnation in a number of places,[105] and this certainly reflects a preoccupation of his source. In *Fr.* 60 Eunapius describes a quarrel between two Gothic chieftains in the imperial service, Fravitta and Eriulph, over whether the Goths should use their favoured status to subvert the Empire or to defend it. As usual, the dispute is couched in moralistic terms: not only is Fravitta, who stands for loyalty to the Empire, presented as a paragon of virtue, and Eriulph as a figure of evil, but also the resolution of their quarrel, at a drunken banquet given by the Emperor, serves as an occasion for remarks on the evils of drink. Cracco Ruggini holds that, in his treatment of Fravitta, Eunapius demonstrates that, although he hates barbarians, his attitude is not racial but cultural, since Fravitta, although a Goth, is acceptable, because he has adopted Roman ways to the extent of worshipping the gods and asking for a Roman wife.[106] Eunapius' interest here, however, is primarily religious, since later he says that Fravitta as a reward for defeating Gainas asked the Emperor Arcadius that he be allowed to worship in the ancestral manner (*Fr.* 82, *κατὰ τὸν πάτριον νόμον*).[107] Elsewhere Eunapius shows overt racism in his attacks upon the character of people within the Empire, especially the Egyptians,[108] and in his mockery of the stature of the Goths (*Frr.* 37; 42). On the wider question, which is raised in *Fr.* 60, of the relations between the Empire and the Germans, Eunapius, preoccupied with moralising and his personal presentation of the issue, does not offer a clear opinion, although his attitude towards Fravitta suggests that he was not blindly anti-German. Probably he never approached the question outside the context of his attacks upon the characters of the Emperors whom he hated, so that he did not produce a considered position such as that held by Olympiodorus.

The antithesis of these, and other, villains was the virtuous and heroic pagan Emperor Julian. Eunapius' fervent declaration of affection

towards Julian, which he makes in the preface to the second book of the History, has already been remarked.[109] Very little of the material on Julian survives, which is hardly surprising since it must have been offensive to Christian readers.[110] Nevertheless, it is clear from the fragments that Eunapius produced a narrative which aimed to illustrate his virtues, such as bravery, strength, and justice (*Fr.* 10), clemency (*Frr.* 12; 17), fairness and affability (*Fr.* 16), foresight (*Fr.* 22,1) and speed of action (*Fr.* 14,6). Unlike Ammianus, Eunapius expressed no doubt about Julian's quality as a philosopher (cf. *Fr.* 10), and although he did not claim divinity for him,[111] he did regard him as the great *exemplum*, the true king (*Fr.* 10, ὁ ὄντως βασιλεύς). Certainly, Eunapius was not wholly uncritical, since he seems to have censured Julian's treatment of Prohaeresius (*Fr.* 25) and his more intemperate attacks on Christian property.[112] Moreover, it appears from the *Lives of the Sophists* (7,4,10) that he, like Ammianus and unlike Zosimus, indicated that the Persian expedition had begun to fail before Julian's death. However, in general Eunapius' approach was undisguisedly panegyrical, and when he described the search for Julian's successor, he took the opportunity to stress that his hero was irreplaceable and to make a declaration, which is also the basic theme of Mamertinus' panegyric, that Julian answered the needs of the state: "nor did he take up the throne because he wanted it, but because he saw that mankind needed a ruler" (*Fr.* 23).

In the preface to the first book of his History (*Fr.* 1 p.13) Eunapius declares:

> I write with confidence, because I follow [ἑπόμενος] those men who were by far the most educated of our day and who earnestly urged me not to allow to pass in silence the public events both of our time and of the period between us and when Dexippus' work ended . . . .

The preface to the second book (*Fr.* 8) elaborates on this. There Eunapius declares that Oribasius encouraged him to write and supplied him with personal notes (ὑπόμνημα), which would probably have covered all the stages of Julian's career at which he was present.[113] Oribasius was a well-connected source, since he had been the confidant and personal physician of Julian, not only present in Gaul and on the Persian expedition, but also one of the conspirators in the plot to have Julian acclaimed Augustus.[114] Probably basing herself on Eunapius' statements in his prefaces, W.C. Wright wrote that the History, had it survived intact, would have been a valuable document because the author knew the leading men of the Empire and was an eyewitness of much that he related.[115] That he was an eyewitness of much outside

Athens and Sardis, which were hardly important centres of political activity, is unlikely, since he seems to have spent little time away from these cities. As for the "leading men", there is no evidence that he was conversant with anyone outside an academic circle of sophists, to which the label in the first preface, "the most educated of our day", points. Certainly, Oribasius was a well-connected and important source, and Chrysanthius, Prohaeresius, and Tuscianus might have had some good information. But they would have been useful only up to Julian's death, and their information must not be overrated. Chrysanthius, a relative of Eunapius and the recipient of fulsome praise in the *Lives of the Sophists*, refused Julian's request to join him at court and, although he was made chief priest of Lydia, was not at the centre of events and may have been out of favour.[116] Prohaeresius had been a man of more influence with Julian's predecessors, although as a Christian he fell from favour under Julian. Moreover, when Eunapius met him he was a very old man who had spent most of the later part of his life out of the political mainstream at Athens,[117] so that he would not have been a good source of information, even if Eunapius had then started to collect material for his History. *Fragment* 8, in which he seems to indicate that the project was suggested to him only after Julian's death, indicates that this was unlikely. Tuscianus, whom Eunapius names as a source for the *Lives of the Sophists* (9,2,15), was probably a better informant, since he served as *assessor* to Anatolius, praetorian prefect of Illyricum from 357 to 360.[118] What other first-hand sources Eunapius might have used, especially for the period after Julian's death, is unknown. Perhaps he exploited whatever connections he had to obtain access to first-hand sources. Certainly, in *Fr.* 74 he implies that he attempted to interview travellers for information on western events, but he indicates that these travellers were not well-connected and that their information was unreliable.[119]

To what extent Eunapius used written sources is unclear, although much of the material for the first book must have come from historical works. Recently Paschoud has advanced a radical theory which proposes that Eunapius based his History primarily on Oribasius and on an anonymous work *Against the Christians*, using other sources only where these failed him.[120] This anonymous author, writing in Latin in the West, produced a work of unscrupulous anti-Christian propaganda, whose characteristics were a concern for pagan religion, chronological falsifications, false causation, and a mixture of good and bad information. He perhaps took much of his material from the *Annales* of Nicomachus Flavianus, whose chronology he attacked, an attack which

Eunapius turned against Dexippus. This theory is ingenious but implausible, as well as impossible to pick apart in detail, because it rests on assumptions which can be neither proved nor disproved. But a few of its major weaknesses can be pointed out. First, in drawing the characteristics of the work of the anonymous author primarily from Zosimus and then extrapolating these back upon Eunapius, Paschoud has to argue that all of the relevant part of Zosimus is drawn directly from Eunapius. Yet it has been suggested that one of the most important passages for his case, on Gratian's refusal of the role of the Pontifex Maximus (4,36), came from elsewhere.[121] Moreover, even if it is conceded that this passage was found in Eunapius, the double pun on Pontifex Maximus, which shows the Latin origin of the story, does not in itself mean that it came from a written source.[122] It could equally well have been told to Eunapius by, for example, one of the travellers from the West whom he mentions in *Fr.* 74. Secondly, it is hard to see why the anonymous writer would have wished to attack the traditional form of chronology used in the pagan *Annales* of Flavianus, whereas Eunapius had a perfectly good, independent reason for attacking Dexippus, namely that he used a form of chronology with clear Christian associations.[123] Thirdly, Paschoud has to assume that Eunapius is baldly lying in the passages in which he shows concern for the reliability of his sources.[124] Fourthly, all of the characteristics of the anonymous author are also those of Eunapius himself, and, indeed, the apparent falsifications of the chronology may have arisen from the topical structure of the narrative rather than from any deliberate attempt to mislead.[125] In short, the theory of an anonymous work *Against the Christians* as a major source for Eunapius is unlikely and unnecessary. The faults of the Eunapian narrative are not the results of ill-will, but of incompetence.

If the anonymous author is set aside, there is nothing left except for references to writings of Julian[126] and the vexed question of Eunapius' relationship with Ammianus. Generally it has been assumed that both were writing at about the same time and that, if there was any contact between the two histories, Eunapius used Ammianus. Recently, however, Barnes has argued that Eunapius produced his History before that of Ammianus, who made use of Eunapius.[127] Certainly, Barnes' dating of *c.* 380 for Eunapius' History up to the battle of Adrianople is attractive; and, indeed, the part of the History up to Julian's death might have appeared earlier.[128] On the other hand, his conclusion that Ammianus used Eunapius is not so firm. First, most of the similarities between Ammianus and Zosimus (who, it is again assumed, used

Eunapius exclusively) occur in their accounts of Julian's Persian expedition, and here a common source cannot be ruled out. Secondly, although for the publication of books 14-25 of Ammianus' History we have a *terminus post quem* of 388, we do not know how long the work was in preparation.[129] Thus, Barnes' dating establishes only a possibility that Ammianus used Eunapius. However, there are a few observations which might suggest some type of contact between the two historians. First, Eunapius in *Fr.* 9 appears to be attacking the sort of elaborate account of the battle of Strassburg which Ammianus produced. Second, they both make a remarkably large use of *exempla* and long similes, significantly more than comparable historians. Third, Eunapius is cool to Libanius, a fellow-citizen and correspondent of Ammianus,[130] and Ammianus never mentions Oribasius, a friend of Eunapius. Fourth, in his *Lives of the Sophists* (10,7,10) Eunapius sneers at one who goes to Rome, while Ammianus hardly mentions Athens. All this may be merely coincidental, but it might also indicate rivalry and mutual knowledge. Ammianus seems to have been in Antioch in 371, when he witnessed the persecution of pagan philosophers there, and he need not have gone to Rome until 383/4 or even later,[131] so that there might well have been a long period of potential contact while Eunapius was working on his History and Ammianus could well have been working on his. It has often been remarked that the influence of the Greek language is very strong on Ammianus' Latin, and this is assumed to have been because Greek was his first language. Is it not, however, equally possible that the influence stems from the fact that what we have is a Latin translation and adaptation of a Greek first draft, which was produced in the East contemporaneously with Eunapius' work and later taken to Rome where it was translated and expanded with more material on western events?[132] When Libanius speaks of Ammianus reading his History in parts he would in this case be referring to a translation of an already written work (*Ep.* 1063).

As an historian Eunapius had many of the faults common to the genre as practised in late antiquity: weak chronology, lack of numbers, vague terminology, insufficient geographical and topographical detail, and overemphasis upon moralising and character which led to simplistic causation and feeble analysis. Many of these characteristics were magnified by other faults which were more specific to Eunapius himself. His monomaniac anti-Christianity seriously restricted his vision and the scope of his judgement, which was further impaired by his lack of experience in politics, administration, or the military. His poor or, rather, uneven sources limited the material available to him, and errors

in the *Lives of the Sophists* and in Zosimus suggest that he often handled what he had with considerable carelessness.[133] He tried to make up for this dearth of information with rhetorical sermonising and irrelevancies. The account of Valens' campaign of 366 against the Goths, which survives as *Fr.* 37, is a typical passage, in which padding exceeds the sparse details offered. The more businesslike Zosimus (4, 10,1-2) pared it down to the relevant material, but his account remains far inferior to the better informed and far fuller narrative of Ammianus (27,5). Had Eunapius' History survived complete, it would probably appear that Zosimus has preserved most of what was valuable in it.

CHAPTER 2

OLYMPIODORUS OF THEBES

Olympiodorus was born in Egyptian Thebes, probably during the period 365-380.[1] Little is known about his life, and nothing about his early years. He calls himself a ποιητής by profession (*Fr.* 1), which is taken to mean that he was one of the numerous itinerant poets whom Egypt produced during this period;[2] and a *Blemmyomachia*, parts of which survive on papyrus, has been ascribed to him.[3] But it has also been pointed out that at the period ποιητής could be used in a wider sense of a writer of artistic poetry or prose,[4] which would connect him more closely with the sophistic tradition. His known literary friends also connect him with this tradition: Leontius, for whom he helped to obtain a sophistic chair at Athens (*Fr.* 28), Philtatius, whose assistance to the library at Athens was rewarded with a statue,[5] and Hierocles, who dedicated a work to him.[6] As was not uncommon in the late Empire, literary accomplishments led to a diplomatic career.[7] It has usually been assumed that this career was in the service of the eastern Emperor, Theodosius II, but more recently the view has been re-asserted that he saw some service in the West under Honorius, a view to which his knowledge of and interest in the West and the use of Latin in his History lend support.[8] In this case, his first recorded activity, on a diplomatic mission to the Huns in 412, could have been on behalf of the court at Ravenna.[9] Whether or not he was in the West at this period, in about 415 he left for a visit to Athens, where he involved himself in the activity of the sophists, and a while later he sailed to Egypt where he visited his home city of Thebes and was invited to travel to the land of the Blemmyes beyond the border of Upper Egypt.[10] This invitation, says Olympiodorus (*Fr.* 37), was extended by "the phylarchs and the prophets" of the Blemmyes because of his reputation, a reputation which Hierocles seems to confirm in his dedication, where he speaks of Olympiodorus' honours and says that "he attached many great barbarian peoples to the Roman Empire".[11] Even if Olympiodorus served the western court on his mission to the Huns, he is hardly likely to have won such a reputation for activity so distant, so that he must also have served the eastern court, perhaps on missions to the Blemmyes and other peoples of the area. But since it also seems likely that he did visit Italy and Rome at some stage in his career, a political mission to Rome is postulated after the fall of John

and in connection with the coronation of Valentinian III in 425, a suggestion which receives some slight support from his apparent connection with backers of Valentinian's mother, Placidia.[12]

Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 80, I pp.166f.) tells us that the History of Olympiodorus was in twenty-two books and dedicated to the Emperor Theodosius II. Unlike the other works under discussion, Olympiodorus' History was not excerpted by those who assembled the collections which Constantine Porphyrogenitus commissioned, so that Photius' comparatively long summary of the work is the major source of material. The summary, as Photius' most recent editor remarks, was probably not made from memory but from notes.[13] Although within its limitations it seems to be a reasonably accurate reflection of what Olympiodorus wrote, it is no substitute for a series of excerpts. It offers, for instance, no indication of whether or not Olympiodorus used formal speeches, and little means of judging the depth and proportions of the narrative or the structure and intent of the digressions. On the other hand, when set beside other surviving material it enables us to form some opinion on the overall structure and content of the work and the general intentions of the writer.[14]

The other major source of material is the *New History* of Zosimus, who made exclusive use of Olympiodorus for the last part of his work. Where Zosimus' text can be compared with Photius' summary there is usually full factual agreement, and comparison between the last part of the *New History* with that based upon Eunapius shows that Zosimus was greatly influenced by Olympiodorus in his approach and attitudes. Thus, new characteristics appear, for instance, a sympathy for Stilicho which contrasts with the Eunapian hostility, a sharp increase in the use of Latin words, and an almost complete omission of events in the eastern Empire.[15] This list can be extended: consular dating, less use of the first person, which is confined to cross-references within the History,[16] less of the turgid moralising favoured by Eunapius, more narrative detail, more numbers and names, and more knowledge and sophistication in respect of domestic politics and diplomacy. An example of the last appears at 5,36,2, where Zosimus remarks confidently upon a course of military action which the Emperor should have taken, the sort of comment which he never makes when he relies upon Eunapius.

Others who used material from Olympiodorus are Sozomen, Philostorgius and, possibly, Procopius in a short section of the introduction to his *Vandalic War*. Of these three Sozomen is the most valuable and he often supplements Zosimus, whereas Philostorgius is

less so, since he often differs in attitude and detail, using at least one other source.[17]

Photius says that Olympiodorus' History began with the seventh consulship of Honorius and the second of Theodosius II and ended at the proclamation of Valentinian III as Emperor of the West. It therefore covered the years 407 to 425 and, to judge both from the point of conclusion and from the material that survives, in its narrative part at least it concentrated on western events. Thus, from its point of beginning, from its western orientation, and from the general style of its historiography it is clear that Olympiodorus' work did not set out to continue Eunapius, who ended in 404.[18]

It is usually assumed that the whole work was published as a unit between 425 and the death of its dedicatee, Theodosius II, in 450. However, Photius, who gives only this one division of the History, notes the end of the first decad after the account of Olympiodorus' visit to the Huns (*Fr.* 18) which seems to have been made in or around 412. Since the end of the decad probably marked a major division of the work, it is possible that the first ten books appeared separately, any time after 417. Thompson argues that the whole History had appeared before 429, and probably before 427, because at the latter date Boniface was declared a public enemy and at the former he invited the Vandals into Africa, and Olympiodorus, who praises Boniface warmly, could hardly have done so after 429.[19] However, the tradition that Boniface invited in the Vandals is probably false,[20] and he appears to have been back in favour from 430 until his death in 432.[21] Moreover, Olympiodorus writes from the side of the partisans of the Empress Placidia, who always favoured Boniface over his rival Aetius. Firmer *termini ante quem* for publication are offered by Philostorgius, who probably used Olympiodorus and who published about 440, and by Sozomen, who certainly used him and published about 443, although even here there is no absolute certainty, because all the close parallels in these two authors come from the first decad. This closed in 412 and could have been published any time after 417, the date of the marriage of Constantius and Placidia remarked in *Fr.* 15. One further point may, however, be made: that the History, with its Egyptian and openly pagan flavour, would most probably have been dedicated to the pious Theodosius during the period of favour of the Empress Eudocia (*ca* 423-444) or, more narrowly, during the ascendancy of the Egyptian pagan and poetaster, Cyrus of Panopolis (*ca* 438 - *ca* 443). That Olympiodorus was connected with the circle of Eudocia and Cyrus is strongly suggested by the fact that the Leontius for whom he helped to obtain a

sophistic chair at Athens (*Fr.* 28) was the father of the Empress herself.[22]

The year in which Photius says that Olympiodorus' History began, 407, was the one in which the Germans began flooding across the Rhine into Gaul.[23] Thus, it was the natural starting point for a work which dealt to a large degree with the dismemberment of much of the western Empire by the invaders and with the attempts of the imperial generals to stop or at least control it. However, although this was the formal starting-point of the History, it is clear that it included some references to earlier events. Matthews suggests that there was an introduction which went back to the invasion of Radagaisus in 405-06.[24] He bases himself on two observations, the first, that the chapter of Zosimus (4,26) which bridges the years 404 to 407 deals with Radagaisus' invasion and other events of 405, and the second, that Sozomen (9,4) notes the appointment of Jovius as praetorian prefect of Illyricum, which was one of a number of complex manoeuvres which took place in 405 between Alaric and the western court. The argument is based upon two related assumptions, that material appears in Zosimus in the same place as in Olympiodorus, and that Olympiodorus followed a strictly annalistic narrative-structure in his History. The first, which is very much dependent upon the second, is in itself not strong, since in Photius' summary a mention of Radagaisus appears in *Fr.* 9, which follows material on the years 407-10, and Zosimus could have taken his material from here or elsewhere. The second will be attacked below, where it will be argued that the structure of Olympiodorus' History was topical-geographical and also rather repetitive and confused. There is, however, no dispute over the actual existence of an introduction, since *Fr.* 2, the first fragment of the narrative, contains material which predates both 407 and 405. All of this fragment is concerned with Stilicho and mentions, amongst other details, his tutelage over the sons of Theodosius I and his marriage to Serena, both of which pre date 405, and his success in various battles, none of which is named but some of which could have been before 404. This suggests that the introduction was not simply a survey of major events from 405 or any other date, but offered a sketch of the early career of Stilicho.[25] This fits well with Olympiodorus' view of Stilicho's importance, which is clear from Zosimus, and suggests that the formal beginning of the History with the disastrous German invasions was provided with a counter-point in the introductory account of the successes of Stilicho, who was soon to be murdered.

In the summary by Photius the material on Stilicho is immediately

followed by a series of fragments, all but one dealing with the relations between the Romans and Alaric until his death in 410. *Fr.* 3 gives in order the reasons for the first and second sieges of Rome,[26] the capture of Rome after the third siege (connected with the reasons given for the first two sieges), the elevation of Attalus before the third siege, and the enmity of Sarus as an extra reason for the third siege. The orientation of this passage is towards Alaric. Then follows *Fr.* 4 on cannibalism at Rome; *Fr.* 5 on Stilicho's payment of 400 *centenaria* of gold to Alaric in 408; *Fr.* 6 on the murder of Serena and Eucherius in 408; *Fr.* 7, a note on the *buccellarii* and federates; *Fr.* 8 on the career of Olympius, who was killed some time after 409; *Fr.* 9, a note on Radagaisus' optimates; *Fr.* 10 on the death of Alaric and succession of Ataulf. There is much chronological confusion here, and Photius may have been responsible for some of it.[27] But even so, it is unlikely that, had he been confronted with a narrative that had an annalistic structure, he would have produced the order above. Even the suggestion of Matthews, that the basis of the History was an annalistic account of Italian affairs interspersed with digressions on Gaul and Spain,[28] does not account for the position of *Frr.* 5 and 8. It seems rather that the overall structure of the first few books of the History was topical rather than annalistic,[29] and that they dealt first with Alaric's relations with the western court after and because of the death of Stilicho, then with affairs within the beleaguered city of Rome, with the regime of Olympius, and finally with the death of Alaric and Ataulf's succession. Some sort of chronological control within the topics was achieved by the use of the consular system of dating to mark the years and the Roman calendar to mark smaller units.[30] But the continual cross-references (associated in Zosimus with the use of the first person)[31] and the frequent repetitions caused the grave confusion and incoherence of which both Photius and modern scholars complain.[32] This topical structure, which appears in Philostorgius' treatment of the three sieges of Rome together (12,3), continues after *Fr.* 10 in Photius' summary of Olympiodorus. Thus, *Fr.* 12 deals with the British usurpers from 406 to 409, *Fr.* 13 deals with the career of Attalus from his negotations with Honorius in 409 to his second deposition, mutilation, and exile in 417, and *Fr.* 14 returns to 409 to record the death of Allobich. Later *Fr.* 34 has for its subject Placidia and Constantius from their marriage in 417 until his death in 421. That this structure is not the result of Photius' summarising is clear because the topical treatment of the British usurpers is found also in Sozomen (9,11-12) and Zosimus (6,1-5), Sozomen placing it in the same position in his narrative but

Zosimus showing some independence by placing it slightly differently.

The confusion of Olympiodorus' narrative, with the cross-references and repetitions, as well as the many personal reminiscences, was not simply caused by the writer's incompetence in organising his material. It resulted from his aims, which were different from those of Eunapius, Priscus or Malchus, and which were not, as theirs were, to produce a formal history in the classical grand manner. Photius indicates that he was quite clear on this, for he reports that Olympiodorus declared that he was not writing a history but material for history (*οὐ συγγραφὴν . . . ἀλλὰ ὕλην συγγραφῆς*, *Fr.* 1).[33] By freeing himself from the constraints of formal history, which restricted personal reminiscences and commentary by subordinating them to the narrative-line and to other requirements of the genre, he was able not only to insert much more personal and other material than would have been allowed, but, equally important, he could comment more extensively upon the events, policies and personalities of the period. In other words, whereas the formal histories were oriented towards the narrative, Olympiodorus' work laid more emphasis upon commentary. Hence the problems for those who tried to extract a coherent series of facts.

Despite the apparent confusion of the narrative, the overall work was dramatically satisfying in that it developed the theme of the decline and then the recovery of the West.[34] The first decad, beginning with the murder of the general Stilicho, to whom Olympiodorus was consistently sympathetic, detailed an unremitting series of disasters, first at the hands of Alaric in Italy and then in Gaul and Spain as usurper fought with usurper, with imperial general, or barbarian chief. But, interestingly, in Photius' summary it ends with the death of Sarus, who had been singled out near to the beginning (*Fr.* 3) as an especial cause of Alaric's hostility and who seems to have played a rather ambiguous role throughout the first decad.[35] The second part opens hopefully with Ataulf in Gaul promising the head of Jovinus, the last of the Gallic usurpers, in exchange for a treaty with Honorius (*Fr.* 20) and continues with the crushing of the revolt of Heraclian in Africa.[36] Then come the negotiations between Ataulf and the western court that ended with the Roman-style marriage of Ataulf and Placidia promising a Romano-Visigothic alliance (*Fr.* 24). Things took a turn for the worse when Ataulf was murdered and was briefly succeeded by Singeric, the brother of Sarus. But they began to improve again when Wallia succeeded Singeric after only seven days (*Fr.* 26), soon returned Placidia to Honorius (*Fr.* 31), and set off to Spain to fight the Vandal and Alan

invaders there. Upon his death in 418 Wallia was succeeded by the pro-Roman Theoderic I (*Fr.* 35). The end of the History, which seems to have concentrated on Italy, was written up to a climax. Placidia is exiled to the East, and Boniface's loyalty to her is remarked (*Fr.* 40). After the death of Honorius (*Fr.* 41) Boniface is formally praised (*Fr.* 42). The revival of the city of Rome after the sack by Alaric has already been noted (*Fr.* 25), and now a description of the glories of the city (*Frr.* 43 and 44) and perhaps a digression on Italy (cf. *Fr.* 45) prepare the way for the victorious campaign against the usurper John and the triumphal coronation of Valentinian III at Rome (*Fr.* 46).[37] In this climax there is not one theme but two themes coming together. First there is decline and recovery, the decline symbolised by the sack of Rome which came near to the beginning of the work as a result of the initial concentration upon Alaric in Italy, and the recovery symbolised by the coronation at Rome of Valentinian.[38] The second theme, which must have been calculated to make a political point, is the success of the co-operation of the East and the West in restoring the legitimate Emperor Valentinian, as the eastern generals Aspar and Ardabur work with Placidia's western supporters Candidianus and Boniface to overthrow the usurper John.[39]

Olympiodorus' History covered only eighteen years in its twenty-two books, which suggests that it was very detailed. The expansion of Zosimus' text when he turns to Olympiodorus seems to confirm this, and there are hints of it in Photius' summary. Thus, *Fr.* 3 summarises what was clearly a longish discussion of Alaric's reasons for attacking Rome, which finds some reflection in Zosimus' material on the first two sieges and the first elevation of Attalus (5,36-45; 6,6-7). Again, Zosimus (6,8-9) indicates a detailed treatment of the negotiations between Attalus and Honorius, which are noted in *Fr.* 13. The depth of treatment throughout the History was apparently uneven. The first ten books dealt with the years 407 to 412 at the rate of just over half a year per book, while the last twelve books covered 413 to 425 at about one year each. The first ten books seem initially to have concentrated on affairs in Italy and then to have alternated between the disturbances in Gaul and Spain and the manoeuvres of the western court at Ravenna.[40] In the last twelve the focus changed somewhat. Although some attention was given to Italian affairs involving Honorius, Constantius III, and John, more space was given to events in Gaul and Spain, especially during the years 413 to 418 when the activities of the Visigoths of Ataulf and Wallia were of central interest.[41] Towards the end attention seems to have turned entirely back to Italy, as the

History built up to the return of Placidia and Valentinian to Rome.[42]

The depth of detail would also have varied with the quality of Olympiodorus' sources. He himself was a well-educated and well-travelled man, whose acquaintance with politicians and administrators, as well as his own diplomatic activity, would have given him access to excellent first-hand information. Literary sources would, of course, have been used by him for his learned digressions, but, significantly, there are only small traces of these.[43] Official documents would also have been referred to, as the mention of a *relatio* of a prefect of Rome (*Fr.* 25) shows. He might even have made some use of formal histories of the period, if such were available at the time of writing.[44] But the nature of the History and Olympiodorus' own connections make it likely that most of his narrative material was from first-hand sources. Most of his own direct contributions which are recognisable seem to have been digressional, but if he served the court at Ravenna and if, as Matthews suggested,[45] he travelled to the West in connection with the coronation of Valentinian III, then he might himself have been a substantial first-hand source. But most must have come from his acquaintances. Unfortunately only one is named, Valerius, who was an official, possibly a governor (ἄρχων) in Thrace, and the event for which he is cited, the removal of some apotropaic statues found in Thrace, was hardly central to the narrative.[46] Moreover, as an official in Thrace Valerius would have been of little use on western affairs. More valuable would have been Justinianus, a professor of rhetoric mentioned by Zosimus (5,30,4-5) as an advisor to Stilicho, who could have supplied material upon his patron, of utmost value for the first part of the History.[47] But the best potential source is found associated with Placidia, who was central to many of the events described, and that is the soldier Candidianus, who was certainly in her retinue, who plays a prominent role in the History, and whom Olympiodorus would have met had he travelled to Italy in connection with Valentinian's coronation. It was Candidianus who arranged the marriage of Placidia with Ataulf, and Olympiodorus might have ascribed to him the realisation of its political advantages.[48] When Placidia was exiled to the East (*Fr.* 40), Candidianus presumably travelled with her since he appears as the third general, with the 'easterners' Aspar and Ardabur, in command of the expedition which Theodosius II sent to establish Valentinian on the western throne under Placidia's regency. In the passage which remarks this expedition (*Fr.* 46) the treatment of Candidianus is especially favourable, in contrast with the other sources, which ignore him. While these sources ascribe the overthrow of John to Aspar and Ardabur and

mostly to good fortune,[49] Olympiodorus claims that when Ardabur was captured by John, Aspar and Placidia were in despair, from which they were rescued by Candidianus, "who captured many cities and won great renown". Here the words "won great renown" (εὐδοκιμῶν λαμπρῶς) hint at an encomiastic treatment. Moreover, just as the suggestion that Justinianus was a major source for Stilicho's career fits well with the historian's favourable estimate of the general, so the hypothesis that Candidianus was a source for the adventures of Placidia, at least after her arrival with the Visigoths in southern Gaul in 413, not only explains the considerable detail which Olympiodorus was able to offer on the activities of Ataulf at this period, but also helps to account for his unfavourable treatment of Constantius III, towards whom Placidia, his unwilling wife, was markedly cool.[50]

As far as we can judge, Olympiodorus was a much-travelled man – or he gave that impression in his History. When he says (*Fr.* 37) that he journeyed to Thebes and Syene in Upper Egypt "for the sake of enquiry" (ἱστορίας ἕνεκα), he declares himself to be a Herodotean, a characteristic which is evident in his highly discursive work, in which, as Thompson has remarked, about one quarter of the material preserved by Photius is apparently digressional.[51] These digressions, both long and short, were spread throughout the History. The range of subjects was wide: geographical, ethnographical, philological, foundation-legends, marvels, and information on the city of Rome and its inhabitants. From the first decad comes material on the *buccellarii* and federates (*Frr.* 7 and 11), the Gothic optimates (*Fr.* 9), a protective statue at Rhegium (*Fr.* 15), the foundation of Emona and Ravenna (Zosimus 5,27,1; 29,1-2; Sozomen 1,6), and a longish account of a diplomatic mission to the Huns upon which Olympiodorus himself served (*Fr.* 18). In Photius' summary of the last twelve books there are nine digressions, which form a larger proportion of the text than is the case with the first decad, on the recovery of Rome after the sack by Alaric (*Fr.* 25), the finding and removal of protective statues in Thrace (*Fr.* 27), a sophistic ceremony at Athens (*Fr.* 28), a name given by the Vandals to the Visigoths (*Fr.* 29), the honouring by Athens of Olympiodorus' friend Philtatius (*Fr.* 32), on the Oasis (*Fr.* 33), a sea-voyage by the historian (*Fr.* 36) and his visit to Upper Egypt and the land of the Blemmyes (*Fr.* 37), the sights and marvels of Rome (*Frr.* 43 and 44), and a long disputation on the travels of Odysseus in Italy (*Fr.* 45).

It is clear from this list that of the late historians only Ammianus, ever eager to plunge off especially into learned excursuses of barely marginal relevance to the narrative, can compare with Olympiodorus in

his digressions. But even Ammianus, when he brought in accounts of his personal adventures in the East against the Persians (18,6 - 19,8), and Priscus, when he described his embassy to the camp of Attila (*Fr.* 8), were careful to integrate these reminiscences with the narrative, although they might both be accused of excessive wordiness. On the other hand, Olympiodorus made no such attempt at integration, especially in the last twelve books, where descriptions of his travels in the East interrupted a narrative of events solely in the West. That is not to say that these digressions had no function other than the exercise of self-indulgence, since in the last twelve books, at least, they seem to have served to mark transitions between major episodes.[52] Thus, the death of Ataulf (*Fr.* 26) is followed by material on protective statues in Thrace, a visit to Athens, and a Vandalic name for the Visigoths, and the account of the expedition against John (*Fr.* 46) is preceded by praise of Boniface, a digression on Rome, and a long discussion of Odysseus' travels in Italy.[53] This transitional use of digressions Olympiodorus shares with the historians of the late Empire, and, if Zosimus' introduction to the foundation-myth of the city of Emona (5,29,1) is any indication, he might also have formally marked them. However, if my view is correct that Olympiodorus' work was more a commentary on events than a formal history arranged around the narrative, then it is quite likely that the distinction between the narrative and digressional material was often not clear, especially in the case of the shorter 'digressions', which developed naturally out of, and as part of, the discussion. This was probably the case with the fragments on the *buccellarii* and optimates, which would have been 'asides' in the discussion of manoeuvres between the Romans and Alaric's Goths, and certainly with the fragments on the protective statues of Rhegium and Thrace, which Olympiodorus linked with his historical explanation.[54]

Olympiodorus' History differed from late history in the grand manner not only in its balance and contents, but also in its language. The historian himself, in calling his work not history but "material for history" (*Fr.* 1), drew attention, amongst other things, to its lack of a consistently elevated language. Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 80, I pp.166f.) describes the language as clear and at times almost simple, but generally lacking in beauty and full of vulgarisms, feebleness and prolixity, which seems in keeping with a work that was discursive, uneven, and rather informal.[55] Nevertheless, it is clear that Olympiodorus did not deny himself the opportunity for fine writing, and we would hardly expect otherwise from an Egyptian who called himself a poet.[56] For Photius says (*loc. cit.*) that each of the twenty-two books of the work was

furnished with a preface which, he seems to suggest, was executed in more elevated language.[57] Moreover, despite the generally plain language which he used, Olympiodorus does not seem to have suppressed a liking for the dramatic and pathetic. In his summary of the historian's embassy to the Huns (*Fr.* 18) Photius says that he "makes a tragedy [ἐκτραγῳδεῖ] of his wanderings upon the sea and his danger",[58] and the account of the death of Gerontius describes him as trapped in a blazing house, fighting off his assailants with the help of one Alan servant, killing his wife and the servant at their request, and finally turning first his sword and then his dagger upon himself.[59]

Like the late secular historians, Olympiodorus, being a man educated in the classical tradition, liked to display his knowledge of the tradition and his place within it. When Zosimus (5,32,1) quotes an expression, "doomful" (θυμοφθόρα), from 'the poet', he clearly refers to Homer (*Il.* 6,169) and probably preserves the words of Olympiodorus. More substantially, Photius says that Olympiodorus devoted a long discussion to the wanderings of Odysseus in Italy (*Fr.* 45) and produced learned remarks on the Oasis (*Fr.* 33), informing his readers that it was mentioned by Herodotus (3,26) and a certain Herodorus. In the same passage he produces a rather nationalistic, indeed localistic, touch when he says that this same Herodorus claimed that Homer came from the Thebaid in Egypt.

Whether Olympiodorus, also like the formal historians of the period, included set speeches in his work is unclear. Photius gives us no evidence, and could hardly be expected to have done so in his summary.[60] There is little in Zosimus beyond a few snatches, both direct and indirect.[61] Matthews proposes that the words used by Photius, ὕλην δὲ αὐτὸς ἱστορίας ταῦτα καλῶν ὅμως καὶ λόγοις διαιρεῖ (*Fr.* 1), refer to the inclusion of speeches (λόγοις).[62] But this strains the Greek; and since these words are immediately followed by an expression to the effect that Olympiodorus "tries to adorn it [ὕλην] with prefaces", it is more natural to take λόγοι to refer to the division of the work into books, each of which was begun by a preface.

One aspect of Olympiodorus' language which would have offended the purists is his considerable use of Latin terminology, which has been taken, with some justification, as an indication of a long stay in the West. Some titles are given in Greek, for instance ἔπαρχος for *praefectus* (*Frr.* 13; 19; 25), στρατηγός for *magister militum* (*Frr.* 13; 16), and ὕπατος for *consul* (*Frr.* 23; 24). But more often the Latin is merely translitterated into Greek, as Καίσαρ (*Fr.* 46), πραίτωρ (*Fr.* 44), κουράτωρ (*Fr.* 40), κοιαίστωρ (*Fr.* 13) and μάγιστρος τῶν ὁρφικίων

(*Fr.* 8), and the hybrid ὕπατος δισίγνατος (*Fr.* 23).[63] Latin is also used in rendering distances and sums of money, and in naming the provinces.[64] Some scholars would credit Olympiodorus with a degree of precision which he probably did not seek when they suggest that he made a careful distinction in the political structure of the barbarian peoples, between the ῥῆξ, or the leader of the tribe, and the φύλαρχος, or the ruler of a confederacy.[65] Zosimus, confronted with Olympiodorus' exuberant use of Latin, retained only those terms which had been long domiciled in Greek[66] and translated or qualified the others,[67] although he also kept some Latin phrases which were not terminological, providing them with a Greek translation or, more likely, transcribing the translation which he found in Olympiodorus.[68]

Numbers, too, are in greater abundance than in most ancient historians – the size of forces (*Frr.* 2; 9; 17), for instance, and distances (*Frr.* 16; 37; 42), the four hundred *centenaria* paid to Alaric (*Fr.* 5), the value of Heraclian's estate (*Fr.* 23), and the seven-day reign of Singeric (*Fr.* 26). Some of these figures, as well as others which are preserved by Zosimus, have been questioned.[69] But they are of value, even those which, it might be suspected, Olympiodorus gives more for their interest than for their relevance: the depths of the wells at Oasis and the periods of irrigation (*Fr.* 23), the capacity of the baths of Antoninus and Diocletian at Rome, and the length of the city wall (*Fr.* 43). The precise description of the baths compares favourably with the more typical comment of Ammianus (16,10,14), who remarks vaguely that they were "built like provinces".[70]

As well as concern for numbers, there is also evidence of interest in geographical detail and a concern for accuracy.[71] At the beginning of his account of the series of events that led up to the death of Stilicho, Zosimus preserves information on the movements of Alaric (5,26,1; 29,1) and the whereabouts of Honorius (5,31,1). The fragments are of little help here beyond providing a few distances, but even the imperfect and rather confused evidence of Zosimus does suggest an interest in geography which stands in marked contrast with the generally vague treatment which it receives from other late historians.

Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 80, I p.166) says that Olympiodorus was a pagan (Ἕλλην), and the dedication to him of a work *On Providence and Fate* by Hierocles,[72] also a pagan, suggests that he was a Neoplatonist.[73] *Fr.* 28, which remarks upon his friendship with the sophist Leontius and mentions the Athenian ritual of the awarding of the sophist's cloak, might suggest a connection with sophistic circles at Athens.[74] But Cracco Ruggini is probably right to minimise this and

particularly to deny any relationship with the circle of mystical and quietist Neoplatonists to which Eunapius belonged.[75] Olympiodorus was an Egyptian and a poet, a type of man very different from the staid rhetors of Eunapius' acquaintance, and his general attitude to the world was far more outgoing and involved. Most of the important passages in Photius and Zosimus which bear upon Olympiodorus' views as a pagan throw light only upon a limited number of them, which, however, he seems to have chosen to emphasise. One passage, from Zosimus (5,41, 1-3), describes how during the first siege of Rome men from Etruria told the urban prefect, Pompeianus, that they could lift the siege by means of magic rites, as they already had done for the town of Narnia. The bishop of Rome, Innocentius, assented providing that the rites were performed in secret. When the magicians demurred at this, their offer was refused.[76] *Fr.* 38 tells a similar tale of a magician, Libanius, during the joint reign of Honorius and Constantius III, who promised to defeat the barbarians by his magic and was allowed to give a demonstration. When Placidia heard of this she forced Constantius to kill Libanius. In Zosimus the prefect Pompeianus is apparently regarded as foolish not to have made use of the Etruscan magicians, whereas the tone towards Libanius is neutral. Perhaps this was Photius' doing, for even the summary, from which there was perhaps omitted a lengthy catalogue of the marvels worked by the magician,[77] cannot obscure Olympiodorus' belief in his power and probably his enthusiasm for it. Belief in magic power is far clearer in three other passages which deal with apotropaic statues. In *Fr.* 15 Olympiodorus tells how a statue, which was consecrated by the ancients at Rhegium in order to ward off the fires of Aetna and barbarian attacks by sea, prevented Alaric from crossing to Sicily in 410. Later it was destroyed by the steward of the Sicilian estates of Placidia and Constantius, with the result that the island suffered from both the volcano and the barbarians.[78] In *Fr.* 27 it is related that three solid silver statues, which had also been consecrated against the barbarians, had been unearthed in Thrace. They, too, were removed and within a few days the whole Gothic people overran Thrace, and later Sarmatians and Huns attacked Illyricum.[79] Finally, Zosimus (5,41,6-7) tells how, to pay ransom to Alaric, the Romans decided to strip the ornaments from the consecrated statues of the gods, which had preserved the city of old, but which had lost their power since the rites of the pagan cults had ceased to be performed. They also melted down a statue of Virtus, which extinguished what was left of that quality amongst the Romans.[80]

Clearly these passages taken together evince a strong belief in the

power of magic, and vigorously assert the traditional pagan thesis that it was pagan ritual which had protected the Roman Empire from barbarian invaders. That this was not merely a side-issue for Olympiodorus is clear from the fact that all the passages cited above are fully integrated into the narrative as an important part of the historical causation. Moreover, this vigorous assertion of paganism is clear also in another section of Zosimus (5,46,2-4) in which the pagan general Generidus is praised for resigning his office in the face of a law (*C.Th.* 16,5,42) which banned pagans from office-holding and for refusing, despite the request of the Emperor, to take it up again until the law was repealed. In contrast with these passages on pagans and paganism, Christianity is hardly mentioned. In two places Theodosius I is called "The Great" (*Frr.* 2; 19), a sentiment to which few pagans would have subscribed; but this sobriquet might have been in deference to his grandson and namesake, or an addition by Photius.[81] More interestingly, there is hostility, shared with Ammianus, to the Christian family of the Anicii (Zosimus 6,7,4) and a harsh attack upon Olympius (*Fr.* 8; Zosimus 5,32,1), whose Orthodox piety won him the praise of St. Augustine.[82] Since Olympiodorus seems to have chosen to express himself directly on the issues arising in his work, he could hardly have avoided making his position clear on the matter of religion. We can be certain that he refrained from making direct attacks on Christianity. That would surely have been too much for his pious dedicatee. But with a notable boldness and independence of spirit he set out clearly his traditional belief in the continuing link between pagan ritual and the health of the Roman state.

Although Olympiodorus ranged widely in his discussion of the causes and results of events and the motives and policies of those involved, nevertheless, like most of his fellow historians of late antiquity, he laid considerable stress upon character as the root of action. He made, however, far less of this than many of the others, which is partly the result of his more informed and sophisticated approach to explanation, but partly also the result of the changed circumstances of the years which he covered. Honorius, the Emperor on the throne for most of the period, was a weak and ineffectual ruler, usually dominated by his advisers. Because of this Olympiodorus, who characterises him as a man of triviality (*Fr.* 39)[83] sunk in a deep torpor (Zosimus 6,8,3), also displaced him from the central role which Ammianus and Eunapius had assigned to the stronger Emperors of their age and which reflected to a degree both the reality and the propaganda of the fourth century. In Olympiodorus Stilicho probably dominated the first book, just as he

does in the parallel part of Zosimus (5,26-34).[84] In interaction with him was Alaric, who continued in a central role until his death in 410, when he was replaced by Ataulf. To judge from Photius' summary, Ataulf's successors do not appear to have been accorded the same prominence, although his enemy Sarus probably played an important though sporadic role.[85] On the Roman side Stilicho was succeeded by a series of ephemeral figures, the master of the offices Olympius, the praetorian prefect Jovius, the *praepositus* Eusebius, and the general Allobich, all of whom controlled the Emperor, although none really held the centre of the stage.[86] Their successor, Constantius, who guided Honorius from 411 to 421, seems to have been better suited for the central role. But, although he plays an important part in the fragments, it appears both from this source and from Sozomen that he did not dominate in the same manner as Stilicho. Indeed, Placidia, who appears to have dominated him from 417,[87] seems to have been a more central figure. Thus in Olympiodorus, instead of a chain of events dominated and given unity by one or a few major characters, which is the historical conception of Ammianus and Eunapius, there is a larger number of important or less important figures, all acting out their roles, some transitory, some more enduring, in a complex and often confusing series of manoeuvres and counter-manoeuvres, which probably well reflected the reality of the times.

This does not mean, however, that Olympiodorus did not include in his History many characterisations of individuals, some apparently quite elaborate. The deviousness of Jovius was apparently illustrated by the account of his own actions,[88] while Olympius, the man who plotted Stilicho's death, was condemned directly as "evil-doing" (ἀνοσιουργός, *Fr.* 8). The heroism of Sarus was shown by his suicidal attack, with eighteen or twenty of his followers, upon Ataulf with 10,000 men. The numbers are incredible, but Sarus apparently performed "deeds of heroism, worthy of wonder" (*Fr.* 17) before his capture and death.[89] More comprehensive and formal are the portraits of Boniface and Constantius. The former, who is described as "a most noble man" (γενναιότατος, *Fr.* 21), proved his courage at the defence of Marseilles against the Visigoths, during which he himself wounded Ataulf (*ibid.*), and demonstrated his loyalty to Placidia by supporting her when she was exiled to the East (*Fr.* 40). In *Fr.* 42 he is characterised directly. His heroism is emphasised, in that he overcame the barbarians with forces large or small and even in single combat, the latter feat being one rarely noted in the fourth century, more often in the fifth,[90] perhaps a result of the growing influence of the German

tradition of personal combat. Boniface is also described as "a lover of justice and beyond avarice", the former quality being illustrated by an anecdote upon the lengths to which he went to punish an adulterer. The treatment of Constantius stands in contrast with this and seems to reflect a degree of hostility. *Fr.* 23 describes him in the consular procession, entering the office for the first time and rather uneasy in his official capacity:

> In public processions[91] Constantius was downcast and sullen. He had large eyes, a long neck and a broad head, and leaned right over the neck of the horse which he was riding, darting his eyes suspiciously on both sides, so that he showed to all an image worthy of a tyrant. Yet at banquets and drinking-parties he was so pleasant and affable that he often competed with the clowns who played before the table.

The set description of a procession and its central character was popular with the late historians and doubtless reflected the importance of the pomp of such an occasion in public life.[92] The physiognomical use of physical traits to illustrate and demonstrate aspects of character was also common. The hostility to Constantius occurs again in his necrology (*Fr.* 39), which notes his origin, his military career, and his resistance to greed for gold, which disappeared after his marriage to Placidia, when he became an avaricious thief of others' property. Zosimus (5,34,5-7) indicates that Stilicho also received a necrology, but a much more favourable one.

The extent to which character was used as an element in historical explanation is unclear. But what is clear is that Olympiodorus also recognised other realities behind the actions described in his narrative. These are, as might be expected, mostly of a political nature. The best example is Alaric's deployment of Attalus, as described by Zosimus. His elevation at Rome in 408 is presented as a move by the Visigothic king to set up against the intransigent Honorius a rival who was willing to come to an accommodation with the Visigoths (6,6,1 and 3; 7,1). This was as much an attempt to put pressure on Honorius to settle as a bid to supplant him. In 410 Attalus was deposed (6,12,2), partly as a result of disagreements over policy, especially on the manner of reducing Heraclian in Africa (6,11,1 - 12,1), but partly also because Alaric's attempts to bring Honorius to terms had failed. Thus, Alaric tried a new approach based upon the recognition of Honorius as Emperor, and since Attalus was an obstacle to this, he was removed and his crown and purple robe sent to Ravenna (6,12,2) as a clear signal to Honorius of a new diplomatic tack. Again, the nature of Stilicho's designs upon Illyricum were recognised, and Olympiodorus himself

(*Fr.* 3) pointed out that he based his aspirations on the claim that Theodosius I had attached this area to the West.[93] Finally, Olympiodorus explained that the revolt in Britain, which successively raised Marcus, Gratian, and Constantine to the purple, was a reaction of the British army to the fear that the barbarians, who were beginning to flood into Gaul at the time, would turn to attack the island (Zosimus 6,3,1). The explanation might have been false, if the revolt began in 406, before the crossings of the Rhine got under way at the very end of that year.[94] But whether or not it was false (or the result of the acceptance of Constantine's propaganda), it implicitly recognised a long-standing tendency to self-help by the British in the face of weakness on the part of the central government.[95] All of this might not seem particularly impressive, but even the attempt to produce an analysis of this level of depth and complexity sets Olympiodorus above many of the other late historians. The antithesis is provided by Eunapius, with his consistently simplistic and personal explanations. According to him Gainas plotted against the eastern Empire because he wanted honour improper for a general and was jealous of the wealth which the chamberlain Eutropius was siphoning off into his own household (Zosimus 5,13,1), and Maximus revolted from Gratian because he was jealous of the honours paid to his fellow-Spaniard Theodosius (Zosimus 4,35,4).

Furthermore, Olympiodorus seems not to have restricted himself entirely to political motives and manoeuvres. Thus, in the role given to Sarus both in blighting relations between the Romans and the Visigoths and later, through his brother Singeric, in the death of and succession to Ataulf,[96] Olympiodorus might have recognised the importance of the feud in Germanic society and politics. Again, he is certainly aware of the great wealth of the noble houses at Rome (*Fr.* 44) and may well have been critical of the imbalance between this and the impoverishment of the central government, which posed a grave danger to the survival of the state.[97] Moreover, it is also possible that he had some interest in the problems which the Roman government faced in supplying its forces. For Zosimus (5,50,1) tells that Honorius in 409 summoned 10,000 Huns to fight Alaric and continues, "Since [Honorius] wished to have food ready for them when they arrived, he ordered grain, sheep and oxen to be brought in from Dalmatia". The number of the Huns might have been greatly inflated,[98] but the problem of supplies was real enough, and it was later mentioned as the major element in the negotiations between the Romans and the Visigoths when they had crossed into Gaul (*Frr.* 20; 21; 31).

Underlying Olympiodorus' analysis of the history of the West in the first quarter of the fifth century was a coherent point of view upon the problems of the Roman state and the alleviation of them. The History, as has been noted,[99] traced the decline of Rome, epitomised in the sack of 410, and then the recovery of the state, consummated by the co-operation between East and West to place Valentinian III on the throne and symbolised by his coronation at Rome in 425. But as the backdrop to the various developments which he described Olympiodorus continually called attention to relations between the Romans and the Visigoths, the stabilisation of which he clearly regarded as the key to the survival of Roman power in the West. As a result he took a favourable, and rather unpopular, view of Stilicho, whose career he set out at the beginning of the History. It is clear from Photius' summary that he stressed Stilicho's successes and accepted as facts his claims that he had been entrusted with the guardianship of both Honorius and Arcadius (*Fr.* 2) and that Theodosius I had assigned Illyricum to the West (*Fr.* 3), both of which claims Zosimus subsequently omitted.[100] The summary of Stilicho's career at the beginning of the work and the placing of his death near to the beginning were deliberate, because Olympiodorus was then able to show how the disasters which followed were consequent upon his death and the resultant change of policy. He obviously understood and accepted Stilicho's view that the best hope for the western Empire lay in a realistic accommodation with the Visigoths, which the anti-German and Orthodox Olympius was bent upon preventing. It is clear from Zosimus (5,33-34) that the machinations of Olympius left Stilicho, if he wished to retain power, with little alternative other than to place himself at the head of the 'barbarian' party and to use force against his 'Roman' enemies, which would have meant open defiance of his Emperor and son-in-law, and perhaps civil war. This, along with the advice of his supporters, he rejected, preferring loyalty to his Emperor and his own death.[101]

After the death of Stilicho the remainder of the first decad chronicled the continuing disasters suffered by the Romans, not only in Italy but also in Gaul, Spain, and Britain as the result of the fragmented policies of the central government and its stubborn refusal even to come to a reasonable accommodation with the Goths. Olympiodorus' exasperated condemnation of such foolishness is preserved in Zosimus' comments (5,50,2 - 51,2) on the western court's blind rejection (ἐτύφλωττεν ὁ νοῦς) of the terms of peace which Alaric offered in 409 and which are called "appropriate and moderate" (ἐπιεικῶς καὶ σωφρόνως). Thus the blame for the sack of Rome is shifted partly onto the Roman

authorities.

The second part of the History opened on a more hopeful note with Ataulf, now in Gaul, offering the heads of the last usurpers in the area in exchange for a treaty with Honorius (*Fr.* 19). The heads were duly delivered and a treaty made, which soon foundered on the failure of the government of Honorius to deliver the supplies promised to the Visigoths and Ataulf's growing reluctance to surrender the Emperor's sister, Placidia (*Frr.* 20-22). Thereafter until the end of the History Placidia was to play a central role as the pivot upon which the question of Romano-Gothic relations revolved. Towards Placidia personally Olympiodorus appears to have been cool. He noted her part in the condemnation and execution of Stilicho's wife Serena (Zosimus 5,38,1), and he remarked the detrimental effect which Constantius' marriage to her had upon his character (*Fr.* 39).[102] Moreover, he cannot have approved of her strong Orthodox piety.[103] Yet he saw in her the best hope for the realisation of Stilicho's policy of an accommodation between the Romans and the Visigoths, through the philo-Roman views of Ataulf which had developed before and during his marriage to Placidia and which were formed partly at least under her influence. The marriage was celebrated at Narbo in 414, and Olympiodorus emphasised the Roman nature of the ceremony, at which Attalus, amongst other Roman notables, delivered an epithalamium. The rejoicing on both sides was remarked (*Fr.* 24). It seems clear that some formal relationship between the Visigoths and the Romans, based upon the marriage, was intended.[104] For a son born to Ataulf and Placidia was named Theodosius, and after the birth itself, says Olympiodorus (*Fr.* 26), Ataulf "became even more eager for friendship with the Romans. But Constantius and his supporters opposed this, and the desire of Ataulf and Placidia came to nothing".

Constantius may well have begun his career as a protégé of Stilicho. For when he was in a position to do so, he sought vengeance upon Stilicho's arch-enemy, Olympius, and his murderer, Heraclian.[105] Yet this did not prevent him from blocking the kind of settlement between the Romans and the Visigoths which Ataulf and Placidia visualised and of which Stilicho might have approved. His reasons seem to have been personal: affection for Placidia and chagrin at her marriage to Ataulf, as well as his own ambition, which refused to be supplanted in power, as he doubtless would have been if a settlement had been made with Ataulf, which carried implications for the succession to the imperial throne of the West.[106] Certainly, his public policy was not one of blind opposition to the Germans, since while he

was in power the settlement of the Visigoths in Gaul was negotiated, although this was done after the death of Ataulf and the return of Placidia in 416. Nevertheless, one of the laws of the period (*C.Th.* 14, 10,4, of 12 Dec. 416), issued only a few days before Constantius' marriage to Placidia on 1 January 417, shows an anti-German strain in its banning of the wearing of German dress at Rome.[107] But, whatever the details of Constantius' policy towards the Visigoths, which probably changed somewhat between 412 and 418, Olympiodorus, while recognising his personal qualities (*Fr.* 39), was basically hostile to him. This hostility, already discussed (see p.42), finds further expression in the juxtaposition of the descriptions of the first consular procession of Constantius and the marriage of Ataulf and Placidia. In the first passage (*Fr.* 23) the atmosphere is one of gloom and suspicion, and Constantius' appearance is likened to that of a tyrant. In the second passage (*Fr.* 24) the events are joyful and harmonious, the ceremony is Roman, the dress of the Visigothic king is Roman, and the marriage is applauded by Visigoths and Romans alike. In this manner the motives of the Roman general are called into question, while the status of the Visigothic king vis-à-vis the Romans is implicitly given some legitimation.

The dominance of Constantius continued until his death in 421, which was followed by another period of disruption as rivals competed for influence.[108] The year 423 saw, in order, the exile of Placidia, the death of Honorius, and the usurpation of John, which led to the intervention of the eastern Empire, which formed the climax of Olympiodorus' History. In this last part of the History possibly the most attractively portrayed character in the whole work became prominent, the count of Africa, Boniface, who had been introduced much earlier as the heroic defender of Marseilles against Ataulf in 413 (*Fr.* 21). He is depicted as the virtuous and chivalrous supporter of Placidia in her adversity (*Fr.* 40), but beyond that it is impossible to identify his policies of this period from the records that survive. It has been suggested that he was a protégé of Constantius,[109] but it seems more likely that he became an associate of Placidia during her stay in Gaul. This would suggest that, despite his earlier fighting against the Visigoths, he had become identified with the party which favoured accommodation with them. If this were so, it would not only explain Olympiodorus' sympathetic treatment of him, but, if he were thought to be a Germanophile, also account for the ready acceptance of the report that he was responsible for inviting the Vandals into Africa in 429.[110] After Boniface's death in 433 in a victorious battle against his rival, Aetius, his son-in-law and successor in the post of *magister*

militum, Sebastian, turned to the Visigoths for support against Aetius' Huns.[111]

The History of Olympiodorus as reconstructed in this chapter was a work far different from the other histories discussed in this study. Ignoring many of the rules of the formal historiography of the period, indulging himself in *minutiae* and interesting, albeit often irrelevant, information in a manner that was more than Herodotean, choosing a form of presentation that was sprawling, uneven, inelegant and often confusing, Olympiodorus nevertheless fashioned a suitable vehicle for his commentary upon events, which was characterised by experience, insight, width of viewpoint and boldness. Matthews has pointed out that the dedication of the work to Theodosius II was appropriate, in that he was the "author of the western revival and eastern ascendancy with which it culminated".[112] It was also an act of daring in that overt pagan sentiments were directed to the pious dedicatee. Olympiodorus was a man of independent views and not afraid to state them.[113] His defence of Stilicho, his condemnation of Olympius, his playing down of Alaric's responsibility for the sack of Rome, his sympathy for Ataulf – all of these attitudes were unpopular in the East at the time. Furthermore, the fundamental pleas that he made in his History, for co-operation with the Visigoths and continued eastern aid to the West, betray attitudes that were likely to be out of fashion, if his work were published after or during the Vandal capture of Carthage in 439 or the Hunnic devastation of the Balkans in 441-43. In his views Olympiodorus shows himself not only independent and a realist, but also an optimist. For in facing the realities of the Roman circumstances in the West, he was able to see some hope, and as a result, although he was apparently a pagan believer, he produced a work of insight and quality which stands in sharp contrast with the superficial and fretful dirges of Eunapius and Zosimus.

CHAPTER 3

PRISCUS OF PANIUM

Priscus was born at Panium in Thrace.[1] Since the *Suda* (II 2301) says that he was born during the reign of Theodosius II and since he was probably in his early or mid-thirties when he undertook the mission to Attila in 449,[2] his date of birth probably lay between 410 and 420.[3] He clearly received the standard philosophical and rhetorical education of the time and he achieved enough repute in these areas to be called by later writers both a rhetor and a sophist.[4] His professional career may have been that of a civil servant, and in 449 he was invited by Maximinus to accompany him on the embassy to Attila. Whether at this time he had any professional relationship with Maximinus is unclear, for the traditional view, that Priscus was employed in one of the *scrinia* of which Maximinus was the *magister*, depends upon the identification of our Maximinus with the *magister scrinii* who was one of the commissioners working on the Theodosian Code. There are no sure grounds for this identification, which is further weakened by the consideration that the Maximinus with whom Priscus was associated was a military, not a civil, official.[5] It is quite likely that Priscus accompanied Maximinus on the embassy in an unofficial capacity, as a personal friend and a sophist who would be able to lend the appropriate elegance to the correspondence and other communications.[6] After his return from the embassy Priscus visited Rome in late 450 (*Fr.* 16). Whether on this occasion he was with Maximinus is unclear, but a letter of Pope Leo, dated to November 9 of this year and sent to the clergy of Constantinople *per filium nostrum Maximinum comitem* (*Ep.* 75), suggests that both of them were carrying official correspondence to Rome.[7] If this were so, then the years 449 and 450 must have been busy ones for Maximinus, since at the beginning of 450 he is found in Isauria conducting military operations against the rebellious *magister militum* Zeno.[8] There is no mention of Priscus in connection with this campaign, and it is unlikely that he was present. However, in 451-52 he is again found with his old chief, travelling via Damascus to the Egyptian Thebaid to negotiate a peace with the Nobadae and Blemmyes, who were raiding the border region.[9] There Maximinus died, and Priscus returned to Constantinople via Alexandria, where he witnessed the religious rioting of 453 and apparently advised the military governor Florus on measures to calm the unrest.[10] He last appears, apparently as *assessor* to Euphemius, Marcian's master of the offices.[11]

The *Excerpta de Legationibus* call Priscus' work both simply "History" and "Gothic History". The *Suda* (II 2301) says that in addition to declamations and letters he published a "History of Byzantium and events of the period of Attila in eight books".[12] The title "History of Byzantium" (Ἱστορία Βυζαντιακή) must be rejected as a non-Priscan usage, and it has been conjectured that the History itself was in two parts, the first called after Attila, the dominating figure in that part of the work, the second after the Goths, the group of tribes that took centre stage after the overthrow of Hunnic power.[13] But these two 'sub-titles' are drawn from different sources, which may well have applied them both to the whole work, both pointing to Attila, who was at times mistakenly called a Goth in later writers.[14] On the other hand, although we must therefore admit that the title of the History is unknown, these later descriptions do offer fair comment upon the orientation of the work, which gave most space to the history of the East Romans and especially to their dealings with the barbarian tribes which threatened the Balkans and the Danube regions.

Priscus' work achieved great popularity and became a major authority for the history of the middle five decades of the fifth century and especially for the relations between the Romans and Attila,[15] although Candidus of Isauria perhaps supplanted him to an extent for the reign of Leo.[16] As a result of the popularity of Priscus' History it was much used by later writers, although Photius does not mention him in his *Bibliotheca*. Much of the surviving material is preserved in Constantine's *Excerpta de Legationibus*, and some notices in the *Suda* certainly have a Priscan origin, others probably or possibly.[17] Much of the material on Attila in Jordanes' *Gothic History* came from Priscus through the History of Cassiodorus, who himself might have drawn it via a work by Symmachus. The Byzantine historians Procopius, Evagrius, John of Antioch, Theophanes, Malalas and Nicephorus Callistus incorporated Priscan material and in places name him as a source. The relationship between these writers is complex and not completely clear. Some might have used Priscus directly, but most of his material will have come to them through the world chronicle of Eustathius of Epiphania, in many cases via one or a number of other intermediaries.

It is not clear whether Priscus published the eight books of his History together or piecemeal. The first four, which probably ended with the death of Theodosius II in 450, could have been published any time after that date, and the attacks which Priscus makes on that Emperor, which show implicit approval of the policies of Marcian, might seem well suited for publication during the latter's reign (450-57).

However, the part of the History which covered the reign of Leo (probably books 6-8), in which Basiliscus is blamed for the debacle against the Vandals in 468, must have appeared after the latter's deposition in August 476. Moreover, if John of Antioch *Fr.* 209,1 is from Priscus, a somewhat later date is indicated, since in that fragment Onulf is disapprovingly mentioned as the slayer of Harmatius. Harmatius died shortly after the return of Zeno in 476, with the latter's approval. Onulf at the time was master of the soldiers in Illyricum, a post which, according to Malchus (*Fr.* 18 p.127), he was still holding in 479. Priscus is not likely to have attacked him while he was still in such a powerful office.

The earliest datable fragment is *Fr.* 1 which mentions the death of the Hunnic King Rugila and the succession of Attila and Bleda. This seems to have taken place in or about 434.[18] Estimates of the beginning date of the History vary. Moravcsik suggested 411 to make Zosimus end where Priscus began, and Kuranc preferred 425 to make Priscus continue Olympiodorus.[19] Both conjectures are rash on a number of counts: there is no inherent reason why Priscus' History should fit into a nice chronological progression of such works (and the date of the ending of Zosimus' History is itself uncertain!); it is highly unlikely that a work which was recognised to be dominated by Attila should have begun so far from the start of his career; and had the History begun long before 434 it is almost certain that identifiable material would have survived.[20] Since Attila did dominate the first part of the History it is most likely that it began at or close to his accession, as most scholars assume. In this case, the Priscan digression on the Hunnic crossing of Lake Maeotis, which Jordanes (*Getica* 24, 123-25) preserves, could have been part of a preliminary survey which prepared for the accession of Attila. The latest datable passage of certainly Priscan origin (Evagrius 2,16) mentions the murder of Aspar in 471. But it is generally assumed that Priscus closed his History with the death of Leo in 474; and John of Antioch *Fr.* 209,2, which is possibly Priscan, notes the western Emperors up to the accession of Nepos in that year. This assumption is based on the observation that Byzantine historians regularly ended their works at the death of an Emperor, but Eunapius offers evidence that this was not always so. Moreover, if Malchus, whose first fragment is dated to 473, set out to continue Priscus,[21] then Moravcsik's suggestion, that the History ended in 472 (perhaps with the death of Anthemius), is more likely.[22]

If the History began *circa* 434 and ended *circa* 474, its eight books would have covered about forty years, which suggests a neat

average of five years per book. That the material was evenly distributed fits well with the view of scholars such as Kuranc, who hold that Priscus ordered his narrative annalistically, treating eastern and western events of each year together;[23] and, certainly, it appears from *Frr.* 36-38, where two pieces on the sons of Attila are separated by an account of a Persian diplomatic mission to Constantinople, that Priscus was quite willing to split up a connected series of events. However, if the ordering of material and the book-divisions proposed in the conspectus are correct, they suggest both that Priscus did not always hold himself to an annalistic structure and, more importantly, that the division of material and the scale of treatment were far from even. Thus, following the proposed reconstruction, the first book began at 434, the fourth at 449/50, the fifth also in 450, the sixth at 456, and the eighth ended at 472 or 474. This means that the first four books covered sixteen years, while the last four covered twenty-four. It also means that within the first block of four books the distribution was far from even, since the fourth book covered less than one year. This might seem unlikely, but it should be remembered that most of the material preserved in the *Excerpta de Legationibus* (*Frr.* 3-14) and much of the material in Jordanes, which together make up about two-thirds of the bulk of the fragments, cover the years 447 to 450 and deal primarily with the Hunnic troubles. Even allowing for accidents of survival, this suggests that the scale of treatment of the years 447 to 450, which were perhaps spread over books two to four, was much larger than that of the other years, which in turn would fit well with the designation of the History as "the events of the period of Attila". The final four books were probably more evenly spread, and the scope of the fragments from these books which are preserved in the *Excerpta* suggests that the treatment was smaller-scale. Even here the organisation was not entirely annalistic, since Attila's invasions of Gaul and Italy, which took place in 451 and 452, seem to have been narrated without interruption, after which Priscus returned to description of military and diplomatic activity in the East that should be dated to these years also (*Frr.* 20 and 21). Again, it is clear from *Frr.* 30-33 that Priscus might weave together diplomatic activity which was taking place on various fronts. Finally, it is unlikely that even in the more balanced books four to eight Priscus was able to give a coherent account of western events, since there was probably a dearth of information except on dealings with Gaiseric, in which the East was closely involved.[24] Bury contended that Priscus did describe the fighting in Gaul and Italy and that these descriptions have been lost through lack of interest in them and the consequent failure to

excerpt them.[25] But the argument can equally well be turned around to suggest that the meagreness of Priscus' narrative led to the lack of information in later writers. Indeed, there was sufficient interest in the East to preserve material on, for instance, Aetius and Boniface; and historians such as Procopius and John of Antioch did at times include reasonably detailed accounts which were not from Priscus. Often these accounts were very anecdotal and unreliable, and perhaps the writer who recorded them, facing the same problem that Eunapius faced half a century before,[26] relied upon rumour and fancy to supplement the poor information that filtered through from the West.

Far more than Olympiodorus, Priscus wrote in the elevated, classicising manner. Thus, he tended to avoid the sort of details in which the former delighted. Numbers, for instance, appear only rarely in the fragments, and there is no reason to think that they would have been more frequent in the complete text. Most common are numbers of fugitives or amounts of gold (given in λίτραι), which reflect the details of diplomatic negotation that are one of Priscus' main interests.[27] Numbers of troops are never given in the fragments from the *Excerpta*, where instead impressionistic phrases such as "a great host of barbarians" are preferred;[28] one number in Jordanes (*Getica* 35,182), which both Mommsen and Thompson derive from Priscus, is the fantastic half-million men whom Attila is said to have led in his invasion of the West in 451.[29] There is no sign of a chronological schema for the History, although the lack of that may well be an accident of survival, and although indications of small time-intervals appear in *Fr.* 8, these too appear to have been inserted only sporadically and to be of little use as a framework.[30] The computations of the lengths of the reigns of Valentinian III and Petronius Maximus that appear in John of Antioch *Fr.* 201,5 and 6 came not from Priscus but from the chronicler who was the intermediary between him and John. Similar vagueness marks the recording of distances, which are usually expressed in the Herodotean manner of a journey of so many days for a "well-girt man" (εὔζωνος ἀνήρ).[31] All of these characteristics come together in the description of Priscus' journey to the court of Attila (*Fr.* 8), where the lack of satisfactory time-indicators, distances, and topographical detail have made it impossible to decide where he travelled and thus where Attila's camp was situated.[32]

In his use of administrative terminology Priscus tends to prefer to avoid latinisms, and in his fragments only the words *quaestor*, *magister*, *comes* and *patricius* (all in the Greek form) appear.[33] More often Greek equivalents are used, such as "hypaspist of the Emperor" for *spatharius*

(*Fr.* 7)[34] and "message-bearers" for *agentes in rebus*;[35] and in places terminology is abandoned for description, as when the rank and function of Arnegisclus, the *magister militum* of Thrace, are set out with the words (*Fr.* 38) "he was responsible for guarding the river in the region of Thrace", or when the *magister militum per Orientem* is called (*Fr.* 29) "the man in charge of the Romans in the East".[36] In these two cases it is comparatively easy to identify the rank in question, in others it is not. Thus, when in *Fr.* 5 Priscus calls Theodulus "the man leading the military formations in Thrace", Thompson regards him as *magister militum*, whereas Ensslin thinks that he was *dux*.[37] Some scholars have tried to see more precision in Priscus' use of certain terms, especially λογάς as a Hunnic rank, which is supposed to have denoted a particular class within a rudimentary administrative structure which Attila is said to have been attempting to create for his Empire.[38] Maenchen-Helfen has demolished this view by showing that the word simply means a "prominent person".[39] Again, Harmatta has argued that βασιλεύς, which is the usual Greek term for the Emperor, when applied by Priscus to Attila, is used deliberately to indicate his equal status with Theodosius.[40] Such precision might seem to be confirmed by the use of μόναρχος of the Persian king (*Frr.* 25; 31; 32; 33), τυραννεύω (*Fr.* 21) for the chiefs of the Nobadae and Blemmyes, and ἡγεμών and ἄρχων of the ruler of the Kidarite Huns (*Fr.* 33). All is undercut, however, by the use of βασιλεύς of both the Persian king (*Fr.* 33) and the king of Akatiri (*Fr.* 8 p.84), and the suspicion must be that Priscus, far from striving even occasionally for precision in such matters, is, like other historians in the grand manner, more concerned with elegance and variation.

The Greek form is Priscus' preference not only in the terminology of office-holding, but also in naming provinces and peoples.[41] Thus, Παίονες is regular for the Pannonians (*Frr.* 7; 8 pp.85 and 89), Γαλατία for Gaul (*Fr.* 8 p.84), Ἰβηρία and Λιβύη for Spain and Africa (*Fr.* 27).[42] Although at *Fr.* 8 p.90 the Persians, Parthians, and Medes are distinguished, the Persians elsewhere are referred to anachronistically as Παρθυαίοι.[43] There is lack of clarity, too, in the identification of the northern barbarians. Οὖννοι is frequently used of the Huns, Γότθοι of both the Visigoths (*Frr.* 15; 27; 30) and the Ostrogoths (*Fr.* 39). In *Fr.* 39 Priscus is careful to distinguish the Ostrogoths (Γότθοι) from the Huns (Οὖννοι) and to call the whole force, including the Ostrogoths and Huns, Σκύθαι. But elsewhere Σκύθαι is used variously: in *Fr.* 5 it is interchangeable with Οὖννοι, whereas in *Fr.* 1 it is used in distinction from them, and in *Fr.* 28 it is used of the Ostrogoths.

As a classicising historian Priscus, though his style is usually clear and straightforward, makes use of words, figures and syntax long absent from contemporary speech.[44] His major stylistic models are, as would be expected, Herodotus and Thucydides, from whom many verbal and other borrowings have been identified, for example a description of a storm at *Fr.* 8 p.83, which mirrors a similar description in Thucydides 5,70,1.[45] Indeed, certain imitations of his two famous predecessors have led to suggestions that in some passages Priscus has fabricated details in his narrative in order to create parallels. In his description of the Hunnic siege of Naissus (*Fr.* 1b) Priscus introduces parallels drawn from Thucydides' classic account of the siege of Plataea, and Thompson, who holds that the Huns would not have been able to mount such a siege as the historian describes, supposes that he has simply imported the unhistorical details from his model.[46] But even if the Huns themselves did not have the technological expertise to build the machines mentioned by Priscus, they almost certainly had control of Roman engineers who could; and no other account of the siege survives which would allow independent verification of its authenticity. Moreover, Priscus, who is following tradition in adapting Thucydidean language for his siege-account, uses the borrowed expressions to describe objects and actions different from those in his model.[47]

There are also three passages in which references to Herodotus influenced the presentation or interpretation of the material. In his account of the finding of the sacred sword of the Huns, which confirmed the power of Attila, (Jordanes, *Getica* 35,183) Priscus identifies it with the Sword of Mars, basing himself upon Herodotus 4,62, where the worship of the Sword of Ares by the Scythians is described. This does not, however, call into question the existence of a sword-cult amongst the Huns, since it appears elsewhere in Priscus (*Fr.* 8 p.91) as an intrinsic part of Attila's ambitions as set out by Constantiolus; and the worship of a sacred sword is well attested amongst many peoples of the Asian steppes and elsewhere.[48] Again, when Priscus (*Fr.* 30) explains a series of tribal movements from the steppes, he says that it was begun by the onset of the Avars who were driven from their homes on the Northern Ocean by the arrival of a mist and the attacks of gryphons which preyed on men. The tribal movements appear to have taken place, but the causation looks to Herodotus 4,13, where the gryphons are placed in further Asia beyond the one-eyed Arimaspeans, and is suitably attached to the Avars, who seem to have made great use of the gryphon-motif.[49] Finally, in accounting for a war between the Persians and the Kidarite Huns (*Fr.* 33), Priscus tells how Peroz, the Persian

king, having promised his sister to Kunchas, the ruler of the Kidarites, sent in her stead a maidservant. When the trick was discovered, Kunchas repaid treachery in kind and the war flared up. The story has a kernel of fact, for the war is historical and a proposal of marriage is plausible since the Persians and Kidarites may have had dynastic ties. But the details of the causation are false and drawn from Herodotus 3,1, where Amasis, the king of Egypt, sends a substitute for his daughter to Cambyses, the Persian king, a deception which also leads to war.[50] In all of these three cases Priscus was dealing with events well beyond the Roman frontier and of which little but the barest outline is likely to have been known to him. As a result, though he was dealing with a historical reality, his lack of information led him to flesh out what he had with details drawn from the Herodotean accounts of equally exotic lands.[51]

Priscus was a rhetor who, the *Suda* tells us, published declamations. Thus, it is natural that he exercised these talents in his History. In the *Excerpta* there are traces of a number of speeches from the History, both in direct and in indirect discourse. Most are short and would probably have been short in the original, but a few may well have been longer.[52] That Priscus did use longer speeches is shown by the example of the debate from *Fr.* 8, which is discussed below. Procopius (*Wars* 3,4,34) preserves in *oratio obliqua* a speech of Attila, also recorded in *oratio recta* by Jordanes (*Getica* 42,221), in which the Hunnic king foretells the capture of Aquileia.[53] Jordanes, too, has a number of speeches and letters in *oratio obliqua*, but apart from the speech of Attila noted above and, probably, the funeral encomium of the Hunnic king (*Getica* 49,257), the others seem to have come from Cassiodorus or elsewhere.[54]

All of the above speeches are too short to offer any clear indication of the function that they had in the History. But the famous paired speeches of *Fr.* 8 (pp.86-88), in which Priscus and a Greek in the camp of Attila debate the merits of the Roman system of government, do give some indication of the use to which the historian might have put his rhetorical talents. In the *Excerpta* these speeches are in *oratio obliqua*, although as they stand they might be summaries of longer direct speeches.

Priscus introduces the debate with the expression "As I was waiting" (*διατρίβοντι δέ μοι*), which is a self-conscious reminiscence of Plato, *Phaedo* 227a, designed to point up the philosophical nature of what is to follow.[55] He tells how he was accosted by a person who turned out to be a Greek merchant who had been captured by the Huns

at the sack of Viminacium in 441. The Greek speaks first and tells how, from the condition of a slave to the noble Onegesius, he had, by virtue of his prowess in war, risen to freedom as Onegesius' dependent and companion at his table, acquiring also a wife and children. This short biography then turns into a contrast between his present life with the 'Scythians' and his former existence in the Roman Empire. When not at war the Scythians live in peace and cause no trouble to one another, whereas the subjects of Rome suffer danger both in peace and in war. In war they suffer because the Emperors (whom the Greek calls τύραννοι), refusing to allow private citizens to bear arms, place their trust in foreign troops, and because the Roman generals (στρατηγοί) are cowards. In peace the situation is equally bad. Taxes are heavy and justice is not impartial. The courts are corrupt and suits are protracted or deferred, so that the wealthy can buy their way out of trouble, whereas the poor and ignorant are penalised.

Priscus' reply is longer than the Greek's speech and is firmly grounded upon the Platonic ideal of the state. He takes first the charge that the Roman state is inept in war, concentrating upon the point that private citizens are forbidden to bear arms. He says that the "wise and good men who designed the Roman constitution" assigned different tasks to different people, so that some guard the state as soldiers, while others work the land to feed themselves and their defenders. Then he turns to the alleged hazards of peace. Although he does answer the charge of excessive taxation by claiming that there is a limit set both to the fees of advocates and to the amounts payable to the soldiers, he again chooses to concentrate upon one point, this time corruption in the law-courts. Continuing the motif of the division of labour in the state, Priscus asserts that advocates are appointed at fixed fees to aid those ignorant of the law. Cases are drawn out in order to ensure a thorough investigation, and the law is applied to all, even the Emperor, so that it is not the rich who escape, but those whose crimes go undetected, who might be rich or poor. Finally, in the longest part of the speech he attacks the claim that life amongst the Huns is better. It was not the Greek's master who gave him his freedom, but good fortune that enabled him to survive his slavery. Amongst the Romans a slave is far better off, since amongst them a master acts as a father to his slaves, who enjoy rights that are guaranteed in law.

The Greek then concedes the force of Priscus' arguments and says that the Roman constitution is good but those who administer it (οἱ ἄρχοντες) are ruining the state. However, even though he concedes the argument, the complaints of the Greek are valid and commonplace.

Amongst the eastern historians complaints of corruption and the decline of the Roman state appear, for example, in Zosimus (4,21,2, a portent of a whipped man representing the Roman state – probably from Eunapius), Malchus (*Fr.* 16, complaints of mutinous troops), and Ammianus (18,5; 8,5-6, the defector Antoninus). The last example, which is closest to Priscus, involves a man of a comparatively high status, and thus with a stake in the Empire, who was ruined by the actions of corrupt men and, having failed to obtain justice, defected to the Persians and guided them in an invasion of Mesopotamia. Ammianus, like Priscus, gives to his defector a speech in which he censures the Roman administration. The speech is concerned primarily with the injustice suffered by Antoninus and so, not being broadly philosophic, does not offer a general indictment of the Roman state. But the target of the censure, abuses by the powerful, acquiesced in, if not encouraged, by the authorities, is the same.

The reply of Priscus, as a detailed refutation of the Greek's criticisms, has been described, with some understatement, as weak and complacent.[56] The platonic notion of the division of functions within the state has some vague relevance, if, when Priscus refers to "the founders of the Roman state" (*οἱ τῆς Ῥωμαίων πολιτείας εὑρεταί*), he means by that the Emperors of the Tetrarchy and their successors, who had sought to reduce social and occupational mobility by application of the principle of hereditary employment. Moreover, his point that slaves are better protected by Roman law is, despite occasional complaints of bad treatment, a valid one, though it misses the main drift of the Greek's argument, which is that amongst the Huns a man is able to profit by his own exertions. But most of the important points made by Priscus' opponent are fobbed off. The criticisms of the Roman state for the hiring of mercenaries and the cowardice of its generals are ignored. The accusation that justice is for sale is answered merely by a denial. The complaint about excessive taxation is turned aside by the bland assertion that there is a limit set to the amount of tax to be paid, which ignores the facts that the granting of immunities narrowed the base of tax-payers and that the limit could be raised by the levying of supplementary taxes at the discretion of the authorities. In short, by shifting the discussion from the level of the practical problems which the Greek identifies to that of constitutional theory, and by ignoring or passing off his most telling points, Priscus has ensured that the two sets of arguments rarely find common ground.

The structure and content of the speeches as they stand appear to have been the result either of incompetence or of deliberate choice. If

the former, it may be that the fault lay not with the rhetor-historian, but with someone who produced an inept condensation of two originally longer speeches, each of which presented both the practical and theoretical aspects of the case, the Greek conceding to Priscus' arguments on theory while maintaining his ground on the practical problems of corruption and incompetence of the rulers. This is not likely, however, for it is hard to see how the Greek could have worked in a presentation of theory, unless he offered some general attack on the principle of monarchy and further praise of the Huns as 'noble savages'. Moreover, – and this suggests deliberate choice – the two speeches, although presented as two sides of a debate, are really complementary. The speech of Priscus has one aim alone, which is to stress the primacy and value of Roman law, which was generally regarded as the major differentiating factor between the 'civilised' Roman and the 'uncivilised' barbarian.[57] The speech of the Greek, however, is used to put a number of specific criticisms of the policies of the Roman authorities, which are echoed both elsewhere in Priscus and in other writers of the period, but which the historian himself could not make as baldly as can the Greek renegade. Thus, the unchallenged assertion that the state is weakening itself by the hiring of mercenaries, which Synesius (*De Regno* [*PG* LXVI] col. 1089ff.) had made fifty years before, receives support in *Fr.* 8 (p.81) where Priscus makes Attila, in demanding that Theodosius return those who had fled to the Romans, declare that they would be useless as defenders of Roman cities and forts.[58] The Greek's claim that the generals of Rome are cowards is echoed in *Fr.* 5 where Priscus himself says that Anatolius and Theodulus refused to resist the demands of Attila because "they were afraid as a result of what had happened in the past". In the same fragment Priscus remarks the fear of the rulers of the state (*οἱ ἄρχοντες*), and, advocating war rather than the payment of tribute,[59] he claims that the taxes imposed by Theodosius to buy off Attila caused widespread ruin. Finally, although there is no surviving passage in which Priscus attacks judicial corruption, Marcian, the Emperor whom he most admired, condemned one type of abuse which the Greek specifies, the dragging out of court cases for corrupt purposes.[60] In sum, the speech of the Greek, much of it going unchallenged, acts as a vehicle for Priscus to attack current abuses, and the speech which Priscus gives to himself acts as a foil to it, making a traditionalist defence of the Roman constitution and asserting the primacy of the law, even over the Emperor: the statement that "the laws are over all, so that even the Emperor obeys them" is a dissent from much current official opinion

on the matter.[61]

The debate itself, if it ever took place, was probably far different from that presented by Priscus. In the History it is a consciously created tool of analysis,[62] a historiographical usage which goes back at least to Thucydides and examples of which appear in Ammianus and Procopius, both of whom place in the mouths of others opinions hostile to the authorities, which they probably shared.[63] Priscus, indeed, might in the complete History have made much use of this and other devices for indirect comment. Certainly, there is little indication in the surviving fragments of the direct commentary upon policies and actions which Ammianus, Eunapius, and Olympiodorus all frequently offer. Exceptional are the attack in *Fr.* 5 upon the payment of tribute to Attila and the luxurious lifestyles of the powerful in the state,[64] and the *Suda* article, Θ 145, which preserves traces of censure of Theodosius' character and policies suggesting that in the full History there might have been some direct comment upon that Emperor. However, as will be suggested later in discussion of Priscus' views upon the Roman rulers and their policies,[65] his favoured methods were either to place the commentary in the mouth of a person in the narrative or to let the outcome of a policy speak for itself.

Priscus was self-effacing not only in presenting his political views but also in revealing his religious position. Ensslin argued that he and Maximinus must have been Christians to have held their offices under Theodosius II and Marcian, the latter of whom, he pointed out, issued an edict against all polytheism (*CJ.* 1,11,7, A.D. 451).[66] However, his contention that Marcian banned all polytheism goes beyond his evidence, since the edict which he cites merely re-affirms a ban on pagan sacrifices. Such bans had been issued before without driving all pagans from public office; and it is certain that Apollonius, a leading official of Marcian, was pagan.[67] The consensus, against Ensslin, is that Priscus and Maximinus were pagans,[68] a view for which there is also little clear evidence. In *Fr.* 21 Priscus remarks a ceremony to the goddess Isis performed by the Nobadae and Blemmyes and says that Maximinus chose her temple at Philae as the place for the ratification of a treaty with these peoples. But this would have been a concession to their beliefs and an attempt to ensure adherence to the treaty, rather than an indication of Maximinus' own religious opinions.[69] Similarly, the historian's favourable attitude towards the pagan Apollonius was probably as politically inspired as his admiration for the Christian Marcian, since the action for which Apollonius is praised, defiance of Attila to his face (*Fr.* 18), provides a nice contrast with what Priscus

saw as Theodosius' feeble policy towards the Hunnic king.[70] Nothing can be deduced from the explanations of the fire at Constantinople in 465, that it was begun either by a demon in the guise of a woman or by a woman possessed by a demon, for the story is preserved by Christian writers who found it plausible enough.[71] Nor can anything be read into the acceptance of the power of sorcery evident in John of Antioch *Fr.* 207, the linking of natural disasters with a Hunnic invasion in Evagrius 2,14, or the belief in spirits which protect a just man in Evagrius 2,1 – all were acceptable to pagans and Christians alike.[72] Conversely, the treatment of Christianity and Christians reveals nothing. The account of the betrayal of Margus by its bishop (*Fr.* 2) merely records an important and apparently historical fact. The note upon the Persian charge (*Fr.* 31) that the Romans, contrary to agreement, were interfering with those practising the Magian religion on Roman soil, is neutral in tone. The few direct references to Christianity use both expressions taken directly from the Christian vocabulary and less precise language.[73] *Fr.* 34 gives what was perhaps a typical treatment of things Christian in the History. There the Lazic king Gobazes is said to have won over Leo "by the flattery of his words" – a Platonic allusion (*Laws* 906b) – and "by carrying the symbols of the Christians". Here Christianity is not wholly ignored, because it is directly important to historical explanation, but it receives no special emphasis, unlike in the *Life of Daniel the Stylite*, where Daniel is said to have reconciled Leo and Gobazes on this occasion.[74] The tone of the History is determinedly secular, and religious considerations are effaced as much as is possible, more than by Olympiodorus, far more than by Eunapius. Thus, the question of Priscus' religion is not answerable, nor does it seem especially important.

One of the major concerns, perhaps *the* major concern, of Priscus in his History was that of the relations between the Romans and foreign peoples. If the book-division of the History which I have proposed is correct, then the Huns of Attila were, for Priscus, by far the most important of these peoples; but clearly attention was also given to the Ostrogoths, Persians, Saracens and others. Since the Romans were often in a state of hostility with the barbarians, war and the various activities associated with war must have played a significant part in the work, as Evagrius (1,17) suggests when he speaks of Priscus' History as telling of "the variety and the number of the cities" which Attila captured in his invasions of the Roman Empire. However, very little material on military activity survives and, although that might have been partly conditioned by the passages chosen by the compilers of the *Excerpta*

de Legationibus, the lack of such material in the other writers who used Priscus suggests that the historian was not greatly interested in military history and presented much of it in a somewhat cursory manner.[75] Certainly, the few surviving accounts of battles and sieges do not inspire confidence in Priscus as a military historian. The account of the siege of Naissus (*Fr.* 1b) would cause difficulties, whether or not the use of Thucydidean imitations renders it, in any case, wholly useless;[76] the description of the capture of Aquileia mostly consists of an account of a portent which presaged the fall of the city;[77] and in *Fr.* 39 the description of the destruction of a barbarian army by the Romans concentrates upon a single stratagem by which this destruction was effected. Furthermore, whether wilfully or not, Priscus seems to have failed to appreciate the complexity and interactive nature of the military situations in the Balkans and in Africa, which compounded Theodosius' problems with the Huns, and, in his advocacy of war against Attila, he betrays a simplistic view of the situation.[78] Certainly, Priscus' career and experience, unlike that of Ammianus, did not prepare him to be a military historian. But in his History there is a discernible shift away from treating international relations mainly as a matter of fighting, towards approaching them more as a matter of negotation. This shift was not an idiosyncrasy of Priscus, but rather a trend in the historiography of the period, which can be seen in Olympiodorus, in Malchus, and later most markedly in Menander, and which reflected a move towards the 'Byzantine' preference for diplomacy over war. In Priscus the obvious example of this activity is the embassy to Attila in which he participated (*Fr.* 8), but equally revealing are the accounts of a complex of diplomatic missions remarked in *Frr.* 29-37, involving the western Romans, Marcellinus in Dalmatia, the Vandals, the Persians, the Lazi, the Huns, and other peoples to the north of the Balkans. At this point, as elsewhere, the History is built upon the descriptions of diplomacy to a degree which would have been inconceivable for an Ammianus or a Eunapius.

The interest in foreign relations leads Priscus to incorporate in his History descriptions of events and of phenomena occurring beyond the Roman frontier. In *Frr.* 33 and 37 he offers brief accounts of Persian activity on their Caucasian frontier against the Kidarites and other tribes. These accounts are given as background to Romano-Persian relations and they reflect increased interest by the Romans in the Armenian highlands and the areas of Lazica and Iberia beyond, which brought them into greater involvement with the Persians themselves and with the tribes of the Caucasus.[79] Often Priscus introduced

his material on foreign peoples in digressions. With the exception of an account of the advent of the Huns into Europe and perhaps a description of the Scrithofinni, there is no indication that Priscus used the long, formally marked digression of the kind favoured by Ammianus and perhaps Olympiodorus.[80] Rather he seems on the whole to have restricted himself to brief comments upon subjects arising out of the narrative. One of these short digressions was antiquarian, a notice on Charybdis,[81] but most of those that survive offer interesting and diverting information upon the Huns and peoples subject to them: troubles amongst the Akatiri (a tribe subject to the Huns), the stone bath of the Hunnic noble Onegesius, descriptions of Kreka, a wife of Attila, and of a feast given by Attila.[82] Certainly, the length and detail of *Fr.* 8, where these descriptions occur, should not over-influence our view of the frequency of such asides elsewhere in the History, since the central role played by the Huns and Priscus' own observation of these things for himself made it likely that information on the Huns did form a large part of the digressional material. But if digressional material on other people were included, it was probably presented in a similar way.

As a historian of the relations between the Romans and foreign peoples, especially the Huns, Priscus was particularly interested in the imperial policies towards these peoples. His clearest position in this respect is upon the policy of appeasement which Theodosius adopted towards Attila and especially the payment of tribute to buy peace. In various places he vehemently rejects this policy and, to demonstrate the heavy and growing burden which the payment of tribute entailed, he specifies the sums agreed upon: 350 lbs. of gold in 431, 700 in 434, 2,100 in 447 – one of the few contexts in which he gives figures.[83] Attila is pictured as an extortionist with an insatiable greed for gold,[84] sending his supporters on spurious embassies to the eastern court to grow rich on the gifts which as envoys they would receive from a terrified Roman government (*Fr.* 6), a topos perhaps, but a plausible one. The ascendency of Attila is illustrated by his execution on Roman territory of fugitives who had been handed over to him, an action which mocked the Romans' power even within their own jurisdiction.[85] The Hunnic king himself seems to claim his ascendency over Theodosius almost as a quasi-legal status, when he asserts (*Fr.* 12) that by the payment of tribute the Emperor had surrendered the nobility which he had inherited from his father and had rendered himself the slave of Attila; and he continues ironically in the same passage, that since Theodosius was clearly unable to control his own retainers (οἰκέτων) – by which he means Zeno, the turbulent master of the

soldiers in the East –, then he, Attila, would make an alliance and come to his aid. Whether the Hun had any aim other than to embarrass Theodosius, Priscus does not say, though some clearly thought that he intended to conquer the whole Roman Empire.[86] But Priscus, who regards appeasement as an inducement to further demands and prefers energetic resistance, comments directly upon the fears of the Romans: "and they [the Romans] heeded his [Attila's] orders and obeyed the commands of their master, whatever he should enjoin upon them" (*Fr.* 6).[87] He approves of the boldness of Apollonius who defied Attila to his face (*Fr.* 18), apparently without suffering for it, and he makes much of the resistance to the Huns put up by the people of Asemus, who inflicted heavy losses upon marauding bands of the invaders and who rejected the craven demands of the imperial government that they surrender their captives and the Roman prisoners who had escaped to their city (*Fr.* 5).

Priscus, like most ancient historians, tended to couch his observations in moral terms. Thus, the portrait of Attila which appears in Jordanes (*Getica* 35, 180 and 182) depicts him as proud and warlike, wise, personally temperate, and clement, all of which characteristics are also illustrated in *Fr.* 8, where Priscus makes it clear that he saw in the Hunnic king a strong and decisive leader of men. In sharp contrast stand those on the Roman side: the generals Anatolius and Theodulus, too afraid to resist the Hunnic forces (*Fr.* 5), and the cowardly Theodosius, excessively afraid of usurpers, cravenly urging Valentinian III to surrender his sister Honoria to the demand of Attila, relying on bad officials, and especially dependent on eunuchs.[88] Chief amongst the last is Chrysaphius, the target of Priscus' greatest hatred and, according to the historian, the origin of many of the policies of which he disapproved. Whenever Chrysaphius is mentioned it is with contempt, often merely as 'the eunuch'.[89] His greed for gold, the favourite charge against eunuchs, is remarked, as is the hatred which all felt for him.[90] Much is made of his treacherous attempt to have Attila assassinated, an attempt which misfired, causing great embarrassment to the imperial government and bringing Chrysaphius himself into great danger, from which he was extricated by the payment of still more gold.[91] The historian's hostility towards Chrysaphius was, of course, part of a general attitude towards such persons and their power, and it also appears in Priscus directed towards the chamberlain Heraclius for his role in the death of Aetius, and perhaps towards the overbearing Antiochus.[92] But the particular hatred towards Chrysaphius sprang not only from this general dislike and from disapproval of the policies with

which he was identified, but also from the fact that Priscus and Maximinus were sent on the embassy to Attila in ignorance that others in their party were supposed to plan the assassination of the Hunnic king, which caused them great embarrassment in their negotiations and could have exposed them to grave danger.

Two further elements can be observed in Priscus' condemnation of Theodosius' policy of appeasement towards the Huns. First, the failure to fight led to the continued devastation of Thrace, Priscus' homeland. Second, Priscus claims that the payment of tribute laid heavy burdens upon the taxpayers, by whom he probably means the senatorial landowners, to whom as a class Theodosius seems to have shown some coolness.[93] Fiscal oppression was a regular theme of late historians,[94] and concern for landed proprietors appears in another passage which might be from Priscus.[95] But the rejection of the policy of paying tribute, however economical that policy might have been,[96] may well have made political sense as well. For the payment of tribute as a substitute for fighting, when not backed by military force or will, could in the period of the late Empire be construed as a confession of the sort of subordination which Attila suggests. Thus, Persian propaganda of the time of Justinian represented the Romans as their tributaries on the ground of the payment which the Romans made to them as a subsidy,[97] and this became an element in the negotiations which both powers later carried on with the Turks.[98] Priscus' nationalist pride would have found intolerable the confession of weakness implicit in the policy, which some strong rulers rejected.[99] Furthermore, if Priscus were generally hostile to barbarians, including those serving in the Roman armies,[100] then that too would have coloured his attitude towards Theodosius' dealings with the Huns. Significantly enough, in contrast with his clear rejection of the payment of tribute to Attila, there is little criticism of the returning of the Hun fugitives, some of whom appear to have been enrolled in the Roman army.[101]

A major flaw in Priscus' case against Theodosius, which reflects his weakness or lack of interest in military history, is his failure to consider the strategic and logistical aspects of the Roman situation. The eastern Empire had a formidable foe on another front, the Vandals in Africa, and Theodosius lacked the resources to deal with both at once. Therefore, he bought peace from the Huns so that he could deal with the Vandals, apparently being of the opinion that the Vandals posed the more immediate danger, which was a reasonable view since their access to the Mediterranean made them a threat to any of the ill-defended points at the heart of the Empire. Indeed, it can be reasonably argued

that Theodosius' error lay not in refusing to fight the Huns, but in provoking them to war in 441 by his failure to return the fugitives (*Fr.* 2) as had been agreed in the treaty of 434 (*Fr.* 1). By 442 the Roman forces in the Balkans had been crushed, and Attila could increase his demands.[102] In the full History, of course, Priscus might have given a fairer presentation of Theodosius' problems by inserting references to the dealings with the Vandals, and he might have advanced firmer and more coherent reasons for condemning Roman policy. But in *Fr.* 6, where there is some recognition of the difficulties caused by the simultaneous hostility of the Persians, Vandals, Isaurians and Saracens, Priscus shows little sympathy for the plight of the Roman policymakers.

Priscus' treatment of the internal history of Theodosius' reign is unclear. In the fragments and in the Priscan passages of other writers there is little mention of internal events, and it may be that in the first four books of the History most of the emphasis was on relations with the Huns. Certainly, some of the activities of the eunuch chamberlains were mentioned and possibly the administration at Constantinople of the prefect Cyrus of Panopolis, whose learning and wit were praised and whose disgrace and consecration as bishop were described.[103] The one clearly discernible theme, which reappears in Leo's reign and runs through the treatment of western events, is the turbulence of high, usually military, officials;[104] and this might have constituted a second major subject of the History, along with Romano-barbarian relations. Theodosius is said by John of Antioch (*Fr.* 199,1) to have been terrified of usurpers; and Daniel and Baudo, otherwise unknown, are named. The *Suda* (Θ 145) speaks of disturbances in the Hellespont and Propontis caused by the followers of Sebastian, probably the son-in-law of Boniface, with his Gothic followers. Priscus himself (*Fr.* 8 p.94) mentions the insubordination of Zeno, the master of the soldiers of the East and the enemy of Chrysaphius, and he says that Theodosius feared that he would revolt (*Fr.* 14). In fact, John of Antioch (*Fr.* 199,1) indicates that at the end of Theodosius' reign hostilities did break out and a military force was sent against Zeno.

In sharp contrast with Priscus' hostility towards Theodosius is his favourable treatment of Marcian, Theodosius' successor. Marcian was, like Priscus, a Thracian, a fact that might explain the advancement of the historian to the post of *assessor* to Euphemius, the powerful master of the offices. The second book of Evagrius' *Ecclesiastical History* begins with a laudatory account of Marcian's early military career and the portents of his rise to greatness. The first part of this account,

which tells of his journey to join the army, the danger into which he fell as the result of an act of charity, and a name-portent of his elevation to Emperor, is derived by Evagrius from Priscus, which suggests that Priscus, too, declared his enthusiasm for Marcian in a prefatory passage on his early life. But more than purely personal considerations inclined Priscus to Marcian, for this Emperor also reversed many of the Theodosian policies of which the historian disapproved. Internally, Marcian favoured the senatorial landowners. He remitted the arrears of tax, which always benefitted those who had been able to postpone payment; he abolished the φόλλις, the hated tax upon senatorial property; and he confined the office of praetor, which was expensive and unpopular because of the games which the holder had to give, to senators of the capital.[105] Externally, Marcian reversed Theodosius' policy towards the Huns and declared (*Fr.* 15) that, although he would give them gifts if they kept the peace, he would not be blackmailed into paying tribute and would fight if they made war. As a Thracian the Emperor could hardly have been expected to allow the continued ravaging of his homeland, and his defiance was probably not as rash as might appear.[106] For it was already known that Attila was preparing for an attack upon the West, and the Vandals were encouraging him in this because they thought that his object was the Visigoths (*Fr.* 15), with whom there had been bad blood since about 446. Shortly before that date Gaiseric had betrothed Eudoxia, the daughter of Valentinian III and one of the royal captives taken at Rome in 455, to his son Huneric. To clear the way for the marriage Huneric's present wife, the daughter of the Visigothic king, was accused of plotting to poison her husband and was sent back to her father mutilated.[107] Thus, at this point there was a coincidence of eastern Roman and Vandalic interests in Attila's move against the West, and Marcian, in order to be able to concentrate upon the Balkans, concluded a treaty of non-aggression with Gaiseric, a treaty which pro-Marcian sources were at pains to justify.[108] Attila's invasion of the West constituted a threat to Italy as well as to the Visigoths, since the Hunnic king had laid claim to the hand of Valentinian's sister Honoria and to what he claimed was her share of the Empire.[109] While Attila was in the West, Marcian, facing continued Hunnic raids on the Balkans,[110] sent a force of auxiliaries, under the command of Aetius, the count of the domestics, to attack the Huns remaining north of the Danube.[111]

Too little survives of Priscus' treatment of the reign of Leo to give a clear picture of his attitude towards that Emperor, although there are a few hints that generally it was not favourable. While he did not

censure Marcian for his treaty with Gaiseric, probably on the ground that it enabled him to defy Attila, he later criticised the eastern Romans when, because of the treaty, they failed to send help against the attacks of Gaiseric upon Italy in about 462 (*Fr.* 30). Once again the situation had changed: there was a new Emperor and the Hunnic threat had dissipated. Again, Aspar's role in the elevation of Leo was stressed and disapproval was voiced at the Emperor's treacherous murder of his powerful general.[112] But the major theme that is discernible is the revival of the internal turbulence that had plagued the reign of Theodosius. This turbulence seems to have centred upon two groups. First, there was a series of rivalries between Germanic officers in the Roman army, which led to the killing of one Ulith by the general Anagast, the revolt of the latter, and the implication of the general Ardabur in the revolt, and finally the murder of Ardabur and his father, Aspar.[113] The second group of disorders, which resulted from the revival of Isaurian turbulence, is illustrated by rioting on the part of Isaurian troops at Rhodes and Constantinople, and operations of the general Zeno against the brigand Indacus.[114] What view Priscus took of these disturbances is unclear from the scanty material preserved in the fragments, although John of Antioch, *Fr.* 206, 1 and 2, suggests that he juxtaposed them. Perhaps he used them to condemn the reliance upon Germans and Isaurians by Leo, thus supporting the general condemnation of Roman policy made to Priscus himself by the Greek renegade amongst the Huns (*Fr.* 8 pp.86f.)

Western events do not appear to have been fully treated in the History,[115] which might have been the reason for its later title 'Byzantine', an indication of the shift from a pan-imperial to a solely eastern interest. Priscus' perception of the break-up of the West into separate countries is well illustrated by *Fr.* 30, where he speaks not of Romans, but of Italians, Goths, and Franks, and by *Fr.* 29, where manoeuvres are mentioned between Gaiseric, Ricimer, and Marcellinus with Italy and Sicily as the prize. Perhaps because he gathered much of his material on the West during his visit to Rome in 450 or from informants who came from Italy, Priscus' view of events was almost wholly from the south of the Alps. Gaul is either ignored or treated as a battleground for the Italian Emperors. Avitus, the Emperor created from Gaul and backed by the Visigoths, is viewed without sympathy and branded as afraid of the Vandals.[116] Aegidius' anger at the murder of Majorian on the orders of Ricimer is directed against the Italians (*Fr.* 30),[117] and in the same passage Marcellinus is said to have been feared by the "western Romans", by which again the Italians are meant.

It was clear to Priscus that the western Emperor was often little more than a puppet. Thus, Aetius is frequently called "the general of the western Romans"[118] and treated as the real ruler of the West; at *Fr.* 8 p.85 the historian speaks of envoys "from Aetius and the ruler of the western Romans", who is not named. Aetius' murder by Valentinian is condemned as an act of extreme folly, and his abilities and power, which Priscus realises was based upon his connections with the barbarians, are summed up in a necrology, not without a glance at the selfish motives behind much of what he did.[119] In contrast, Priscus plays down the importance of Aetius' great rival Boniface, who is replaced by Aetius as the guardian of Placidia and the young Valentinian;[120] and he seems to have treated with hostility Sebastian, Boniface's son-in-law and heir to his Gothic connections and sympathies.[121] As with the reigns of Theodosius and Leo, the feuds and turbulence of the high officials of the state were given prominence. Priscus recounted and deplored the plotting of Petronius Maximus which led to the deaths of Aetius, Valentinian III, and himself, and to the sack of Rome by Gaiseric.[122] He described the revolt of Majorian and Ricimer against Avitus, the hostility of Aegidius and Marcellinus towards the Italians, and the conflict between Ricimer and Anthemius which led to civil war in the city of Rome and the death of the Emperor.[123] This selection of material on the West – or rather that preserved by John of Antioch – suggests that internal turbulence was a leading theme here too. Perhaps it was advanced by Priscus as a primary explanation for the collapse of the western Empire, with implications for the continued survival of East Rome.

The sources which Priscus drew upon for his History can only be guessed at. There is no indication that he used other historical accounts for his narrative, and it is highly likely that most if not all of his information was oral or archival. His close association with Maximinus, a man of high position, and Euphemius, one of the most powerful of Marcian's officials, would have given him access not only to people in high places who were involved in the events which he described in his History, but also to documentary material, such as official correspondence and copies of treaties, which could have been supplemented by published documents such as speeches, pamphlets, and political poems.[124] His own travels also would have been an invaluable source of information, in that they enabled him to witness some events and to meet first-hand or well-connected informants for others. During his mission to Attila in 449 he would have learned from Bigilas of various diplomatic manoeuvres including the plot to kill Attila (*Fr.* 7), and

from the western Roman envoys Romulus, Promotus, and Romanus, he would have obtained not only the western assessment of Attila's designs but also information upon events in the West (*Fr.* 8 pp.89-91). The trip to Rome in the next year would have given him a further opportunity to collect information on western events, but only up to 450. For the history of the West from that date until 474 Priscus' sources cannot even be conjectured. But the surviving fragments suggest that his information was rather sketchy.[125] Indeed, it does seem that Priscus allowed the balance of his History to be greatly influenced by his sources and his own interests. One can suspect that the views, perhaps of Maximinus, and certainly of Euphemius, influenced the treatment of Theodosius and Marcian, and one can see the career of Priscus behind the excessive emphasis upon Attila and the Huns and in the general trend towards diplomatic history. *Fragment* 8 records a number of moves in a game of diplomatic point-scoring which would have been of no interest to Ammianus in the fourth century but of great concern to Menander in the sixth.

Many of the faults of Priscus' History are the faults of the late classical form: vague chronology, topography, and geography, the refusal to give accurate and detailed numbers, the avoidance of technical terms and other 'inappropriate' details, and the building of the narrative around a few leading personalities. Priscus has been condemned as an inept military historian,[126] and the few surviving passages on military activity seem to support that judgement. His interests were primarily diplomatic, but his failure to grasp military strategy, or his lack of interest in it, impaired his ability to judge wider diplomatic concerns. Most serious are the deficiencies in his causation. Unlike Eunapius he did not make the mistake of explaining events solely in terms of the virtues and vices of a few leading personalities, although he viewed Attila's desire for gold merely as the result of his greed and accounted for Basiliscus' failure against the Vandals by his corruptibility.[127] Elsewhere Priscus offers explanations which only comprehend the immediate context of the action. For instance, Attila's pretext for hostility towards Valentinian III (Honoria's thwarted offer of marriage) is combined with the alleged desires of the Hunnic king to please Gaiseric and to interfere in the succession to the Frankish throne, and they are used together to account for his attack on the West.[128] Again, the murder of Aetius is treated solely as the result of the ambitions of Petronius Maximus and the eunuch Heraclius.[129] Certainly, there must have been personal considerations involved in all such actions, and it is quite likely that those which were identified had

some basis in fact or in propaganda. But Priscus, whose rather cavalier attitude towards explanation is suggested by his willingness to use classical motifs in place of authentic information,[130] never considers the wider context of an action. Thus, Aetius' murder is not related in any way to loss of prestige or some other change in his relationship with the western court; and, when Attila's decision to retreat from Rome is ascribed to a superstitious fear of meeting the same fate as Alaric, no mention is made of other problems which he encountered, such as armed resistance or famine.[131] All of this might be unfair to Priscus, since the fragmentary state of his text might have obscured many of his qualities as a historian. But his failure to consider overall military strategy seems to be the other side of the coin to the weaknesses in explanation remarked above; and together they suggest that he was more at home with episodes than with the wider sweep of history. Priscus' strengths as a historian lay not in analysis or explanation, but in narrative and description. It was these strengths which recommended him to later writers and which are well illustrated in the justly famous eighth *Fragment*, that is, perhaps significantly, the only substantial passage of the History to have survived. His account of his mission to the camp of Attila, recounted in a clear and straightforward manner and filled with vivid descriptions, such as a storm and flash flood, Attila at banquet, his wife Kreka and her maidservants, is the only substantial basis for his high reputation.[132]

CHAPTER 4

MALCHUS OF PHILADELPHIA

Very little is known about Malchus. The *Suda* (M 120) calls him a 'Byzantine', but that probably refers to his place of residence. For Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 78) says that he came from Philadelphia, which, because Malchus bears a Semitic name, is identified with Philadelphia in Syria. Both the *Suda* and Photius call him a sophist, an indication that, like the other historians discussed in this study, he had received the normal classical education of the day; and Photius notes that he had excelled in rhetoric. Malchus' interest in learned men is illustrated in *Fr.* 20 where he praises the grammarian Pamprepius, and perhaps in *Fr.* 2a where the exile of the grammarian Hyperechius is remarked.

Malchus' History, which is the only work attributed to him, is called by the *Excerpta de Legationibus Romanorum* and by Photius *Byzantine History* (Βυζαντιακά). This probably was its true title, since its primary concern was the history of the eastern Roman Empire, whose capital Malchus always calls Byzantium, not Constantinople. Almost all of the remains of the work are preserved in the *Excerpta de Legationibus*, which thus provide the indispensable basis for the ordering of the fragments. The first two passages of the *Excerpta* are obviously out of order and should be placed at the end. But since this dislocation clearly resulted from something like the replacement of a page in the wrong order, it offers no justification for the occasional attempt to tamper with the order of the other passages from the *Excerpta*. To the fragments from the *Excerpta* Photius' brief summary adds some scraps, and in the *Suda* there are a few notices attributed to Malchus by name and others which might have come from the History. Elsewhere he is mentioned by name only once by Zonaras and once in a scholion to Evagrius' *Ecclesiastical History*, in both places probably as a secondary source. Identification of material from Malchus in later historians is complicated by the knowledge that two other works which covered the same period were available and were probably more popular: a History of the reigns of Leo and Zeno by the Isaurian Candidus and the last part of the *Universal History* of Eustathius of Epiphania, which for this period might have been an independent source. Comparison of the material in the later historians both with the fragments of Malchus and with the characteristics of Candidus' History which can be gleaned from Photius' summary strongly suggests that little, if any, use was made by them of Malchus.[1]

Photius says that Malchus' History was in seven books and ran from the time when disease fell upon Leo in the seventeenth year of his reign (late 473 - early 474) to the death of Nepos (in 480). He also remarks that the version which he had seen was only a part of the original: "these seven books of history appear to have continued other books which preceded them, as the beginning of the first book of the seven shows. Moreover, had the historian lived longer, he would have written others, as the end of the seventh book shows" (*Bibl. cod.* 78, I p.161). The compilers of the *Excerpta* also seem to have had access only to a mutilated version of the History, since the first passage preserved there (*Fr.* 1) is also dated to the seventeenth year of Leo's reign while the last passage (*Fr.* 19) refers to late 479 or early 480.[2] Similarly, no certainly or possibly Malchan notice in the *Suda* goes beyond these dates.[3] However, the author of the notice in the *Suda* upon Malchus himself had either access to or information about the complete work, for he tells us that the History ran from the reign of Constantine to Anastasius (491). Presumably by Constantine he means Constantine I, and perhaps Malchus began from the foundation of Constantinople in 330, a suitable starting point for a work called *Byzantine History*. In noting the contents of the work the *Suda* article refers only to the reigns of Basiliscus and Zeno, which suggests that these formed the core of it. Thus, the original History would have been a large-scale treatment of the period 473/4 to 491, preceded by an epitome, perhaps from 330.[4] By the first half of the tenth century at the latest it had been reduced to the fragment which was seen by Photius. The accounts of Photius and the *Suda* thus match in all particulars, except that Photius, in remarking the abrupt ending of the History, wrongly concluded that it resulted from the death of the author, whereas, like the initial epitome, the last part seems to have been lost.

The date of publication of the History cannot be closely determined. It must have been published after the death of Zeno (491) to whom the author was extremely hostile, and it is generally assumed that it appeared during the reign of Anastasius (491-518). The interest which *Fr.* 1 shows in the Roman loss of control over the island of Jotaba is a very weak indication that the History was published after its recapture in 498.[5] The mention of the "Great Wall" in *Fr.* 16 has prompted the suggestion that it was written after Anastasius' building of the Great Wall of Constantinople.[6] But even if this were so, it would be of little help since the date of the building of the wall is disputed.[7]

Photius says that the part of the History which he saw was

divided into seven books, which covered seven years. The coincidence of books and years suggests an annalistic structure with one year treated in each book, a proposition which finds no contrary evidence in the fragments, and some support. The first fragment begins with a reference to the seventeenth year of Leo, an indication that Malchus used the typically Byzantine method of dating by reign-years, and the eleventh with the words "in the following year", which is probably the excerptor's expression for the reign-year of the original. Photius himself says that in the course of his narrative Malchus inserted material on the affairs of the western Romans and that he ended the seventh book with the death of Nepos. This in turn suggests that some at least of the books ended with an account of affairs in the West, which finds a little support in *Fr.* 10 which describes embassies of Augustulus and Nepos to Zeno and is immediately followed in the *Excerpta de Legationibus Gentium* by *Fr.* 11 of "the following year".

Malchus' History was, even more than that of Priscus, a true 'Byzantine History' in that, as the passages from the *Excerpta* and the summary of Photius show, it dealt mainly with the affairs of Constantinople and of the Balkans and Asia Minor, the regions of most direct concern to the City. The fragments from the *Excerpta*, however, probably do not give an accurate indication of the balance of the material, since well over three-quarters of their text deals with relations between the East Romans and the Ostrogoths in the Balkans, whereas Photius' summary, which makes relations with the Ostrogoths just two of the ten topics mentioned, indicates a more balanced treatment. Certainly, the usurpation of Basiliscus,[8] the plots against Illus, and the revolt of Marcian must have received a more ample treatment than the surviving passages suggest, and the description of the fire at Constantinople in 476 was striking enough for both the *Suda* (M 120) and Zonaras (14,2,24) to mention it. Relations with the Persians were peaceful during Zeno's reign, and there is no indication that events in Mesopotamia and beyond were narrated in any detail, for the account of relations between the Persian king Peroz and the Ephthalite Huns, which is found in Procopius (*Wars* 1,3-4) and other historians, seems not to have come to them either from Malchus or from Candidus. The western affairs which Photius says Malchus inserted in his narrative seem to have been events in Italy and Africa, the two areas of the West in contact with and of continuing interest to the East Romans, and the events themselves seem to have been those of especial importance to the Byzantine court. Thus, *Fragments* 3 and 13 describe attempts to regularise relations with the Vandals, *Fragment* 10 notes the deposition of Augustulus and the conflicting claims of Odovacer and

Nepos which were referred to Zeno, and Photius remarks Nepos' death, which was politically and constitutionally important to East Rome.

As a historian and a stylist Malchus wins high praise from Photius, who describes his narrative as clear, simple, and well-ordered, and his style as florid, elevated, and clear. The *Suda* (M 120) calls the style elevated (*σεμνῶς*) and notes the use of tragic diction. The surviving fragments bear out these judgements, for there one finds neither the clumsy and banal rhetoric of Eunapius, nor the awkward Herodotean and Thucydidean borrowings with which Priscus at times indulged himself,[9] nor the 'romantic' passages which appear in the later historians and which are drawn from Candidus or elsewhere. Two passages from the *Suda*, Z 83 and 84, the former probably from Malchus, the latter certainly not, illustrate by their contrast the qualities of the historian. In the first the characteristics of the Emperor Zeno's reign are summed up briefly and clearly; in the second, which is probably from Candidus, Zeno, defeated and in flight to a fortress called Constantinople, laments the irony of his circumstances and his fate as a plaything of God in a short speech that is both mannered and could have added nothing to the development of the historical account.[10]

The administrative and other terminology of Malchus falls somewhere between that of Priscus and that of Olympiodorus. Common Latinisms appear in Greek transcription, for instance, *πατρίκιος* (*Frr.* 3; 10; 18 p.126), *σιλεντιάριος* (*Fr.* 2), *σχόλαι* (*Frr.* 11; 17) and *μάγιστρος* (*Fr.* 11), as well as the less common *τῶν πριβάτων κόμης* (*Fr.* 13) and the mixed *πρωτοπατρίκιος* (*Fr.* 1).[11] Explanatory formulae also appear, such as "the treaty-Goths whom the Romans call *φοιδεράτοι*" (*Fr.* 11), "the cavalry of the Emperor ... whom they call *μαγιστριάνοι*" (*Fr.* 18 p. 127) of the mounted *scholae*, and "the man holding the command of the so-called *δομέστικοι*, which is one of the great commands of the court" (*Fr.* 18 p.126) of the count of the domestics.[12] Greek terms, however, predominate, including *πολιαρχήσαντα* (*Fr.* 18 p.126) used of the office of the urban prefect, and the circumlocutory "holder of the two generalships at court, which are the senior commands" (*Fr.* 18 p.126) which explains *magister utriusque militiae praesentalis*. Vagueness is not always avoided, especially in the use of *στρατηγός* and its cognates. The Gothic king Theoderic the son of Theodemir is called both *ἡγεμών* and *στρατηγός* (in *Fr.* 15), and *αὐτοκράτωρ* (in *Fr.* 2), the latter, which is usually used of the Emperor, being introduced to stress his sole kingship of the Goths in distinction from his rival, Theoderic Strabo, who is called by the lesser title *ἀρχηγός* (*Frr.* 2; 4).[13] In places, indeed, it is a little difficult to distinguish between the two Theoderics, since sometimes

they are both called simply Theoderic, at others the son of Theodemir is called (wrongly) the son of Walamir, and Theoderic Strabo is called either the son of Triarius or simply Strabo.[14]

In naming peoples and places Malchus avoids the anachronistic classicising of Priscus and other Byzantine historians, who filled their pages with Scythians, Massagetes, Medes and Parthians. In his History Goths are Γότθοι, Persians Πέρσαι and Italians Ἰτάλοι, and the alternative names of the Arabs are given: "the tent-Arabs whom they call Saracens" (*Fr.* 1). Current names of towns are also preferred: Epidamnus not Dyrrhachium, Byzantium not Constantinople. Again, the businesslike Malchus is more ready than many of his fellow historians to give numbers. Amounts of gold are given in λίτραι, for ransom (*Fr.* 4), for tribute or support (*Frr.* 2; 16; 18 p.126), and for the corrupt buying of office (*Fr.* 12). Military logistics – numbers of men, horses, wagons, and so on – appear comparatively frequently,[15] and an Olympiodoran delight in figures for their own sake is suggested by the possibly Malchan passage in Zonaras (14,2,22-24) which gives the number of books destroyed in the Basilica during the fire at Constantinople in 476 and the length of a serpent's intestines which had the works of Homer written upon them.

Like all classicising historians Malchus used speeches in his History. The fragments preserve short examples of direct, indirect, and mixed discourse,[16] some of which may well be traces of longer set-speeches, which Malchus, a sophist, is quite likely to have introduced. Examples are the arguments of the rival envoys sent to Zeno by Augustulus and Nepos and the reply of Zeno (*Fr.* 10), and the proposals made to Zeno by the ambassadors of the Vandal king Huneric (*Fr.* 13). What uses Malchus made of his speeches is not clear from the brief fragments that survive, but the longest examples, a pair of speeches by Theoderic the son of Theodemir and the Roman envoy Adamantius and a reply by Theoderic, offer an interesting parallel to the debate between Priscus and the Greek.[17] Adamantius has come to remonstrate with Theoderic for his making peace with Strabo and his surprise capture of Epidamnus. Theoderic speaks first and justifies his coming to terms with Strabo by complaining that, although the Romans summoned him to war against the latter, promising reinforcements and money, they fulfilled none of their commitments and their guides led him through difficult country which left him open to attack by Strabo. Malchus himself comments immediately before Theoderic's speech that in his view the complaints of the Ostrogothic king were justified; and the reply of Adamantius, to whom Malchus seems

personally sympathetic, is weak. The Roman envoy stresses the honours which the Emperor had bestowed upon the Gothic king and claims that in fact the Romans had *permitted* him to leave his earlier location in Thrace. Thus, he should respect the might of the Romans and move to Dardania, where there is good land for him and his followers. In reply to this Theoderic says that the hardships which his people have suffered make it impossible for them to move before the Spring. Then he would willingly take his people to Dardania and, in the meantime, if he were given the honours which the Romans had bestowed upon Strabo, he would fight for them against their enemies in Thrace and even restore Nepos to the western throne. Adamantius says that he cannot reply to this without reference to the Emperor, and the meeting breaks up.

The speeches, as they stand, appear to be condensations by the compilers of the *Excerpta*, but the basic arguments seem to be intact. They have the ring of genuineness, and the complaints of Theoderic, which are illustrated elsewhere in the History by examples of Zeno's double-dealing,[18] are the kind that one would expect. Malchus himself, by admitting the truth of the allegations, attests that they are authentic – unless one is prepared to believe that he would go to such lengths to give an air of authenticity to his own fabrications, a practice highly unlikely unless one is prepared to rank him with authors such as those of the *Augustan History*. The reply of Adamantius, in its use of official platitudes designed to put a bad case in the best light and in its refusal to answer Theoderic's complaints directly, serves merely to underline the justice of the complaints. The second speech of the Ostrogothic king, towards whom Malchus appears to have been in general sympathetic,[19] illustrates his reasonableness in its expression of willingness to accept the Roman proposals of settlement after his people have rested. The parallel with the Priscan speeches is clear, in that the purpose of both sets was to attack Roman policy. But there are also obvious differences. Priscus' debate, if it did take place, was conducted with form and content very different from those of the highly artificial speeches in his text, and the purpose of these appears to have been a discussion, on a general and on a specific level, of the problems of the Roman government of the period. Malchus' speeches, although probably somewhat polished up, are likely to have been delivered with form and content similar to what has been preserved, and their aim, more modest and more specific than that of Priscus, was to illustrate and criticise a particular trait of the administration of the Emperor Zeno, its untrustworthiness. Partly because of its more limited purpose and partly because of its less pretentious execution, Malchus' effort

appears historiographically the more successful of the two, in that his speeches are smoothly integrated into the development of the narrative, whereas those of Priscus obtrude rather awkwardly into his text.

Photius says that Malchus was a Christian. But his words on the matter, that the historian was "in his beliefs not outside the religion of the Christians", are rather tentative, and modern scholars, such as Laqueur and Bury, have regarded him as a pagan and specifically a Neoplatonist.[20] Others have followed Photius,[21] and A.M. and A.D.E. Cameron have shown that the non-Christian vocabulary which Malchus tended to use when speaking of things Christian and which led Laqueur to posit his paganism, was a literary convention of secular historiography of the period, and thus no indication of religious adherence.[22] References to Christians and Christianity are not common in the fragments, and the terminology used in these references seems to have been the usual mixture: commoner technical terms, such as ἐπίσκοπος ("bishop"), classical words, such as ἱερεύς ("priest") and ἀρχιερεύς ("high-priest"), and circumlocutions, such as a "priest, whom the Christians call presbyter".[23] Other references and attitudes argue neither for Christianity nor for paganism. The failure (*Fr.* 3) to note that Severus, when he made a treaty with Gaiseric, persuaded the Vandal king to allow the Catholic clergy to return to Africa,[24] is of no significance in view of the general tendency for the secular historians to omit ecclesiastical affairs. A remark on God's retribution (ἡ τοῦ θεοῦ ἀγανάκτησις, *Fr.* 4) could be Christian or pagan. The words of lamentation[25] which Malchus uttered over the loss of Julian's library and masterpieces of Greek art in the fire of 476 at Constantinople illustrate the Hellenic spirit of the writer but hardly his paganism. Again, while the treatment of the pagan Pamprepius and his teacher Proclus (who is called "the great") displays some admiration, especially in respect of the former's bold assertion of his paganism in the Christian capital, the discussion of Pamprepius' art of prophecy in the same fragment (20) is neutral in tone.[26] It appears, then, that the tentative tone of Photius, who was always alert for Orthodoxy in the works that he read, arose not from doubt about Malchus' Christianity but from a certain hesitation over the failure of this Christianity to emerge in the text. In short, there are some indications that Malchus, whatever his personal beliefs, about which there is no reason to disbelieve Photius, took a genuinely secular position both in his narrative and in rendering his historical judgements.

Beyond the statements of the *Suda* and Photius that Malchus was a sophist, nothing is known about his career or experience that would

provide a context for his observed views. Similarly, his sources are unknown, although, if, as has been suggested,[27] he wrote his History at Constantinople, his education and his status as sophist would have given him access to knowledgeable informants. One of these can be guessed at: either the Adamantius who plays the central role in *Fragment* 18 and who has been identified as Zeno's urban prefect, or one of his retinue.[28] For Malchus' account in that fragment of the negotiations between Adamantius and Theoderic the son of Theodemir shows sympathy for Adamantius' performance and a knowledge of the private talks between the two which, unless the speeches are fabrications, must have come from one of the participants or from someone close to them. The 'Constantinopolitan' point of view, as has already been noted,[29] is evidenced in the primary concern with events in the Balkans, Asia Minor, and the City itself, and a lessened interest in the West.[30] Foreign relations were still important to Malchus (more so, apparently, than to Candidus), but, one suspects, because of the threats which certain peoples, importantly the Ostrogoths, offered to the security of Constantinople and its territories. There is, for instance, no evidence of Priscus' interest in events and peoples beyond the Roman borders, or even in the customs of those who, like the Ostrogoths, were fighting within the borders. On the other hand, Malchus shares with Priscus the Byzantine (and civilian) tendency to treat relations between the Romans and foreign peoples in terms of diplomacy rather than war. Certainly, once again the survival of most of Malchus' fragments in the *Excerpta de Legationibus* must be considered; but the only surviving description of a battle, that between the general Sabinianus and a part of the forces of Theoderic the son of Theodemir, even if it has been somewhat abbreviated by the excerptor, seems brief and uncoloured.[31] In contrast an interest in diplomacy appears frequently,[32] details of the terms of treaties are set out,[33] and in *Fragment* 18 the discussions between Adamantius and Theoderic are described in more detail than would have been given by earlier historians such as Eunapius or Ammianus. In fact, at the end of the fragment, when Sabinianus' recommendation to fight Theoderic is followed by Zeno in preference to Adamantius' approach through negotiations, Malchus appears to have sided with the latter.[34]

As often in late histories, Malchus' work is dominated by a few personalities. From the fragments we can discern the importance of the two Theoderics and the Emperors Leo and Zeno. Photius' summary suggests that the Empress Verina, Illus, Basiliscus and probably Gaiseric also played major roles. Malchus himself was willing to comment upon

the characters and the policies of these figures so directly and forcefully that Niebuhr expressed surprise that he was not accused of treason and Laqueur complained that the first-person comments broke the objectivity of the narrative.[35] But the criticisms which Malchus made of Leo and Zeno and their officials were unlikely to have caused him serious trouble under the anti-Isaurian regime of Anastasius, and the statements of his views are an important aid to the evaluation of his handling of his material. Furthermore, although some of his comments are the all-too-common moralising ones upon the virtues or, more usually, vices of the person concerned, others very usefully concentrate upon specific policies. A good example of the latter is in *Fragment* 1, where Leo is criticised for his handling of a certain Amorkesos, the chief of an Arab band who had crossed from Persian territory to Roman Arabia and had seized the island of Jotaba and nearby villages, ejecting the Roman tithe-collectors.[36] Leo confirmed his request to be appointed phylarch of the Arabs in Arabia Petraea,[37] of which Malchus has no complaint. But he does question the wisdom of the Emperor in inviting Amorkesos to visit Constantinople, whither he would travel through cities which were luxurious and unwarlike, and in loading him with gifts and honours. The error, says Malchus, was three-fold in that Leo showed Amorkesos the unprepared state of the Romans, sacrificed the awe which the distant ruler of Byzantium aroused, and fuelled his greed and pride, so that he was unlikely to remain a docile subject. Such a discussion of an action as part of a political strategy, apparently divorced from moral or class considerations, is relatively rare in late Roman historiography, and even if a certain hostility towards Leo lay behind the criticisms, nevertheless they are temperate, plausible, and a useful contribution by the historian.

Since by the time Photius wrote and the *Excerpta* were made the part of Malchus' History which dealt with the period before 473/4 had been lost, it is impossible to tell with certainty how important a role Leo played. But if, as seems likely, Photius' version represented the beginning of the fully expanded text, then his role was probably limited as introductory to the reign of Zeno. Nevertheless, Malchus expressed strong and direct opinions upon this Emperor, describing him as a "lodging-place of all vices" (*Fr.* 2a) and specifically accusing him of anger and savagery (*Fr.* 9) and of a greed for wealth which led him to use informers to ruin individuals and whole cities, with the result that they could not pay the regular taxes (*Fr.* 2a). Against these vices (if the first sentence of *Fr.* 2a is from Malchus) are set his great success and his fearsomeness to most people, which is treated as a virtue.[38] In

contrast, however, the first two fragments appear to portray Leo as ineffectual, for in Malchus' view he handled the Arab Amorkesos in such a way as to make him likely to be unruly (*Fr.* 1) and, having rejected the demands of Theoderic Strabo, when the latter attacked the Thracian cities, Leo first failed to resist and then acceded to the same demands (*Fr.* 2). Perhaps this ineffectiveness was related by Malchus to the disease which afflicted the Emperor in the same year;[39] but in the case of Amorkesos there might also have been the desire to contrast Leo's weakness with the success of Anastasius who brought the island of Jotaba back under Roman control around 498.[40] As a general explanation for Malchus' hostility to Leo, Bury suggested that he hated the religious bigotry of the Emperor, who was Orthodox and faithfully followed the tenets of Chalcedon.[41] But there is no evidence at all for this, and it is far more likely that the hostility arose from Leo's introduction of Isaurians into positions of power in the state to counterbalance Aspar and his Germans, an action which led to the reign of the detested Emperor Zeno.[42]

The reign of Zeno, which dominates the History as it survives, is comprehensively condemned by Malchus. In the probably Malchan part of *Fragment* 9 the Emperor is described as less cruel and inexorable than Leo, but with an ambition for the appearance of glory as distinct from the reality, lacking the skill or the intelligence to govern, and although not as relentlessly greedy as Leo, permitting his officials, and especially the praetorian prefect Sebastian, to traffic in public offices at will. Some of these traits appear in the fragments from the *Excerpta*. For instance, in *Fragment* 16 it is remarked that army officers sold leave to the troops, *Fragment* 12 claims that during Zeno's reign the price of the post of governor of Egypt rose from 50 to 500 lbs. of gold, while in *Fragment* 6, a *Suda* article probably from Malchus, it is said that the prefect Erythrius was the only uncorrupt high official in the state and that he resigned his post in despair.[43] Again, the speciousness of Zeno's behaviour is suggested both in the sixteenth fragment, where Zeno, having offered to lead the troops in person against Theoderic the son of Theodemir, is said to have changed his mind out of cowardice, and in *Fragment* 11, where the Emperor's sparing of the traitors Anthimius, Marcellinus, and Stephanus is described as for the sake of appearance. However, the general impression of Zeno which arises from the passages of the *Excerpta*, and which complements rather than confirms the characterisation in the ninth fragment, is of a cowardly and weak ruler, whose vacillations in policy made him an unreliable ally or party to negotiations. In addition to the direct charge of personal cowardice

levelled in *Fragment* 16, in the third fragment Zeno's desire to reach a settlement with Gaiseric, who was raiding the coast of Illyricum, is attributed to his unwarlike nature, and in *Fragment* 13 it is implied that later he should not have agreed to a treaty with Huneric, Gaiseric's successor, since at that time the strength of the Vandals had declined drastically. The vacillations of Zeno are best illustrated by his dealings with the two Theoderics. His switching of support from one to the other is not treated by Malchus as part of the traditional Roman policy of playing off the barbarians against each other, but as evidence of indecision and treachery. Zeno's failure to send the help which he had promised to Theoderic the son of Theodemir brought the latter into difficulties and forced him to come to terms with Strabo. In the interview between the two Ostrogothic leaders (*Fr.* 15) the treachery of the Romans is stated directly by Strabo, and in the following fragment the son of Theodemir makes the same charge to Zeno in person. In the long *Fragment* 18 the son of Theodemir is given a speech (p.128) reiterating the charge of treachery in detail, with which Malchus says he sympathises and which the Roman envoy Adamantius fails to counter adequately; and at the end of the fragment (p.130) the historian seems to show some distaste at the decision by Zeno to break off negotiations with the son of Theodemir after the success of Sabinianus' surprise attack upon the main Ostrogothic force. The overall impression that emerges, however, is not of wilful and coherent acts of treachery for a specific purpose, but of inconsistency born of weakness. For in the same fragment (p.125) the citizens of Thessalonika revolt out of suspicion that Zeno deceitfully intended to hand over their city to the enemy, and later (p.126) the Goth Sidimund is able to persuade the people of Epidamnus to abandon their city by spreading the apparently plausible tale that Zeno was co-operating with the son of Theodemir and wished him to take the city.

Zeno, whose original name is said to have been Tarasicodissa of Rusumblada, was an Isaurian chieftain whom Leo brought to Constantinople around 466 and married to his daughter Ariadne. Leo's purpose in this was to use Zeno's Isaurians in his struggle to break the power of Aspar and the German faction in the state. After the murder of Aspar and Ardabur in 471 the power of the Germans was replaced by that of the Isaurians who, being a people comparatively untouched by Hellenism and for centuries predators upon the communities neighbouring their land, were thoroughly hated by those over whom they now held ascendency. Zeno's succession to the throne was contrived through the coronation of his infant son Leo II, who, after the death of

Leo I, crowned his father. But the new Emperor always remained highly unpopular at Constantinople, and it was this unpopularity which made possible the temporary usurpation of Basiliscus. After the flight of Zeno from the capital, although Basiliscus was supported by the Isaurian generals Illus and Trocundes, the populace expressed its feelings by the massacre of those Isaurians whom it could find. After the return of Zeno, facilitated by Basiliscus' religious policy in support of Monophysitism and his unpopular actions to raise money,[44] the people of Constantinople retained their hostility towards the Isaurians, and the first important act of Zeno's successor, Anastasius, was to expel all of them from the capital, after which he broke their power in a civil war. As a Constantinopolitan Malchus, although he seems to have had some admiration for Illus,[45] shared this anti-Isaurian feeling, which was probably compounded by the failure of Zeno to provide security for the environs of the capital against the raids of the Ostrogoths. Malchus' bias against Zeno can be most clearly seen in his rather simplistic translation of the Emperor's preference for negotiation into a charge of cowardice. Although other eastern sources make this charge also,[46] the western Anonymus Valesianus (9,39) says that Zeno was experienced in war, and it is hard to believe that, if he were such a coward as the eastern writers suggest, he would have held his position as chief amongst the warlike Isaurians, or that Leo would have used him against Aspar. Indeed, some of the 'cowardly' actions alleged by Malchus can be explained otherwise. For instance, the Vandal raids on Illyricum had to be stopped, yet Zeno could hardly have mounted an expedition against them so soon after the massive failure of Basiliscus in 468 and while the Ostrogoths were active in Thrace.[47] As it was, the peace with Gaiseric in 475 not only stopped the raids, but also brought some relief to the Orthodox Christians of Africa.[48] Later, Huneric's desire for friendship with Constantinople sprang not so much from military weakness as from his preoccupation with Moorish revolts and his vigorous persecution of Orthodox Christians.[49] Again, Zeno's decision not to march out against Theoderic Strabo but to seek terms might have been caused either by distrust of Illus, whom he did not wish to leave in charge of the capital, or by damage done to Constantinople by an earthquake, which made it hard to defend.[50]

The almost total loss of Malchus' account of the internal history of the period makes it impossible to detail the treatment of other important Byzantines, except to conclude that, if Photius' summary can be trusted, Leo's wife, the Empress Verina, was presented as a sinister and powerful figure during Zeno's reign until her death in

484. In contrast, enough material survives on the two Theoderics to give an indication of Malchus' attitude towards them and their Ostrogoths. This was quite different both from the unrelenting hostility towards the northern barbarians evinced by Ammianus and Eunapius and from the mixture of dislike and curiosity in Priscus. By the time when Malchus was writing the Ostrogoths had been established on Roman soil for a while, and there had developed a certain acquiescence in, if not acceptance of, their presence. Moreover, the Romans' recent experience with the Isaurians may have helped to temper their old antipathy towards the Germans,[51] although traces of it appear in Malchus, such as the remark that Sidimund was willing to betray Epidamnus, "thinking it better as a barbarian to live with a barbarian than with the Romans" (*Fr.* 18 p.126), and the condemnation of the ingratitude and treachery of Onulf.[52] On the other hand, there is a degree of sympathy for the Goths who murdered Heracleius because he had harshly punished some of their fellow-countrymen (*Fr.* 4), and in a number of passages the Gothic need for supplies is recognised and their desire for land within the Roman frontiers is treated as legitimate.[53] Furthermore, the leaders of the two Gothic groups, the two Theoderics, are presented as competitors for power which they wished to be institutionalised within the Roman state by the bestowal of the mastership of the soldiers, which Zeno strove to deny them. Strabo is presented as an aspirant for the position of Aspar, to whom he was related by marriage,[54] and in the very striking *Fragment* 19 he is shown preparing to dispute with the Isaurians over the possession of Constantinople itself. Here one can feel Malchus calling a plague upon both the Isaurians and the Ostrogoths, in much the same way as later Joshua the Stylite in his *History of the Time of Affliction at Ôrhâi and Âmid and throughout all Mesopotamia* was to call a plague upon both the Romans and the Persians as they battled over Amida and Edessa. Towards Theoderic, the son of Theodemir, Malchus is rather more sympathetic. His complaints of Zeno's treachery towards him are regarded as justified, he is said to have tried to support his army with moderation as it lay by Heraclea, and he is allowed, without comment, to claim that he wished to serve the Romans as they saw fit and to live at Constantinople in the Roman manner.[55] In fact, Malchus shows not only a degree of sympathy for the Goths, but also a knowledge of happenings on their side, which suggests that he might have used Gothic sources, perhaps soldiers whom he interviewed at Constantinople.[56] Thus, he was able to report the remark of Strabo (*Fr.* 17) that Theoderic, the son of Theodemir, though called his friend by Zeno, was causing

extensive damage to Roman territory, and he had good information upon the route which the son of Theodemir took to New Epirus (*Fr.* 18 p.127).

The History of Malchus seems to have been well able to stand comparison with the best works of the late period. It appears that he had access to some good sources, at least for events in the eastern Empire, and using this information he formed some judicious judgements, which he expressed clearly and directly. His primary interest seems to have been in diplomacy and political activity in general, and he both praised political skill in Pamprepius (*Fr.* 20) and allowed Augustulus to recommend it in Odovacer (*Fr.* 10). He was also aware of aspects of policy and willing to judge them.[57] Thus, he attacked Leo on practical political grounds for his handling of Amorkesos,[58] and was aware that Zeno's motive in settling the son of Theodemir in Pataulia was to be able to use him against Strabo should the latter cause trouble, but also to have him at a disadvantage should he become restless (*Fr.* 18 p.126). Certainly, he was biased against Leo and against Zeno in particular, and in some places the bias seems to have led to a more personal judgement. Thus, the economic problems of the period were seen in moral terms, and the 'avarice' of Leo was condemned (*Fr.* 2a) with apparently no notice of his need to replenish the treasury after the expensive disaster against the Vandals in 468 and no recognition that the Emperor succeeded in restoring the finances to health. Zeno's profligacy and failure to control corruption amongst his officials were more censurable because as a result the treasury was reduced to such a low level that in 477 the state could not afford to pay a subsidy to both Theoderics, as the senate told the Emperor (*Fr.* 11). Personal factors appear also in *Fragment* 3, where Gaiseric's willingness to make peace with the Romans is derived not from political considerations, but from admiration for the virtues of the ambassador Severus, and in *Fragment* 10, where Zeno is said to have favoured Nepos against Odovacer (which effectively he did not) for personal reasons. On the other hand, even when moralising and personal considerations are brought to the fore, the analysis does not usually become simplistic. Even though he represented Zeno's policy towards the two Theoderics as one of vacillation and weakness, Malchus was quite aware of the Emperor's attempts to play off the two Ostrogothic leaders, and he allowed Strabo to state it directly (*Fr.* 15).

The eighteenth fragment suggests that Malchus was also a skilful writer of narrative, capable of producing a clear, concise and well-organised account, based upon good sources.[59] The progress of the

Goths of Theoderic the son of Theodemir is charted to Epidamnus via Heraclea, the defences on the Scardus mountains, Lychidnus, and Scampia, and careful note is made of the order of march, the narrowness of the roads, and the difficulties overcome or bypassed at each stage of the journey (p.127). The description of the attack by Sabinianus upon part of the Gothic forces is concise, uncoloured, and sets out the essentials (p.130). Sabinianus disposes his infantry and cavalry and moves to attack in the morning. Theodimund, the brother of the son of Theodemir, who was commanding the Goths, retreats to level ground and flees with his mother, covering their escape by breaking a bridge which they had crossed. Some of the Goths are trapped on the wrong side and, after fighting bravely, are overcome by the Romans. The description is closed by the number of men and wagons captured. Certainly, as with the eighth fragment of Priscus, it is dangerous to generalise too freely from the only substantial passage available. But in this case generalisation finds support in the judgement of Photius that the History was a model of the historical genre (*καὶ ὅλως κανών ἐστιν ἱστορικοῦ λόγου*), which suggests that its loss is to be deplored both as an invaluable source and as a superior work of historiography.

CHAPTER 5

CLASSICISING HISTORY IN THE FIFTH CENTURY AD

The titles which Eunapius, Olympiodorus, Priscus and Malchus gave to their histories are not known to us for certain. Most of the references which we have from themselves, from Photius, and from the *Excerpta* seem to be descriptions. Similarly there is no evidence that they, or other comparable historians like Ammianus and Procopius, ever had a name for the type of history which they wrote. Nevertheless, modern scholars have at times thought of these works as forming a genre, to which the name 'secular historiography' has been attached.[1] Some have gone further and, projecting back into the fifth century the practice of the successors of Procopius, each of whom knew and continued his predecessor,[2] have treated the fifth-century historians as a 'school', each continuing the work that went before, and have postulated dates for the beginnings and endings of these histories which fit with their preconceptions. That there was a continuity from work to work is, however, highly unlikely. Eunapius' History seems to have ended at 404, Olympiodorus appears to have begun his full-scale narrative at 407. He ended at 425, and Priscus probably began at 434, ending at 472 or 474. Malchus' work as we have it begins at 473, but what we have is only a part of the original. Furthermore, none of the historians mentions the work of any of the others (not strong evidence in view of the fragmentary nature of the texts), and there is no other indication of any such knowledge, though in some cases there must be a strong presumption of it.[3]

Whatever the beginning and ending dates of our histories were, the reconstruction of the works which has been attempted in this study, if it is at all accurate, serves to emphasise the diversity both of their character and of their aims.[4] The first of the histories, that of Eunapius, was written with a religious preoccupation, hatred for the Christian Emperors and their gradual destruction of paganism. The work, despite the brief interlude of the hero-apostate Julian, is one of great pessimism, a catalogue of the disasters suffered by a declining, Christianised Roman Empire. The attack upon those held responsible for this ruin is couched almost entirely in moral terms and delivered in a rhetorical and rather hysterical style, which gives to the History a strongly biographical and anti-chronological orientation. While Eunapius' work, partly as a result of the rejection of chronology, was rather loosely structured, the History of Olympiodorus, with its topical

organisation, repetitions, and unintegrated digressions was even more so. While the motivation of the writer was just as personal as that of Eunapius, if less rancorous, the looseness of the work, with its uneven style, its self-indulgence, and perhaps a touch of 'Egyptian' eccentricity, rendered it even more idiosyncratic. It was not a true history, as the writer himself declared, but rather "material for history", or, as I have suggested, a personal commentary upon events (*ὑπόμνημα*), which proved to be a highly effective vehicle for Olympiodorus' deeply-felt argument that the western Roman Empire, in order to survive, must achieve a *modus vivendi* with the Visigoths.

Eunapius' History was pan-Imperial, while Olympiodorus wrote only on the West.[5] With Priscus we see the beginning of truly Byzantine history, in that his interest was primarily the eastern Empire, western events being dealt with sporadically and from an eastern point of view. More orthodox in form than its predecessors, Priscus' work, while treating the internal dissensions that troubled the state during the period, concentrated very heavily upon external relations, especially those involving Attila and to a lesser extent the Vandals, the Ostrogoths, and the tribes of north-east Asia Minor. From what survives of the History of Malchus, it appears that it was in form even more orthodox than that of Priscus, having a straightforward annalistic structure, and its range of interest was even more limited. For, being essentially an attack upon Zeno and the Isaurian regime, it reflected the preoccupations of Constantinople with events in the city itself, in the Balkans, and in Asia Minor.

The term 'secular historiography' is intended to point to a sharp distinction between this type of writing and ecclesiastical history, which was a concomitant of the Christianisation of the Roman Empire. Of course, until Eusebius wrote his *History of the Church* all history was secular, because the pagan tradition did not treat religious history as a separate category.[6] The clear statement of Eunapius (*Fr.* 1 p.13) that, in continuing the late third-century historian Dexippus, he was filling a gap which had stretched to his day, and the decision of Ammianus (31,16,9) to begin where Tacitus had ended, suggest that these writers were consciously reviving the form. Momigliano clearly implies that this revival came from an anti-Christian impulse, when he contends that pagan Greek historical writing did not revive until after the death of Theodosius I in 395 and that it resulted from a new pagan aggressiveness in blaming Christianity for the current ills of the Roman state.[7] His close linking of the revival with the pagan reaction after the death of Theodosius is not convincing, since both Eunapius and

Ammianus seem to have published a large part of their work before that date.[8] But the revival itself does seem to have had a basis in hostility to, or at least the rejection of, Christianity. In the case of Eunapius this is very clear from the attacks upon Christians and Christian institutions that survive in the second edition of his History and from the statement of Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 77 I p,159) that there were many more of these in the first.[9] Ammianus, in contrast, preferred to ignore things Christian as much as possible, and, when he did choose to mention them, treated them in a balanced manner, with a few barbs at what he regarded as anti-social behaviour on the part of Christians;[10] certainly in his History, unlike Eunapius, he does not blame them generally for the woes of the Roman state. This ignoring of Christianity, which perhaps arose in Ammianus from the same combination of hostility and discretion that motivated Symmachus,[11] gave at least a greater appearance of genuine secularism than Eunapius achieved and remained the basic approach of the so-called 'secular' historians through to Agathias.

However, the anti-Christian impulse behind the form of historical writing which Ammianus and Eunapius revived should not be overemphasised. Eunapius' shrill hatred was not echoed by any of his successors, and even in the clearly pagan Olympiodorus the religious element, though significant, was not paramount. Certainly, Priscus and Malchus, like Ammianus, generally excluded religious material from their works. But, as the Camerons have pointed out, that was the result of stylistic rather than religious factors.[12] In neither historian is there any evidence of hostility to Christianity, and it is quite likely that Malchus himself was a Christian. Indeed, of the historians who followed Malchus, Procopius and Agathias might have been Christian,[13] Menander and Theophylact certainly were, and in their works there was an increasing amount of Christian material, until Theophylact wrote what was really a Christian 'secular history'. The religious battle on the historiographical front was not carried on for the pagans by those who followed Eunapius in writing so-called 'secular history'. Furthermore, the ecclesiastical historians after Eusebius were not primarily concerned with pagans. Their targets were the schismatic groups within Christianity itself, and it was left to writers such as Sulpicius Severus and, most importantly, Paulus Orosius to continue the waning battle against paganism. The *Adversus Paganos* of Orosius was written, as he says in the preface, to answer the pagan charge that the disasters afflicting the Roman world were the result of the neglect of the pagan idols and their replacement by the worship of the Christian God. To this end he proposed, at the behest of St. Augustine and as a sort of appendix to the *City of God*, to

set forth briefly all the disasters suffered by the pagan past (*Adv. Pag.* 1, *prol.* 10). This statement of purpose was soon left behind, and the work became a systematic explanation of all history in the light of Orthodox Christian ideology, which, despite the catalogue of disasters suffered in pagan times (that earned for the work the mediaeval title of *Miseriae Mundi*), rendered the overall interpretation of events optimistic and made the present disasters at least understandable.[14] Against such as Orosius for the pagans there was only Zosimus, who, turning upside-down the Christian view of history as a slow struggle back to Grace after the Fall of man, undertook to account for what he saw as the ruin of the state.[15] His explanation is simple and traditional: the neglect of the worship of the pagan gods and the innovations brought in by the Christian Emperors have undermined the strength of the Roman Empire. His History, boldly called *New History*, is little more than a series of passages culled and condensed from earlier writers and interspersed with complaints about innovation, decline, and abandonment of the ceremonies. Compared with the *Adversus Paganos* it is incoherent as an explanation of history, which might have been partly the result of Zosimus' own incompetence but more importantly reflects the failure of pagan historiography to develop a system of historical explanation that could meet the teleological world-view of the Christians. Ultimately, all Zosimus, like Eunapius, could do was to bemoan the passing of the old ways.

Zosimus and particularly Orosius were historians of a rather different cast from the writers who are the object of this study. Nevertheless, however one might judge their competence, they were historians, and the recollection of that, as well as of the ideological conflict which they waged through their histories, serves to remind us that Eunapius, Olympiodorus, Priscus and Malchus wrote their works in an age when many different types of histories were being produced. Certainly, we might identify a rather 'pure' kind of ecclesiastical history, such as that of Theodoret, in which references to secular events were kept to a minimum, and a similarly 'pure' kind of secular history, which on the whole eschewed mention of things Christian. However, when one turns from the extremes, one finds various works which it is difficult to categorise. Olympiodorus' History is the obvious example. But what of Eustathius' *Universal History*, or the work of Candidus the Isaurian? What, perhaps even more interestingly, of Olympiodorus' younger contemporary, Philostorgius, who, while writing ecclesiastical history, seems to have broken quite free from the usual constraints of the type?[16] The point here is that in such a time of change as was the fifth century we should hardly expect our 'secular' historians to produce works which were closely comparable

in form, purpose, and attitude.

So far the differences between the four works under discussion have been emphasised. Nevertheless, they and other histories, from that of Ammianus to that of Theophylact, do draw upon a range of common stylistic and historiographical characteristics which give them a certain homogeneity. First, even when an earlier period was covered by an introductory epitome, which was the practice of Eunapius and Malchus, the core of the work was contemporary or near-contemporary events, which were treated on a large scale. Furthermore, great importance was placed upon non-documentary, first-hand sources, preferably highly placed; and if the historian himself had taken part in some of the events, so much the better. Olympiodorus, Priscus and Malchus seem to have met these prescriptions to a degree, and although Eunapius could not, he obscured the fact by appeal to his sophistic sources. The tradition was, of course, the one articulated by Polybius, of an historian active in public life and thus able to render informed and experienced judgements;[17] and, certainly, after Livy most of the imperial historians seem to have fulfilled this requirement, either as senators, like Tacitus and Dio, as bureaucrats, like Herodian, as soldiers, like Velleius, or in a combination of these activities, like Dexippus.

The most obvious characteristic, however, of our historians (and one which suggests that if a general term is to be applied to their works, it should be not 'secular', but 'classicising' history) is that they all clearly and continually emphasised their links with classical antiquity. Various means were used. *Exempla* brought famous figures of history and myth into the text for purposes of comparison or contrast; references to and quotations from the poets and playwrights pointed up the delivery of judgements and opinions; and, most importantly, imitation of many elements of language and historiographical style, especially of Herodotus and Thucydides, placed the late works firmly within the great tradition of historical writing. Unfortunately, in the fragmentary writers the debt is impossible to trace in full, and in the case of the historians the banal imitations by Eunapius and Priscus may not have been typical.[18] Certainly, in those histories which survive more fully, and especially in that of Ammianus, the use of antiquity, in its various forms, is intrinsic to the formulation and expression of the analysis of contemporary events, just as the language, albeit rather artificially built upon ancient models, is an adequate vehicle of description and narrative.[19] In other respects, too, for example in the use of speeches and digressions, the influence of the classical historians was highly important. Furthermore, the avoidance of 'inappropriate' elements,

such as numbers, topographical and other detail, and modern technical terminology, is all part of a desire to write in the grand manner as defined by classical practices.

The concept of 'appropriateness' for history in the grand manner also carried a social connotation, for, as Ammianus declares (28,1,15), *non omnia narratu sunt digna, quae per squalidas transiere personas*; and the *squalidae personae*, who are here perhaps equivalent to the category which the law termed *humiliores*, constituted the broad mass of the population of the Empire, the lower class. This in turn points to the real impulse which led the successors of Eunapius and Ammianus to produce classicising histories in the grand manner. For, even if there was an element of pagan reaction to the revival of the form, its continuation was the work of a particular group, whose common characteristic was an education in the traditional, classical manner, which engendered an attitude of superiority and a degree of social cohesiveness and conservatism.[20] Within this context the continuous classical references, even as they played a role intrinsic to the history, also offered a guarantee that the writer was of the appropriate background. The pull of this background was so strong that when even Eunapius, in dealing with the Christian sophist Prohaeresius, was forced to choose between his loathing of Christianity and his loyalty to his teacher within the sophistic tradition, he chose the latter and refused to speak ill of his teacher. One outcome of this loyalty to the classical education was that, even when the majority of the educated elite had become Christian, as it surely had in the East by the early decades of the fifth century, it still wished to read 'pagan' history in the classical manner.

Writing within a social and educational context that was still of great importance in the late Empire, Eunapius, Olympiodorus, Priscus and Malchus were far from being mere antiquarians. Their general concerns were those of the group from which they came and whose views they represented. Certainly, there is a strong strain of pessimism and alienation from the central government in their writings. But the former reflects a feeling that seems to have been widespread in the fifth century and that was quite to be expected in the light of repeated government failures against the barbarians in western Europe, Africa, and the Balkans;[21] while the latter resulted from policies of the government which were unpopular with the group that the historians spoke for. This group was not only traditionally educated but also landowning on a moderate or large scale, and it is noteworthy in the historians how often economic problems are remarked, especially the heavy taxation necessitated by the cost of the wars and the widespread ruin of the

landowners caused by the fighting.[22] Landowners were also concerned for secure borders and internal stability, recurring themes in the historians. In addition to these concerns one can see the hostility towards persons representing other groups who successfully competed for influence with the Emperors: the barbarian generals, for instance, and the eunuch chamberlains, and the monks.[23] But when this has been said, with the possible exception of Eunapius,[24] our historians accepted the form of government under which they lived. Olympiodorus, in making the coronation of Valentinian III the climax of his History, clearly had hopes for his regime; Priscus had high praise for Marcian, who was more friendly to the senatorial landowners than Theodosius II had been; and Malchus implicitly favoured the anti-Isaurian Anastasius. Thus, when the over-emphasis upon their paganism has been reduced to its proper level, it appears that they were 'opposition' historians only in the limited sense that they opposed some Emperors and some of their policies, and that they were pessimistic about the current circumstances of the state, a pessimism that was widespread amongst pagans and Christians alike.

The historians voiced the general preoccupations of the group for which they spoke. But because they were concerned with important contemporary issues, they also mirrored certain attitudes as they changed through the fifth century. A number of these have already been discussed, all of them connected with views upon the external relations of the Roman state, which seem to have attracted more attention from the historians as the fifth century progressed. Most obviously and importantly, attitudes changed towards the barbarians, especially those who were attacking the northern borders of the Empire. Writing at the end of the fourth century and the beginning of the fifth, both Eunapius and Ammianus held the traditional Roman attitude, that the Germans and the other barbarians were uncivilised, 'bestial' savages, bent solely upon looting, destruction and murder, who had to be driven from imperial territory and intimidated by force of Roman arms. Olympiodorus, writing thirty or forty years later, took a different position. By now the old view of 'fortress Rome' with firm and fixed borders to be defended at all costs against the onrushing hordes had had to be abandoned. To Olympiodorus the Visigoths were humans with potential for civilisation, and, since they were clearly on Roman territory to stay, an accommodation must be reached with them. At the time this was probably still very much a minority view, which the ravages of the Vandals and the intransigence and savagery of Attila would have done little to recommend. Thus, Priscus, writing

perhaps at the end of the 470s, reflects a certain hardening of opinion. But Malchus, who produced his History right at the end of the fifth century, treated the current situation with a more appropriate realism: the border at the Danube was long gone, the Ostrogoths were on Roman territory to stay; their demands for land are regarded as reasonable, and their leaders seem to be accepted as participants in the political process of the East.[25]

This change in attitude and circumstances is paralleled by two further developments which can also be seen in the histories. First, as the Romans became less able simply to fight off all the barbarians, they turned more to a combination of military action and negotiation; and this is reflected in the historians' growing interest in diplomacy and a somewhat superficial treatment of the fighting. Second, the recession of the West, with the exception of Italy and Africa, from the knowledge and interest of the East is mirrored in the four works under study: while Eunapius was concerned for the whole Empire and Olympiodorus wrote solely on the West, Priscus concentrated largely, and Malchus exclusively, on the East.

The Histories of Eunapius, Olympiodorus, Priscus and Malchus emerged from a uniform background, one that was elitist, conservative, classicising, and greatly concerned with the major political issues of the day. They must have been important documents for an important group within the eastern Empire.[26] Why then, to put Bury's question, "did all these works disappear?"[27] In one respect the question is of little significance. Many other ancient works, which were clearly of contemporary importance, and would probably have been of lasting value, have disappeared. Often chance played the key role in that.[28] Moreover, as Bury himself remarked, they did survive until the ninth or tenth centuries, to be read by Photius and the compilers of the *Excerpta*. Bury offered two answers to his question: first, the historians were pagans; and second, much of what they wrote about was of little interest to readers in the ninth and following centuries, and what was of interest, the wars in the Illyrian peninsula, was preserved in the *Excerpta*. The first answer, however, is only relevant to Eunapius, since, if my analysis is correct, the other historians were either not pagans or, if they were, their paganism was of little importance in their histories.[29] As for the second, it is weak and rather unhelpful, since the same comment would be relevant to the sixth-century historians, especially Procopius and Agathias, who have survived. The question, indeed, is not open to a satisfactory answer. But three points can be made, which together might help further to illustrate the position of the fifth-century

histories within the milieu in which they were produced. They were written for a small, if wealthy and still-powerful group, so that, as Bury noted, they probably never had a wide circulation and never existed in many copies. Secondly, unlike works directly on Christian subjects, which the Church was concerned to preserve and multiply, they did not appeal to a special-interest group which would and could strive over many centuries to ensure their survival. Finally, as is clear from later notices upon the histories and the quarrying of them by excerptors, chroniclers, and church historians, even though they were works of limited circulation, they were esteemed as important and authoritative sources. Thus, in that they were supplanted by more superficial but more accessible and popular works, they may well have been victims of their own success.

PART II

THE FRAGMENTS

EUNAPIUS, HISTORY AFTER DEXIPPUS

The Sources of the Fragments

1. The *Excerpta de Sententiis* and the *Excerpta de Legationibus*, compiled during the reign of the Emperor Constantine VII Porphyrogenitus (913-59), preserve well over three-quarters of the material printed in the collections of Eunapius' fragments, and to this the *Exc. de Sent.* contribute by far the most.[1] As their title suggests, the *Exc. de Sent.* are a collection of passages of a markedly anecdotal and moralising nature, and, as a result, the bulk of the Eunapian material is of this kind, far different from the fragments of Priscus and Malchus, which, being wholly preserved in the *Exc. de Legat.*, have a primarily politico-military orientation. This raises the question to what extent our view of the nature of the History and our estimate of its value are distorted by the selection that survives. A firm answer is not possible, but the earlier discussion of the History, especially on pp.11 and 13-14, suggests that the preponderance of sententious fragments, as well as the paucity of material in the *Exc. de Legat.*, reflect reasonably accurately the state of the original. The nature of the fragments causes another difficulty which is that, whereas the mostly narrative material preserved in the *Exc. de Legat.* can usually be dated fairly closely, the mostly anecdotal and moralising material from the *Exc. de Sent.* often cannot be attached firmly to an event, individual, or even period.

2. The *Suda* preserves over fifty passages derived from Eunapius by name, occasionally wrongly.[2] Many more have been ascribed to Eunapius by editors and commentators on the basis of verbal parallels with named fragments or passages from the *Excerpta*, parallels with other putative users of Eunapius (especially Zosimus), or upon the grounds, at times weak, of probability or possibility. Occasionally wrong ascriptions have been made, and where this is clearly so, these passages have been excluded from the conspectus.[3] Since most of the articles are short and many do not make specific reference to people or events, their place in the order of the fragments is often very doubtful or impossible to ascertain. Some, but not all, of these are remarked in the notes.

3. The relationship between Zosimus and Eunapius has recently been the subject of considerable discussion. All agree that the former made considerable use of the latter for the relevant period (270-404),

but two sides have emerged in the debate, those who accept the statement of Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 98) that Zosimus was little more than an epitomiser of Eunapius,[4] and those who point to material differences and differences of viewpoint between the two.[5] Unfortunately, the researchers of the latter side have not thrown up a method for clearly identifying Eunapian and non-Eunapian material in Zosimus. The position taken in the conspectus is that the statement of Photius is not reliable, that Zosimus made little, if any, use of Eunapius in the relevant part of his first book (from 1,47 or 48),[6] and that, although for the relevant part of the rest of his History (up to 5,25) Eunapius was his major source, Zosimus did make some additions and transpositions. As a result, although most of the relevant part of Zosimus' History has been included unbracketed (the first book excepted) in the conspectus and has been used to provide the framework which cannot be drawn from the *Excerpta*-fragments, in the chapter on Eunapius it has been used conservatively.

4. That Peter the Patrician made use of Eunapius is clear from his *Fr.* 18, on Julian's dealings with the Chamavi in 358, which condenses material from Eunapius *Fr.* 12, while retaining verbal similarities. *Fr.* 18 is the last fragment from Peter, and since none of the other relevant fragments (13 - 17) shows any similarity with Eunapius or Zosimus, perhaps he merely used the larger-scale part of Eunapius for the early career of Julian.

5. Opitz has pointed to a number of passages in the *Epitome de Caesaribus* which parallel the account of Zosimus,[7] some of which are so close in language that they are clearly related, while some are more doubtful, even showing minor differences. On the assumption that Zosimus faithfully followed Eunapius, the material in the *Epitome* can either be derived from the latter, or, since all of the strong parallels are with Eunapius' first book which dealt with non-contemporary events, from a common written source. In the conspectus the strong parallels have been included, the weaker ones omitted.[8]

6. John of Antioch, who made direct use of Zosimus, Socrates, and perhaps Ammianus, appears to have drawn some material directly from Eunapius, but by no means enough to justify the view of A.D.E. Cameron that for the reigns of Theodosius I and Arcadius he merely plagiarised Eunapius.[9] In fact, for these reigns he made the greatest use of Socrates and drew other material from an unknown source.[10] The

evidence for large-scale use of Eunapius is equivocal. *Fr.* 181 could be Eunapian if the *Suda* article I 401 is also Eunapian, but that is not clear. *Frr.* 187 and 190, which show differences from and similarities with Zosimus, might be Eunapian. The only clearly derived passage is *Fr.* 188, which parallels the named *Suda* article P 240.[11]

7. Philostorgius appears to have known Eunapius, from whom, according to Jeep, he took much of his secular material.[12] Jeep rests his case on three assumptions: i) that Eunapius used Ammianus, which is undemonstrated (see above pp.24ff.); ii) that Zosimus used Eunapius, which is certain, although the extent of the debt is debated; iii) that Zonaras, who also used Philostorgius directly, drew upon Eunapian material (perhaps via Peter the Patrician), which is unproven (see below §10) and, even if it were provable, would be of little help since, although it is certain that Zonaras used Peter, the extent of Peter's debt, as has been pointed out above (§4), is uncertain. In fact, there is no regular pattern of parallels between Philostorgius and his sources. Some material from Ammianus appears, perhaps coming directly; in places Philostorgius is close to Zosimus, but there are differences also; in places he is closer to Socrates or Zonaras; and in places he differs from them all. In the light of this, Mendelssohn and Bidez were wise to take a more limited view of the debt.[13] Bidez thought that Philostorgius (2,14) knew Eunapius' account of the conversion of Constantine,[14] though here the debt of Sozomen to Eunapius is clearer (see below §8). At 3,1 Philostorgius gives the same wrong version of the death of Constantine II as Zosimus (2,41). At 7,15 he gives a medically detailed account of Julian's death and notes that Oribasius, whom he calls "the best of doctors" and who was a source for Eunapius, attended the dying Emperor. This suggests that Philostorgius' version, even though it is at variance with that of Zosimus, came from the History of Eunapius, who himself had a medical background. Finally, 11,2, which remarks the immoderate pleasures of Theodosius I, also seems Eunapian in tone.

8. Sozomen appears to have known Eunapius, although again the extent of the debt is in doubt.[15] There are some slight verbal similarities with Zosimus[16] as well as many great differences. Scavone, pointing to the similarities, has suggested, not wholly convincingly, that Zosimus was attacking Sozomen's version of some events.[17] Indeed, it is possible, at least in his discussion of the conversion of Constantine I (1,5), where he refutes a version which he ascribes to Ἕλληνες and

which is found in Zosimus (2,29), that Sozomen is attacking Eunapius. For in his description of the version to which he is hostile he gives a role to Sopater, whom Eunapius in his *Lives of the Sophists* (6,2,1-12) makes prominent during part of Constantine's reign.

9. The case of Socrates is even less clear. Jeep, with the same combination of undemonstrated premises and impressionism that he applied to Philostorgius, argued for definite contacts with Eunapius.[18] Cameron declares that Socrates "presumably" drew on Eunapius.[19] There are a few verbal parallels with Zosimus,[20] but in many of the passages adduced by Jeep there are marked differences. For instance, in the versions of the deposition of Veteranio by Zosimus and Socrates, which Jeep holds to have come (with that of Philostorgius) from Eunapius, there are marked differences in detail; agreement is only in the broadest outlines, which one would expect of an affair which was well-publicised as remarkable.[21] Again, Socrates (7,1) makes Alaric prominent in Theodosius' war against Eugenius, whereas Zosimus (4,57) and John of Antioch (*Fr.* 187) do not mention him. Finally, Socrates differs in his accounts of the deaths of Gratian, Maximus, Andragathius and Eutropius. As a result of such considerations Geppert denied any relationship between Socrates and Eunapius.[22] This goes too far; and it is, indeed, quite likely that Socrates, and other ecclesiastical historians, would have been aware of the account of the most notorious anti-Christian historian. But an attempt to isolate derived passages seems futile.

10. Jeep also argued vigorously that Zonaras used material from Eunapius.[23] His case rests on the second and third premises of his argument on Philostorgius and the observations that the order of events in Zonaras is like that in Zosimus (though the parallels are not exact) and that much of Zonaras' material is pagan in nature. Jeep's case is weak because: i) there is no clear verbal similarity; ii) there are often differences which have to be explained away; iii) Zonaras drew indirectly upon the pagan Ammianus, from whom much of Jeep's 'Eunapian' material, especially that which seems to have come from a rather detailed source, might have been derived; iv) there are so many intermediaries between Zonaras and his original sources, that it is impossible to assign most of the material with any confidence. Mendelssohn, indeed, doubted that Zonaras used Eunapius at all.[24]

The Fragments[25]

Book I

1. Preface: continuation of Dexippus; aims and chronological methodology; orientation of the History towards Julian's reign (*Fr.* 1).

[2. Reign of Aurelian. 270-75 (Zosimus 1,47-62; *Fr.* 2 = *Suda* Σ 199).][26]

[3. Reign of Tacitus. 275-76 (Zosimus 1,63).]

[4. Florianus. Reign of Probus. 276-82 (Zosimus 1,64-71).][27]

5. Reign of Carinus. 283-85 (*Fr.* 4 = *Suda* K 391, Δ 1205, E 133, M 83, Υ 15; John of Antioch *Fr.* 162; *Suda* Π 405; [John of Antioch *Fr.* 163 = Zosimus 1,73]).[28]

[6. Digression on the Secular Games of 304 (Zosimus 2,1-7).][29]

7. Abdication of Diocletian. Usurpation of Constantine I. Deaths of Severus II, Maximian, Galerius. Usurpation and death of Maxentius. Death of Daia. 305-13 (Zosimus 2, 8-17; *Epit. de Caes.* 40,20; [41,2]).

8. Constantine and Licinius. 313-24 (Zosimus 2,18-28; *Epit. de Caes.* 41,4).

9. Constantine sole Emperor. 324-37 (Zosimus 2,29-38; *Suda* K 2285; *Fr.* 7 = *Vit. Soph.* 6,3,8; [Philostorgius 2,4; Sozomen 1,5]).[30]

10. Sons of Constantine. Death of Constantine II. 337-40 (Zosimus 2,39-41; [Philostorgius 3,1]).

11. Constantius II and Constans. The sophist Prohaeresius. Usurpation of Magnentius and death of Constans. 340-50 (Zosimus 2,42; *Vit. Soph.* 10,1,1; *Epit. de Caes.* 41,22-23).[31]

12. Usurpation of Magnentius. Revolt of Nepotian. Defeat of Magnentius. 350-53 (Zosimus 2,43-54; [*Epit. de Caes.* 42,2]).[32]

13. Gallus created Caesar. His death. 351-54 (Zosimus 2,55; *Fr.* 7a,1).[33]

14. Julian created Caesar. Note on Constantius' jealousy. 355 (Zosimus 3,1,1 - 2,1; *Fr.* 7a,2).[34]

Book II[35]

15. Preface: praise of Julian; Oribasius asks Eunapius to write the History and supplies information (*Fr.* 8,1).

16. Julian in Gaul. Affairs in the hands of Salutius and Marcellus. Recruitment of local forces. 355-56 (*Fr.* 8,2; Zosimus 3,2,2 - 3,2; *Suda* O 719, [E 1771 = *Fr.* 8a]).

17. Battle of Strassburg. 357 (*Fr.* 9; Zosimus 3,3).[36]

Book III[37]

18. Wars with the Salii and Chamavi. The exploits of Charietto. 358 (Zosimus 3,4,1 - 8,1; *Frr.* 10-12; Petrus Patricius *Fr.* 18; [*Suda* A 2395, Γ 264]).

19. Julian and Vadomar. 359 (*Fr.* 13).[38]

20. Account of events in the East during Julian's reign as Caesar (355-59) and an account of Constantius' dealings with Julian from the massacre of the relatives of Constantine I in 337 up to the demand for troops which led to Julian's revolt (*Fr.* 14,1-4; Zosimus 3,8; *Vit. Soph.* 6,3,8; 7,1,6).[39]

21. Usurpation of Julian. 360 (*Fr.* 14,5; Zosimus 3,9,1-4; *Vit. Soph.* 7,3,8; 21,1,4-5).

22. Preparations for war. Strengthening of the Rhine defences. 360 (Zosimus 3,9,5 - 10,1).[40]

23. Invasion of Illyricum. Death of Constantius. 361 (Zosimus 3,10, 1 - 11,2; *Frr.* 14,6-7; 18,1-2).[41]

24. Julian Augustus. Embassies from the cities. 361 (Zosimus 3,11,2; *Fr.* 15).

25. Julian in Constantinople. 361-2 (Zosimus 3,11,3):

[Julian's equity in lawsuits (*Suda* I 437 = *Fr.* 16)].
The philosopher and official Tuscianus (*Vit. Soph.* 9,1,3).
Julian and the cynic Heraclius (*Fr.* 18,3).
The philosophers Maximus and Priscus (*Suda* Υ 175 = *Fr.* 19, first part).
[Execution of the son of the general Marcellus. ?362 (*Suda* Σ 63, Π 1326 = *Fr.* 17)].

26. Julian at Antioch. 362-3 (Zosimus 3,11,3-5):
The sophist Libanius (*Vit. Soph.* 16,1,9; [*Suda* Λ 486 = *Fr.* 25]).[42]

27. Invasion of Persia. 363 (Zosimus 3,12-28):[43]
Fear of Gothic attacks in Julian's absence (*Fr.* 22,1).
Incidents during the invasion (*Suda* I 311, Οι 183 = *Frr.* 20 and 21).[44]
Before Ctesiphon (*Fr.* 22,2-4; [*Suda* I 437 = *Fr.* 27; Γ 484, E 322, H 45]).[45]

28. Death of Julian. Election of Jovian. Eulogy on Julian. 363-4 (Zosimus 3,29,1 - 30,1; *Frr.* 23; 24; 26; *Vit. Soph.* 7,4,10; [Philostorgius 7,15]).

29. The march back. Death of Jovian. 364 (Zosimus 3,30,2 - 35,3; [*Suda* I 401; John of Antioch *Fr.* 181]).[46]

Book VI[47]

30. Preface on sources (*Fr.* 28).

31. Elevation of Valentinian I and Valens. 364-65 (Zosimus 3,36 - 4,1; *Fr.* 29).

32. Illness of the Emperors. Attacks upon supporters of Julian. 365 (Zosimus 4,1-2).

33. Division of the Empire. Valentinian on the Rhine. 365 (Zosimus 4,3).

34. Revolt of Procopius. 365 (Zosimus 4,4-8; *Frr.* 31; 33; 35; *Suda* X 108 = *Fr.* 32; M 1048, M 1056 = *Fr.* 34).[48]

35. The general Aelian (*Suda* Αι 179, A 2329, Σ 1316 = *Fr.* 36).[49]

36. Valentinian's war with the Alamanni. 366 (Zosimus 4,9).

37. Valens' war with the Goths. 367 (Zosimus 4,10-11; *Fr.* 37; *Suda* A 4332, Σ 982).

38. Illness of Valentinian. Elevation of Gratian. 367 (Zosimus 4,12).

39. Conspiracy of Theodorus. Persecution of pagan philosophers. 371-72 (Zosimus 4,13,3 - 15,3; *Fr.* 38; *Vit. Soph.* 7,6,4-5; [*Suda* Φ 279 = *Fr.* 39; Σ 445, Π 792, I 292 = *Fr.* 40; E 3448, I 14]).[50]

40. Harshness of Valentinian. Revolt of Firmus. Death of Valentinian. Elevation of Valentinian II. 372-75 (Zosimus 4,16-19).

41. Digression on the Huns (*Fr.* 41; *Suda* K 11; Zosimus 4,20,3).[51]

42. Flight of the Goths. Entrance into Roman territory. Their revolt. 377 (Zosimus 4,20,5 - 22,3; *Fr.* 42).

43. Musonius and Marcianus (*Frr.* 44; 45; *Vit. Soph.* 10,7,13; *Suda* M 1306, M 208, Δ 1498, E 2143).[52]

44. War with the Goths. Battle of Adrianople and death of Valens. 377-78 (Zosimus 4,22,4 - 24,2; *Frr.* 46; 47; [*Suda* I 177 = *Fr.* 47, part; E 374]).[53]

45. Elevation of Theodosius I. Defeat and settlement of the Goths. 379 (Zosimus 4,24,3 - 26,9; *Suda* Π 2351 = *Fr.* 43; Π 444 = *Fr.* 51; Σ 1019 = *Fr.* 52).[54]

46. The prodigality and untimely reforms of Theodosius. Tax-burdens (Zosimus 4,27-29; *Fr.* 48; *Suda* Σ 478, P 294, [E 2040] = *Fr.* 49).[55]

47. Enrolment of barbarian federates. Troubles in Thessaly and Macedonia. The barbarians cross to Thrace. 379-80 (Zosimus 4,30,1 - 33,2; *Fr.* 50).

48. The dissipation of Theodosius. He associates with barbarians

(Zosimus 4,33,3-4; *Frr.* 54; 55; 56).[56]

49. Fighting on the Danube. Flight of Athanaric to Constantinople. The general Promotus. 381 (Zosimus 4,34,1 - 35,1).

50. Revolt of Maximus. Death of Gratian. 383 (Zosimus 4,35,2-6; *Fr.* 57).[57]

51. Theodosius recognises Maximus. Closing of the pagan temples. 383 (Zosimus 4,37).

52. Relations with the barbarian federates. Promotus and Gerontius. 383 (Zosimus 4, 38-40).

53. Heavy taxes. Sedition at Antioch. 387 (Zosimus 4,41).

54. Maximus expels Valentinian II from Italy. Theodosius overthrows Maximus. 387-88 (Zosimus 4,42-47).

55. Disturbances in Macedonia. Indolence of Theodosius. 389 (Zosimus 4,48-50; *Fr.* 58).

56. Destruction of the Alexandrian Serapeum. 391 (*Vit. Soph.* 6,11, 1-12).[58]

57. Plots of Rufinus against Promotus, Tatianus and Proculus. 392 (Zosimus 4,51-52; *Fr.* 59).

58. Usurpation of Eugenius and death of Valentinian II. Theodosius prepares for war. 392-93 (Zosimus 4,53-55; [*Suda* A 81 = *Fr.* 53; John of Antioch *Fr.* 187]).[59]

59. Fravitta and Eriulf. 393 (Zosimus 4,56; *Fr.* 60).

60. Theodosius overthrows Eugenius. 394 (Zosimus 4,57-58; [*Suda* E 2180 = *Fr.* 61; John of Antioch *Fr.* 187]).

61. Theodosius visits Rome. His death. 395 (Zosimus 4,59; [Philostorgius 11,2]).

62. Honorius and Arcadius Emperors. Power of Rufinus and Stilicho.

Designs of Rufinus. Death of Lucianus. Marriage of Arcadius. 395 (Zosimus 5,1-3; *Fr.* 62; *Suda* P 240, Π 240, A 1562, B 30, K 269, Π 1362; John of Antioch *Fr.* 188).[60]

63. Designs of Stilicho. 395 (Zosimus 5,4).

64. Alaric in Greece. Ruin of the temples. Stilicho in Greece. Alaric settles in Epirus. Death of Rufinus. 395 (Zosimus 5,5-7; *Vit. Soph.* 7,3,2-5; 8,1,10 - 2,3; [*Suda* M 203; John of Antioch *Fr.* 190]).[61]

65. Eutropius. Ruin of Timasius and Abundantius. Death of Bargus. 396 (Zosimus 5,8-10; *Frr.* 71; 72; *Suda* E 3776, X 473 = *Fr.* 66; [X 80 = *Fr.* 67; Π 1293 = *Fr.* 69; T 597, Γ 78, Π 855 = *Fr.* 70]).[62]

66. Discussion of the historian's responsibility to the truth and the difficulty of obtaining reliable information upon western events while Eutropius was in power. A brief account of the Gildonic war. 397-98 (Zosimus 5,11-12; *Frr.* 73; 74).

67. Gainas. The fall of Eutropius. Gainas and Tribigild. Gainas abandons Constantinople. 398-99 (Zosimus 5,13,1 - 19,5; *Fr.* 75; *Suda* [Λ 268, E 3636], A 3066, Δ 1026, all = *Fr.* 76; [Σ 793 = *Fr.* 77]; Π 363 = *Fr.* 75,5; E 740, H 154, [Π 1939], all = *Fr.* 79).[63]

68. A Christian prefect of Rome (*Fr.* 78).[64]

69. Fravitta. Defeat, flight, and death of Gainas. Return of Gainas' hostages. 399-401 (Zosimus 5,19,6 - 23,2; *Suda* Φ 681 = *Fr.* 80; *Fr.* 82; [John of Antioch *Fr.* 190]).[65]

70. Feud between the Empress Eudoxia and John Chrysostom. Governmental corruption. Deposition of John and his replacement by Arsacius. Riots at Constantinople. John exiled. 401-04 (Zosimus 5,23,2 - 24,8; Photius *Bibl. cod.* 77).

71. Isaurians attack Pamphylia: Arbazacius. Court plots: Hierax and the death of Fravitta. Hierax in Pamphylia. 404 (Zosimus 5,25; *Frr.* 83; 85; 86; [*Suda* A 3752, H 657, M 1303 = *Fr.* 84]).

72. Death of Eudoxia. Attack upon official corruption in both East and West. 404 (*Frr.* 87; 88; Photius *Bibl. cod.* 77).[66]

OLYMPIODORUS, BOOKS OF HISTORY

The Sources of the Fragments

1. The summary in Photius' *Bibliotheca* (*cod.* 80, I pp.166-87) is the major source of material. Müller treats this as one fragment with forty-six sections, although usually these sections are referred to as separate fragments, a practice which is more convenient and is followed here. Much of the material in Photius, and especially in *Frr.* 2 to 10, is out of chronological order, which is not a fault of Photius, but reflects the structure of the original which, I have argued, was not annalistic but topical and rather repetitive.[1] This repetition of material and violation of a strict chronological scheme is also found in Philostorgius as summarised by Photius.

2. It is generally agreed that for the last part of *New History* from 5,26 to where it breaks off before Alaric's sack of Rome, Zosimus made almost exclusive use of Olympiodorus.[2] Occasionally it has been suggested that Zosimus used another source in a few places. Mendelssohn argued that 5,38, in which the deaths of Stilicho and Serena are ascribed to acts of impiety by them, was from Eunapius rather than Olympiodorus, because the criticism there does not jibe well with Olympiodorus' usual attitude towards Stilicho.[3] But Olympiodorus was an independent spirit and could well have censured actions of a man whom he generally admired, just as Ammianus could censure Julian. At 6,8,1 Zosimus makes Jovius, who is wrongly called Attalus' praetorian prefect, propose the mutiliation of Honorius and his exile to an island, whereas Olympiodorus (*Fr.* 13) makes Jovianus, the praetorian prefect of Honorius, propose the mutilation, which is rejected by Attalus who himself proposed banishment. There is no problem here with the names Jovius/Jovianus, since the MSS of Photius vary between the two, and the only real difficulty is the identification of Jovius as Attalus' praetorian prefect, which is a simple error of Zosimus, who in 6,7,1 had named Lampadius in the post. Demougeot, in order to account for the series of repetitions especially in the sixth book of the *New History*, suggested that in places Zosimus had recourse to chronicles.[4] But this is unnecessary if it is accepted that Olympiodorus' own History was very repetitive. In short, it seems that Olympiodorus was Zosimus' sole source for the last part of the *New History* and that in this part of the text, which was left unrevised, Zosimus' main contribution was to attempt to give some clarity and chronological order to

a very confused narrative.

3. It is clear that in the relevant passages of his *Ecclesiastical History* Sozomen made use of the same source as Zosimus used for the last part of his *New History*, and comparison with the fragments of Olympiodorus suggests that Sozomen used him thereafter. On the other hand, some factual differences indicate that a second source was also used.[5]

4. Philostorgius probably made use of Olympiodorus.[6] At *HE* 12,1, speaking of Olympius, the murderer of Stilicho, he gives an alternative version in which Olympius is called Olympiodorus. The alternative version is that of Olympiodorus *Fr.* 2 and Zosimus 5,35,1, so that the appearance of the name Olympiodorus in Philostorgius' text is probably a confusion of the name of the source with the name of the murderer.[7] Philostorgius had another source besides Olympiodorus, as is clear from differences in detail and attitude, for instance towards Stilicho in *HE* 12,2.

5. It has been suggested that Olympiodorus was the ultimate source for Procopius *Wars* 3,2,28-38, which describes the first elevation of Attalus, his failure against Ravenna and Carthage, his deposition, and the usurpation of Constantine III.[8] A comparison of the first part (28-30) with the relevant passages of Zosimus and Sozomen shows a similar order of material, but no clear linguistic parallels. There is one difficulty in that Procopius places the elevation of Attalus after the third siege of Rome, whereas Zosimus, Sozomen and Philostorgius correctly place it after the second. However, Procopius built up the introduction to his *Vandalic War* (*Wars* 3-4) out of loosely-joined blocks of material and was only interested in the important events, which he lifted from his sources. Since Attalus' elevation followed a siege – the second, less famous one – Procopius, whose chronology is dislocated elsewhere in this introduction[9] and who does not mention the second siege, could easily have slipped in this block of material from Olympiodorus (which makes no mention of a siege) after an account of the third siege which was taken from elsewhere. Furthermore, although Olympiodorus (*Fr.* 3) correctly dates the elevation before the third siege, the mention of it occurs after the notice of that siege, so that confusion could easily have arisen. This part of Procopius is complete in itself and is ended with the words, "These things, then, were done in this way", which could mark a transition.[10] The rest of the Procopian passage is, however, much more dubious. In it Honorius'

preparations to flee to Africa are linked to the usurpation of Constantine, whereas in Zosimus (6,8,1) they are linked to the proposal of Jovius to mutilate and banish the Emperor. Moreover, the foiling of Attalus' attempt to take Africa is ascribed to God, who aids those who are helpless and not wicked, a sentiment which looks Christian. Thus, if 31-38 is from Olympiodorus, it seems to have come to Procopius via a Christian epitomator, and is so far removed that it is omitted from the conspectus.[11]

The Fragments[12]

1. Early career of Stilicho. His plan with Alaric to annex Illyricum. His defeat of Radagaisus. 395-406 (*Fr.* 2; Zosimus 5,26; Sozomen 9,4).

2. Digression on Ravenna (Zosimus 5,27,1).

3. Further manoeuvres over Illyricum. Report of the usurpation of Constantine III. Marriage of Thermantia and Honorius. 407-08 (*Fr.* 2; Zosimus 5,27,2 - 28,3).

4. Alaric moves on Emona. Digression on Emona. Settlement with Alaric. 408 (Zosimus 5,29; Sozomen 1,6; cf. *Fr.* 5).

5. Stilicho plans to go to the East. Rift between Honorius and Stilicho. Plotting of Olympius. Murder of Stilicho and his supporters. 408 (*Fr.* 2; Zosimus 5,30,1 - 35,4; Sozomen 9,4; Philostorgius 12,1).

6. Alaric's hostility to the Romans after the death of Stilicho (*Fr.* 3).

7. Barbarian troops defect to Alaric. First siege of Rome. Execution of Eucherius and Serena. Lifting of the siege. 408-09 (*Frr.* 4-7; Zosimus 5,35,5 - 42,3; Sozomen 9,6-7; [Philostorgius 12,3]).[13]

8. Negotiations with Alaric. Constantine III announces his usurpation. Regime of Olympius. Fall of Olympius, rise of Jovius. 409 (*Fr.* 8; Zosimus 5,43-51; Sozomen 9,7).

9. Note on the optimates of Radagaisus (*Fr.* 9).[14]

10. Second siege of Rome. First elevation of Attalus. His failure to

take Africa. His deposition. Alaric tries for an accommodation with Honorius. 409-10 (Zosimus 6,6-13; Sozomen 9,8; [Philostorgius 12,3; Procopius *Wars* 3,2,38-30]).

11. Third siege and sack of Rome. Death of Alaric, succession of Ataulf. 410 (*Fr.* 10; Sozomen 9,9; [Philostorgius 12,3-4]).

12. Note on the name *buccellarii* (*Fr.* 11).

13. Account of the British usurpers. The activity of Constantine III in Gaul and Spain. 406-09 (*Fr.* 12; Zosimus 6,1-5; Sozomen 9,11-12).[15]

14. The career of Attalus. 409-17 (*Fr.* 13).

15. Constantine III plots against Honorius. Treachery and death of Allobich. 409 (*Fr.* 14; Sozomen 9,12).

16. Digression on apotropaic statues at Rhegium (*Fr.* 15).[16]

17. Revolt of Gerontius. Fall of Constantine III. Death of Gerontius. 410-11 (*Fr.* 16; Sozomen 9,13-15).

18. Revolt of Jovinus. Ataulf in Gaul. Death of Sarus. 412 (*Fr.* 17; [Philostorgius 12,6]).

19. Olympiodorus on embassy to the Huns. 412 (*Fr.* 18).[17]

End of the first decad

20. Fall of Jovinus. 413 (*Fr.* 19; Sozomen 9,15; [Philostorgius 12,6]).

[**21.** Revolt of Heraclian in Africa. 413 (Philostorgius 12,6)].[18]

22. Honorius attempts to recover Placidia. Ataulf contemplates marriage to Placidia. Siege of Marseilles. 413 (*Frr.* 20-22).

23. Consulship of Constantius. 414 (*Fr.* 23).

24. Marriage of Ataulf and Placidia. 414 (*Fr.* 24; [Philostorgius 12,4]).

25. Revival of Rome after its sack by Alaric (*Fr.* 25; [Philostorgius 12,5]).[19]

26. Negotiations between Ataulf and Honorius. Second elevation of Attalus. Murder of Ataulf. Succession of Singeric. Death of Singeric, succession of Wallia. Punishment of Attalus. 414-15 (*Fr.* 26; [Philostorgius 12,4 and 5]).

27. Barbarian invasions follow the destruction of apotropaic statues in Thrace (*Fr.* 27).[20]

28. Olympiodorus visits Athens. 415 (*Fr.* 28).[21]

29. The Visigoths and Vandals in Spain. 416-18 (*Frr.* 29-30).

30. Return of Placidia to Honorius. 416 (*Fr.* 31).

31. Digression on Athens (*Fr.* 32).

32. Digression on Oasis (*Fr.* 33).

33. Marriage of Constantius and Placidia. Birth of Valentinian III. Elevation to Augustus and death of Constantius. 417-21 (*Fr.* 34; Sozomen 9,16; [Philostorgius 12,12]).

34. Death of Wallia, succession of Theoderic. 418 (*Fr.* 35).

35. Olympiodorus travels to Egypt (*Frr.* 36-37).

36. Libanius the magician (*Fr.* 38).

37. Character of Constantius. 421 (*Fr.* 39).

38. Exile of Placidia. 423 (*Fr.* 40).

39. Death of Honorius, elevation of John. 423 (*Fr.* 41; [Philostorgius 12,13]).

40. Boniface (*Fr.* 42).

41. The city of Rome (*Frr.* 43-44).

42. Digression on Odysseus' visit to northern Italy (*Fr.* 45).[22]

43. Preparations for war against John. His defeat and execution. Accommodation with Aetius. Coronation of Valentinian III. 424-25 (*Fr.* 46; [Philostorgius 12,13-14]).

PRISCUS, HISTORY

The Sources of the Fragments

1. Most of the material that survives from Priscus' History is preserved in the *Excerpta de Legationibus*. Thus, the selection is partial, and there are indications both of condensation and of omissions of material within the excerpts. For instance, in *Frr.* 2 and 24 the narrative of military activities has been reduced by the excerptor to very brief notices. In the long *Fr.* 8 gaps are indicated, and partly filled, by Jordanes *Getica* 35,183, on the sword of Mars, and the *Suda* Z 29, on the clown Zercon; and in the same fragment material seems to have been omitted at the transition which is marked between the third and fourth books of the History. Again, a gap in *Fr.* 30 is filled by the *Suda* A 18. However, since the order of the fragments in the *Excerpta* seems to have preserved the order of the material in the History (an assumption supported by the order of the excerpts from Procopius and Theophylactus, which follows that of their surviving narratives), they can be used as the framework into which can be fitted fragments preserved elsewhere.

2. Jordanes in his *Getica*, for which he drew considerably upon the *Gothic History* of Cassiodorus, preserves much material from Priscus, whom he names in places.[1] By what route this material came is unclear, but Jordanes does claim (*Getica* 1,3) that he added to Cassiodorus.[2] Mommsen, in the introduction to his edition of Jordanes, held that all but three short passages on Attila and his sons came from Priscus.[3] However, although Mommsen thought that the Priscan origin of this material is shown by the quality of the writing which contrasts with Jordanes' usual clumsy style, much condensation has clearly taken place,[4] and the overall picture of Attila which emerges from Jordanes' narrative is very different from that offered by the fragments of Priscus in the *Excerpta*.[5] Moreover, much of the material on Attila and his sons is probably not from Priscus. The long account of Attila's invasion of the West, which culminated in the battle of Mauriacus (*Getica* 36, 185-41; 218), attributes characteristics to Attila which do not appear in Priscus[6] and, since it presents the Gothic view of events,[7] came probably from a Gothic source. The Christianised version of the turning of Attila from Rome by Pope Leo (*Getica* 42,223), which is clumsily inserted into Priscan material, is from elsewhere, as is that part of the portrait of Attila (*Getica* 35,181) which remarks his ambitions to over-

throw the Visigoths and the Romans; the account of Attila's second attack on the West (*Getica* 43,225-28), which is again written from a Gothic viewpoint; and the description of the defeat of Attila's son, Dengizich (*Getica* 53,272-73). On the other hand, the account of the destruction of the Hunnic power at the battle of the river Nedao and the subsequent rearrangement of the tribes which had been subject to the Huns (*Getica* 50,259-66) might have come from Priscus, although again there is a certain German viewpoint, and Jordanes (*Getica* 50, 262) is emphatic that Ellac, the eldest, was Attila's favourite son, whereas Priscus (*Fr.* 8 p.93) is equally emphatic that it was Ernach, the youngest. Comparison with Procopius (*Wars* 6,15,16-23) suggests that the digression on the Scrithofinni (*Getica* 3,21) came from Priscus,[8] as probably also did some short passages of the *Romana*.[9]

3. Material from Priscus also appears in the fragments attributed to John of Antioch. Koecher derives from the History *Frr.* 191; 194; 198; 199; 201-04; 207-09,[10] and of these the Priscan origin of 198; 199; 203; 204 is assured by verbal parallels and other points of contact with passages from the *Excerpta*. In 194 and 201 the treatment of the subject and the attitudes expressed, especially the hatred of eunuchs and the censure of Theodosius' reliance upon tribute rather than upon fighting the enemies of the Empire, look Priscan.[11] There is no reason why 202 and 205-09,1 should not have come from Priscus, although the condensed and chronographical form, especially of 205; 206,2; 209,1, indicates that they came through an intermediary.[12] If, as is usually held, Priscus ended his History with the death of Leo in 474, then 209,2 could also be from him, since it closes with the accession of Nepos to the western throne in that year. *Fr.* 191 is probably not from Priscus, since it deals with Theodosius II in his extreme youth (*τὴν ἄγαν τῆς ἡλικίας νεότητα*), whereas Priscus began his History in 433 or 434 when the Emperor was thirty-two years old.

4. In a number of places in his *Ecclesiastical History* Evagrius names Priscus as the source of his information,[13] and from him was derived certainly the first part of 2,1 on the origin of the Emperor Marcian, his escape from an undeserved death and the name-portent of his imperial destiny (although the following part of the same chapter, which describes an omen given by an eagle upon Marcian's future career, is from elsewhere);[14] 2,5 (= Priscus *Fr.* 22) on religious rioting at Alexandria; 2,13 on the fire at Constantinople which raged from the second to the sixth of September 465;[15] 2,14 (= Priscus *Fr.* 43) on an

earthquake and inundation; and a brief notice at 2,16 on Basiliscus' expedition against the Vandals and the execution of Aspar and his sons. Nagy would derive the notice at 2,7 on the death of Libius Severus from Priscus,[16] and Bidez-Parmentier suggest that the section of the same chapter on Gaiseric's treatment of the captured imperial princesses is also Priscan.[17] But the latter passage of Evagrius says that Gaiseric sent Placidia and her mother Eudoxia to Constantinople to pacify Marcian, whereas a fragment of Priscus from the *Excerpta* (*Fr.* 29) indicates that they were not returned until the reign of Leo. Since another part of 2,7, on the death of Valentinian III, the reign of Petronius Maximus, and Gaiseric's sack of Rome, summarises the material in John of Antioch *Fr.* 200 and is not therefore from Priscus,[18] it is likely that all of this chapter is from elsewhere.

Evagrius names as another of his sources Eustathius of Epiphania,[19] who composed an epitome of history up to the twelfth year of Anastasius (502-03). Jeep argued that much of the material from Priscus came to Evagrius from Eustathius,[20] who may well have been the chronographer who was the intermediary for some of the Priscan passages in John of Antioch. On the other hand, the dimensions and detail of Evagrius 2,1 suggest that at least that passage came directly from the full-scale original.

5. Haury argued that much of the history of the period in Procopius' *Vandalic War* came from Priscus, probably indirectly through Eustathius.[21] He might have overestimated the debt, but there is certainly some identifiably Priscan material. The account of Attila's siege of Aquileia (*Wars* 3,4,30-35), from the same source as Jordanes *Getica* 42,219-21, is Priscan,[22] as probably is the link-passage (29) from the preceding material, which stresses the yearly tribute extorted by Attila. *Wars* 3,5,1-7, on Gaiseric's sack of Rome and his capture of the wife and daughters of Valentinian III, which, like Priscus *Fr.* 29, says that the princesses were returned to Leo, and *Wars* 3,5,8-17, on Gaiseric's treatment of the Africans,[23] are all possibly Priscan. That some material from *Wars* 3,6,1-27, on Basiliscus' expedition against Gaiseric, comes from Priscus is indicated by comparison of sections 2 and 14 with the first part of Theophanes *a.m.* 5961, for which Priscus is named as the source. However, some of the material in this chapter is from elsewhere, especially sections 3 and 4, which correspond to the second part of Theophanes' entry, where a change of source is noted, and which seem to stem from an Orthodox Christian writer who blames Basiliscus' failure upon collusion with the Arian Aspar.[24] But most of

the material in this chapter could be ultimately from Priscus.[25] In Procopius' *Gothic War* the account of the Hunnic crossing of Lake Maeotis (*Wars* 8,5,7-12) is from the same source as Jordanes *Getica* 24, 123-25, where Priscus is named;[26] and Mommsen suggested Priscus as the source for *Wars* 6,15,16-23, on the Scrithofinni.[27] Although, as Haury argued, much of this material, which is in a rather condensed form, probably came through an intermediary, yet some of the passages, such as those on the siege of Aquileia and the Hunnic crossing of Lake Maeotis, are expansive enough to have been taken directly from Priscus.[28]

6. The *Paschal Chronicle* (pp.587f., ed. Bonn) gives a very confused summary of Attila's invasion of the West and the battle of Mauriacus, and an account of Attila's death which is the same as that which Jordanes drew from Priscus. Then the *Chronicle* notes that this war was described by Priscus, and the form of words it uses (*περὶ οὗ πολέμου συνεγράψατο ὁ σοφώτατος Πρίσκος ὁ Θρᾷξ*) is exactly the same as that used by Malalas (*Chron.* 14 p.359, ed. Bonn) in reference to the same events. With the word *λέγει* ("he says") the *Chronicle* then introduces a description of the achievements and fall of the prefect Cyrus. Malalas, too, (*Chron.* 14 pp.361f.) has a notice on Cyrus, which, however, is separated by other material and which, although it has many points of contact with the notice of the *Paschal Chronicle*, including verbal parallels, differs in some significant details, especially the name of the place of which Cyrus was made bishop: the *Paschal Chronicle* says Smyrna, whereas Malalas says Cotyaeum.[29] The word "he says" of the *Paschal Chronicle* is usually taken to refer to Priscus also, and the notice on Cyrus is printed as *Fr.* 3a.[30] But since the reference to Priscus in the *Chronicle* and Malalas use exactly the same words, it was taken from an intermediary, Eustathius of Epiphania. This is indicated by Nicephorus Callistus, who, in his *Ecclesiastical History*, made use of Evagrius but supplemented him by Evagrius' own source, Eustathius. At 14,57 Nicephorus produces the same garbled version of the battle of Mauriacus as is found in the *Paschal Chronicle* and Malalas, but has Attila killed by a spear, which reflects an alternative version remarked by Malalas, who notes (*Chron.* 14 p.359) that "others" said that Attila was stabbed by one of his bodyguards whom Aetius had bribed. Nicephorus notes various other events including troubles with Gaiseric and fighting with the Persians which was ended by a treaty. He then continues, "These things have been narrated by many writers and have been epitomised very elegantly by Eustathius

of Epiphania in Syria, who also wrote about the capture of Amida". He then follows with a note that the poets Claudian and Cyrus flourished at this time, and remarks Cyrus' career as prefect, but not his fall from favour.[31] This passage of Nicephorus suggests that the notices upon the battle of Mauriacus, upon the death of Attila, and upon Cyrus all came from Eustathius who used a multiplicity of sources, named them, and gave alternative versions of events.[32] Thus, since the notice on Cyrus seems in Eustathius to have been separated from Attila's death, "he says" might refer to Priscus, but it might equally well refer to another source. On the other hand, although it is no more than a possibility that Priscan material is in the notice on Cyrus,[33] it is also possible that some of the intervening material in Malalas and Nicephorus originated with Priscus. This is especially likely with the notice on the disgrace of the chamberlain Antiochus and his consecration as bishop, which not only appears in Malalas (*Chron.* 14 p.461), but also in Theophanes (*a.m.* 5936) and some *Suda* articles, which Adler refers to Priscus.[34] In Malalas this notice appears just before the section on Cyrus and, since it contains an attack on the power of the eunuchs, may well in Priscus have been part of an attack on the eunuch Chrysaphius who engineered Cyrus' downfall and replaced him as the adviser of Theodosius II, and whom Priscus hates.[35]

7. As well as the notices upon Basiliscus' expedition (*a.m.* 5961) and Cyrus (*a.m.* 5936) discussed above,[36] Theophanes seems to have incorporated other Priscan material in his *Chronographia*. Probably from Priscus are the account of Attila's devastation of Illyricum and Thrace (*a.m.* 5942), the brief note on his demand for Honoria and his attack on Gaul (*a.m.* 5943), and the notice on Heracleius' expedition against Gaiseric and Leo's murder of Aspar and his two sons (*a.m.* 5963). Possibly Priscan are the notices on the death of Anthemius (*a.m.* 5964), which is similar to John of Antioch *Fr.* 209,1, and the death of Aetius (*a.m.* 5946), which has some slight similarity to John of Antioch *Fr.* 201.

8. Nicephorus Callistus incorporated material from Priscus in his *Ecclesiastical History*: at 15,1 on the Emperor Marcian; 15,8 on the riots at Alexandria; 15,20 on an earthquake and inundation; and 15,21 on the fire at Constantinople in 465. Although Nicephorus names Priscus twice (15,1 and 8), all of the above material was taken directly from Evagrius. On the other hand, in places Nicephorus made additions and alterations to the information which he took from Evagrius, prob-

ably drawing upon Eustathius. Some of this material may derive from Priscus, especially 14,57 on the battle of Mauriacus and the prefect Cyrus.[37]

9. A number of notices in the *Suda* derive ultimately from Priscus.[38] Certainly Priscan are Z 29 (= *Fr.* 11), where the two clowns remarked by Priscus (*Fr.* 8 p.92) are confused; A 2107, which mistakenly includes material from Priscus (*Fr.* 13) on Nomus;[39] A 18, A 820 and Σ 111, which go with *Fr.* 30; and the short notices, where Priscus is named, X 144, which is placed by Müller with *Fr.* 24, A 1660 and Π 687, neither of which can be placed.[40] Θ 145 and O 404, from the same source as John of Antioch *Frr.* 194 and 199,2, are probably from Priscus, and Norman has made a strong case for the Priscan origin of Υ 583.[41] Possibly from Priscus are A 3803, which might be, as Müller has suggested (*ad Fr.* 20), a summary of Priscan material, I 368, suggested by Müller (IV p.617) in a note to John of Antioch *Fr.* 206,2, and K 2123 and M 405, which preserve an anecdote about Attila commissioning a painting of Theodosius II placing gold at his feet.[42]

10. Stephanus of Byzantium, *s.v. Salonai*, cites the sixth book of Priscus as a source for his notice.

The Fragments[43]

1. The Huns cross Lake Maeotis and move West (Jordanes *Get.* 24, 123-26; Procopius *Wars* 8,5,7-12).

2. Death of Rugila, succession of Attila and Bleda. Treaty between the Huns and the East Romans. 434-35 (*Fr.* 1; *Suda* A 1660).[44]

3. Theodosius II. His weakness and the influence of eunuchs, especially Chrysaphius, over him (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 194; *Suda* Θ 145).[45]

4. Disturbances in the Hellespont and Propontis caused by the followers of Sebastian (*Suda* Θ 145).[46]

5. Attack upon Novidunum by the Rugi (*Fr.* 1a; *Suda* A 3145, T 458).[47]

6. First Hunnic attack on the Eastern Roman Empire. 441-42 (*Frr.* 2; 1b).[48]

[7. Disgrace of the *praepositus* Antiochus. *ca* 421 (Theophanes *a.m.* 5936; Malalas 14 p.361; *Suda* Θ 145, Π 793, Υ 169, E 3604, A 2694).][49]

[8. Disgrace of the prefect Cyrus. 443 (*Chron. Pasch. a.* 450 = *Fr.* 3a; Theophanes *a.m.* 5937; Malalas *Chron.* 14 pp.361f.; Nic. Call. 14,57).][50]

9. The second, 'great', Hunnic attack on the Eastern Roman Empire. 447 (*Frr.* 3; 4; 5; [Theophanes *a.m.* 5942; Nic. Call. 14,57]).[48]

10. Hunnic embassies to the Romans. 448 (*Fr.* 6).[48]

11. Plot to kill Attila. Embassy of Maximinus to the Huns. Sketch of Attila. 449 (*Frr.* 7; 8 pp.77-91; Jordanes *Get.* 34,178-79 = *Fr.* 9; 35, 180 and 182).[51]

12. Digression on the sacred sword of the Huns (*Fr.* 8 p.91; Jordanes *Get.* 35,183 = *Fr.* 10).

13. Negotiations and a feast at the Hunnic camp. Digression on the clown Zercon (*Fr.* 8 pp.91-93; *Suda* Z 29 = *Fr.* 11).

14. Return of the embassy. 449 (*Fr.* 8 pp.93-95).

Book 4[52]

15. Unmasking of the plot against Attila. Danger of Chrysaphius. Embassy of Anatolius and Nomus. 449-50 (*Frr.* 8 p.95; 12; 13; 14; Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 198; *Suda* A 2107).

16. Hostilities between Theodosius and the general Zeno. 450 (*Fr.* 14; Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 199,1).[53]

17. Attila and Honoria. 449-50 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 199,2; [Theophanes *a.m.* 5943; *Suda* O 404; Jordanes *Get.* 42,223-24; *Rom.* 328]).

[Book 5][54]

18. Career of Marcian. His elevation to the purple. 450 (Evagrius 2,1; Nic. Call. 15,1).[55]

[19. The general Ardabur (*Suda* A 3803; Jordanes *Rom.* 336).]

20. Marcian stops tribute to the Huns. Gaiseric urges Attila to attack the Visigoths. Attila is also asked to intervene in the succession to the Frankish throne. He decides to march West. 450-51 (*Frr.* 15; 16; Jordanes *Get.* 36,184).

21. The Huns invade Gaul. The battle of Mauriacus. 451 (*Chron. Pasch.* pp.587f.; Malalas *Chron.* 14 p.358; [Theophanes *a.m.* 5943]).

22. The Huns invade Italy. 452 (Jordanes *Get.* 42,219-24, part of which = *Fr.* 17; Procopius *Wars* 3,4,29-35; [*Suda* K 2123, M 405]).

23. Attila threatens the East Romans. Embassy of Apollonius. 452-53 (*Frr.* 18; 19; [Jordanes *Get.* 43,225]).

24. Death of Attila. 453 (Jordanes *Get.* 49,254-55 [256-58], part of which = *Fr.* 23; [*Chron. Pasch.* pp.587f.; Malalas *Chron.* 14 p.359]; Theophanes *a.m.* 5946).[56]

[**25.** Collapse of the Hunnic power. *ca* 453 (Jordanes *Get.* 50,259-66).]

26. Peace-negotations with the Saracens. 452? (*Fr.* 20).

27. War- and peace-negotations with the Blemmyes and Nobadae. The temple of Isis at Philae. 451-52 (*Fr.* 21; [Jordanes *Rom.* 333]).

28. Rioting at Alexandria. [Digression on the temple of Serapis.] 453 (Evagrius 2,5 = *Fr.* 22; [Nic. Call. 15,8]).[57]

[**29.** Death of the general Zeno. 453? (Jordanes *Rom.* 333).][58]

30. Deaths of Aetius and Valentinian III. Maximus Emperor at Rome. Gaiseric sacks Rome. 454-55 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 201; [Jordanes *Rom.* 334; Theophanes *a.m.* 5946]).

31. Embassies from Marcian and Avitus to Gaiseric. 455-56 (*Fr.* 24; *Suda* X 144).

[**32.** Death of Avitus. 456 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 202; Nic. Call. 15,11).]

33. Relations between the East Romans and Gobazes, king of the Lazi. *ca* 456 (*Frr.* 25; 26).[59]

[34. Death of Marcian. 457.]

[Book 6][60]

[35. Leo Emperor. 457.]

36. Majorian in Gaul and Spain. His death. 458-61 (*Fr.* 27; Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 203; [Nic. Call. 15,11]).

37. The Ostrogoths attack Roman territory. 461 (*Fr.* 28).

38. Gaiseric supports Olybrius as western Roman Emperor and attacks Italy and Sicily. 461-62 (*Fr.* 29; Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 204; [Procopius *Wars* 3,6,6; Nic. Call. 15,11]).

39. Hostility of Marcellinus in Dalmatia, of Aegidius in Gaul, and of the Vandals towards the Italians. 462-63 (*Frr.* 29; 30; Steph. Byz. *s.v. Salonai*).[61]

40. Embassies to the East Romans. 462-63 (*Fr.* 30; *Suda* A 18, A 820, Σ 111).

41. Diplomatic activity, Romans and Persians, Romans and Vandals, Persians and Huns. 464-65 (*Frr.* 31; 32; 33).

42. Fire at Constantinople. 465 (Evagrius 2,13; Nic. Call. 15,21).

[43. Basiliscus replaces Rusticius as master of the soldiers. 465 (*Suda* B 163).][62]

44. Visit of the Lazic king Gobazes to Constantinople. 465-66 (*Fr.* 34).[63]

45. Leo aids the Sciri against the Ostrogoths. 466-67 (*Fr.* 34).

46. The East Romans reject the demands of the sons of Attila. 466? (*Fr.* 36).

47. The Persians seek Roman help against invaders. 467 (*Fr.* 37).

48. The Huns move to attack Thrace. Natural disasters. Leo accedes

to the Huns' demand for land. 467 (*Fr.* 38; Evagrius 2,14 = *Fr.* 43; Nic. Call. 15,20).[64]

49. Fighting between the Romans and Scythians in Thrace. 467 (*Fr.* 39).[65]

[50. Anthemius named western Emperor. 467 (Evagrius 2,16; Procopius *Wars* 3,6,5).]

51. The Lazi seek Roman help against the Suanni and the Persians. 467 (*Fr.* 41).[66]

52. Leo's ultimatum to Gaiseric to cease his attacks on Italy and Sicily. 467-68 (*Fr.* 40).

53. Basiliscus' expedition against the Vandals. [Land march of Heracleius and Marsus through Libya.] Marcellinus in Sardinia. Murder of Marcellinus. 468 (Theophanes *a.m.* 5961 = *Fr.* 42; Evagrius 2,16; Procopius *Wars* 3,6,1-2 and 5-25; [3,5,8-17; Theophanes *a.m.* 5963; Jordanes *Rom.* 337]).[67]

[54. Turbulence in the Roman army. Anagastes kills Ulith. 469 (*Suda* ϒ 583; Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 205).][68]

[55. Isaurian turbulence at Rhodes and Constantinople. 469 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 206,1).]

[56. Revolt of Anagastes in Thrace. 470 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 206,2).]

[57. Operation of Zeno against the Isaurian brigand Indacus. 470 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 206,2; *Suda* I 368).]

[58. Leo sends help against the Suanni. 470? (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 206,2).][69]

[59. The Visigoths active in Gaul. *ca* 470 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 206,2).][70]

[60. Ostrogothic hostilities in Pannonia. 470-71 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 206,2; Jordanes *Get.* 56,285).][71]

61. Murder of Aspar and his sons. 471 (Evagrius 2,16; [Theophanes *a.m.* 5963]).

[**62.** Hostilities between Anthemius and Ricimer. 472 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 207).]

[**63.** Indiscretion of the general Jordanes. 472 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 208).]

[**64.** Death of Anthemius. 472 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 209,1; Theophanes *a.m.* 5964).]

[**65.** Western Emperors to the accession of Nepos. 472-74 (Jo. Ant. *Fr.* 209,2).]

[**66.** Digression on the Scrithofinni (Jordanes *Get.* 3,21; Procopius *Wars* 6,15,16-23).]

MALCHUS, BYZANTINE HISTORY

The Sources of the Fragments

1. Almost all of the material certainly from Malchus is preserved in the *Excerpta de Legationibus*. Fragments 18 and 19, which in the MS of the *Excerpta de Legationibus Romanorum* appear at the head of the Malchan excerpts, have been rightly placed by editors at the end. This is clearly a case of a simple misplacement of a page which had dropped out and is no justification for changing the order of other passages. Von Ranke placed *Fr.* 16 before 15 to give two separate alliances between the two Theoderics against Zeno, and Weitersheim-Dahn placed 14 between 16 and 17.[1] These dislocations have rightly been rejected.[2]

2. The brief summary offered by Photius (*Bibl. cod.* 78, I pp.160f.) gives a few extra details.

3. A scholion to Evagrius 3,26, on the revolt of Marcian in 479, says that Malchus too described it, which suggests that his History was a parallel source, not that Evagrius used it.[3]

4. Zonaras mentions Malchus once (14,2,24), as a source for details of the great fire at Constantinople during the usurpation of Basiliscus in 476, which destroyed the Basilica and its library and various famous works of art. The *Suda* (M 120) confirms that Malchus did describe the burning of the library, but the phraseology of Zonaras, who added the reference to his intermediary source Cedrenus (p.618), suggests he noted Malchus as a parallel source and not the main one.[4]

5. There is no further reference to Malchus by name in later historians, and the difficulty of identifying Malchan material in these writers is compounded by two facts. First, Candidus of Isauria wrote a History of the reigns of Leo and Zeno in three books. Second, Eustathius of Epiphania, whose *Universal History*, which is known to have been used by many later historians, continued into the reign of Anastasius, may for this period have become an original source rather than merely a compiler. Photius' summary of Candidus' History (*Bibl. cod.* 79, I pp.161-66) permits the identification of some characteristics of the work which help distinguish it from that of Malchus. The style was

full of inappropriate neologisms and poeticisms, disorganised and uneven; the writer expressed himself directly on ecclesiastical affairs; he liked romantic episodes and explanations; and he apparently concentrated upon events in Constantinople and Isauria, offering little, for example, on the manoeuvres between Zeno and the two Theoderics. When these characteristics and those known for Malchus are set beside the relevant material in the later writers, it appears most likely that none of them used Malchus, at least directly, and if Eustathius was the intermediary, then his own possible originality as a source at this point makes identification impossible. Even John of Antioch, the most likely user of Malchus, shows considerable divergences, for instance in a different version of the death of Heracleius (*Fr.* 210), in calling Epidamnus Dyrrhachium (*Fr.* 211,4) and Byzantium Constantinople (*Fr.* 211,5), and in the over-use of the λεγόμενος-formula (*Fr.* 211,3, 4 and 5).[5]

6. A few notices in the *Suda* are derived from Malchus by name. The two, or possibly three, Malchan passages printed by Müller as *Fr.* 21 cannot be placed in the History and are of little use. More important are the articles Λ 267 (= *Fr.* 2a, the last part of which, on the grammarian Hyperechius and the philosopher Eulogius, is probably from elsewhere)[6] and Π 137 (= *Fr.* 20). Other articles might be from Malchus or Candidus, and in some of these cases the known characteristics of the two writers can help identification. Of the two articles A 3970 and A 3968, which are printed as *Fr.* 8, the former, with its rather imprecise language, its stress upon the love-affair between Harmatius and the Empress Zenonis and the sermonising with which it closes, appears to have come from Candidus; whereas the Malchan origin of the latter is suggested by the greater precision of the language and the details that Harmatius was killed by Onulf and that his cutting-off the hands of Thracian rebels won him unpopularity, which appear in *Fr.* 11 and Photius' summary of Malchus. Of the two articles Z 83 and 84 (=*Fr.* 9), Z 83 is probably Malchan, the first part of Z 84 is probably not, and the second part of the same article is certainly not. Possibly Malchan are B 164 (= *Fr.* 7),[7] H 466 (= *Fr.* 5), E 3100 (= *Fr.* 6),[8] E 2494,[9] and K 693.[10] On the other hand, Λ 646 and A 783 are not from Malchus and are possibly from Candidus, E 3770 (= Eunapius *Fr.* 106), which has been suggested as Malchan, is almost certainly not, and H 451, which Müller (*ad Fr.* 6) thought to be Malchan, is probably from Damascius.[11]

The Fragments[12]

1. Leo and Amorkesos, an Arab chieftain. 473-74 (*Fr.* 1).

2. Hostilities and peace with Theoderic Strabo. 473-74 (*Fr.* 2).

3. Disease and death of Leo. His character. 474 (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78; *Suda* Λ 267 = *Fr.* 2a).

4. Elevation of Zeno. 474 (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78).

5. Truce with the Vandals. 475 (*Fr.* 3).

6. Death of Heracleius. 475 (*Fr.* 4; [*Suda* H 466 = *Fr.* 5]).

[**7.** The prefect Erythrius. 474-75 (*Suda* E 3100 = *Fr.* 6).]

[**8.** Death of the younger Zeno. 475? (*Suda* Z 84, first part = *Fr.* 9).][13]

9. Flight of Zeno. Usurpation of Basiliscus. 475-76 (*Fr.* 8a; Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78; *Suda* [B 164 = *Fr.* 7; A 3968 = *Fr.* 8]; M 120).

[**10.** Basiliscus' prefect Epinicus (*Suda* E 2494).]

11. Fire at Constantinople. 476 (*Suda* M 120; Zonaras 14,2,24).

12. Return of Zeno. Death of Basiliscus and his family. 476 (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78; [*Suda* B 164]).

13. Zeno rewards and then executes Harmatius. 476-77 (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78; [*Suda* A 3968, K 693]).

14. Deposition of Augustulus. Odovacer master of Italy. 476-77 (*Fr.* 10).

15. Hostilities with Theoderic Strabo. 477-78 (*Fr.* 11; Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78).

16. Corruption under Zeno (*Fr.* 12; [*Suda* Z 83 = *Fr.* 9]).[14]

17. Embassy from the Vandals to Zeno. 478 (*Fr.* 13).

18. War with Theoderic the son of Theodemir. Treaty with Theoderic Strabo. 478 (*Frr.* 14-17).

19. Plot of Verina against Illus. 478 (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78).

20. Theoderic the son of Theodemir takes Epidamnus. 479 (*Fr.* 18; Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78).[15]

21. Revolt of Marcian. 479 (*Fr.* 19; Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78; *Suda* Π 137 = *Fr.* 20; Scholion to Evagrius 3,26).

22. Theoderic Strabo threatens Constantinople. Late 479 - early 480 (*Fr.* 19).

23. Pamprepius of Panopolis (*Suda* Π 137).[16]

24. Death of Nepos. 480 (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78).

NOTES

BIBLIOGRAPHY

INDEXES

CHAPTER 1: EUNAPIUS OF SARDIS

1. Examples of sophists in public life at ch.2 n.7.

2. Full available biographical details in Müller, *FHG* IV pp.7f.; Wright's introduction to his Loeb edition of Eunapius' *Lives of the Sophists*, p.319; Schmid, *RE* VI,1 cols. 1121f.; Opelt 1965 pp.928-30.

3. *Vit. Soph.* 7,3,4; 8,2,1. These references to the invasion of Greece do not seem to be to the immediate past, and, therefore, suggest a date of writing a few years after 395.

4. So *Fr.* 1 (p.13): καὶ τὰ πρὸ ἡμῶν μετὰ τὴν Δεξίππου γραφήν.

5. There is only one certain reference to the first book of the History, at *Vit. Soph.* 6,3,8, where it is called τοῖς περὶ ἐκεῖνον (= Constantine I). This form of reference, using τὰ περί or τὰ κατά followed by the name of an Emperor, is a convention used by other historians of the period (see, e.g., *Vit. Soph.* 7,1,5; 3,7 and 8; and cf. Ammianus 14,1,8; 27,8,4).

6. Photius begins his reference with the word χρονική, which is a misleading term often used by the Byzantines of earlier histories which were clearly not chronographies. The *Suda*, P 420, calls Eunapius' History χρονογραφία, also misleadingly.

7. For longer discussion of the sources for the reconstruction of Eunapius' History see pp.97-100 and notes thereto.

8. On this suggestion see Chalmers 1953 pp.165-70.

9. See my arguments in *Latomus* 1971 pp.713-15.

10. Barnes 1978 pp.114-17.

11. The text is that of Giangrande, who excised the τε, thus removing an anacolouthon. My argument below reinforces the excision.

12. The identification was suggested as possible by Cracco Ruggini 1972 p.210 n.64.

13. That the words τὰ πρῶτα of *Fr.* 41 refer to the first edition and not to an earlier part of the History was demonstrated by Chalmers (*art. cit.*).

14. The argument implicitly rejects, of course, the view of Paschoud (1975 p.171) that the first edition was completed by the end of 412 and that the *Lives of the Sophists* were completed perhaps in 413.

15. Paschoud (1975 pp.173-75) would place the publication of the last part of the History after 423, on the ground that Eunapius could not have published the attack on Pulcheria before the marriage of Theodosius II in 420, which led to the temporary eclipse of the Empress, and before the death of Honorius in 423. But the emendation proposed in the text removes the basis for his reasoning, and I fail to see why the violent language of Eunapius, whether against Pulcheria or Eudoxia, would have been any more acceptable after 423, when a member of the Theodosian house was still on the throne.

16. Bury 1958, I p.138; Stein 1959, I p.237.

17. Zosimus 5,24,1-2; Zonaras 13,20,9.

18. Cf. *Vit. Soph.* 6,3,8-13; 7,5,9-13; and the remarks of Cracco Ruggini (1972 p.206 n.60).

19. The above paragraph summarises an argument developed in more detail in my paper 'The End of Eunapius' History' in *Antichthon*.

20. Both have been suggested. Cf. Paschoud 1975 pp.158ff. (without accepting his conclusions on Eunapius' source) and my paper in *Byzantina*.

21. Cf., e.g., Ammianus 14,5,1 and also the switching between East and West in Zosimus 4,3-19 (Valentinian I and Valens).

22. *Art.cit.* (at n.8).

23. E.g. *Frr.* 44 and 45, which are to be dated to 368 at the latest and which follow material dated to 376.

24. See especially his remarks on Prohaeresius at *Vit. Soph.* 10, 1,1.

25. *Vit. Soph.* 4,3,1: ἀνὴρ ἁπάσης παιδείας τε καὶ δυνάμεως λογικῆς ἀνάπλεως.

26. That the first book was an epitome is implied by *Fr.* 8 (the preface to the second book): διὰ τῶν ἀναγκαίων ἐπιτρέχουσω. I prefer the evidence of the *Exc. de Sent.* that *Fr.* 8, which prefaces the account of Julian in Gaul, came from the second book to the suggestion of Paschoud (1975 p.176) that 270-355 was covered in two, three, or four books.

27. See my paper in *Byzantion* 1980 pp.393-402.

28. These remarks are based on the conspectus of the fragments on pp.101-106 and the notes thereto.

29. Since Eunapius appears to have included digressions and rather extensive discourses, which Zosimus omitted, the balance of the whole, as distinct from the main narrative material, might have been very different.

30. The proportions of Zosimus' text are (using Mendelssohn's edition): Julian from 355 and Jovian, 47½ pp. for 9 years; 364 to Adrianople, 21pp. for 14 years; after Adrianople to 404, 66½pp. for 26 years. This gives proportions of pages to years of over 5, 1½ and 2½.

31. Contrast the clear distinction made by Plutarch, *Vit. Alex.* 1,2.

32. Cf. earlier in *Fr.* 1 the criterion for inclusion of material: "events that are of general interest to all men and those which relate to a person who has achieved fame through his virtue."

33. A similar declaration was made in the first preface, as is clear from the last few words of *Fr.* 1.

34. References on pp.102-103.

35. *Fr.* 1 p.13.

36. *Op.cit.* (at n.14) pp.159f.

37. When he speaks of factual accuracy, Eunapius usually uses ἀκρίβεια (e.g. *Frr.* 9; 41). Even in *Fr.* 57, where ἀλήθεια is used in connection with the suppression of information, Eunapius is greatly concerned with the interpretative aspect.

38. See also *Frr.* 28; 41; 74.

39. Cf. Ammianus, who almost wholly ignores Spain.

40. *Fr.* 92 seems to remark preparations for battle and *Fr.* 93 a detail from a naval encounter.

41. The Greek here is unclear. Eunapius says ἐπιδραμούμεθα τὰ γεγενήμενα, συνάπτοντες τοῖς εἰρημένοις τὰ ἐχόμενα. Müller translates τὰ ἐχόμενα as *consequentia*, which one might expect at first glance. However, the perfect εἰρημένοις makes this difficult, and Zosimus, in a passage which is slightly displaced but is certainly influenced by Eunapius, says (3,2,4) εἰρήσεται καὶ ἡμῖν συντόμως ἕκαστα κατὰ τοὺς οἰκείους καιρούς, καὶ μάλιστα ὅσα τοῖς ἄλλοις παραλελεῖφθαι δοκεῖ, which seems to indicate that he thought that Eunapius was promising to add details to what had been written by others.

42. Zosimus 3,17-18 and 20-22, which show some military knowledge (see the commentary of Brok 1959 pp.116ff. and 135ff.).

43. Further examples at Zosimus 2,18-19; 4,25 (cf. *Fr.* 51); 38-39.

44. Brief direct speech is also used in *Frr.* 21,1; 24,4; 31; 74; 85; 87; and possibly 18,1-2.

45. The examples are drawn from Ammianus 15,9,1 and 12,6.

46. The passages are 1,57-58; 2,1-7 and 36-37; 4,18-24 and 36.

47. On *Fr.* 54 see n.56 on p.160. Another example of this kind of material is *Fr.* 78, which is probably not from a digression on affairs at Rome (see n.64 on pp.161f.).

48. Cf. especially the long story of Sosipatra at *Vit. Soph.* 6,6, 5-8,6.

49. The corresponding passage of Zosimus (4,20,3) refers to Herodotus as a source for the Huns.

50. The full list of references is *Frr.* 1 (p.13); 24,4; 28; 35; 37; 38; 39; 42; 60; 61; 74; 82; 87; 88. On the use of Plutarch see Cobet 1882 pp.27f.

51. The full list is *Frr.* 14,2,5 and 7; 22,2; 24,4; 31; 35; 39; 42; 47; 54; 56; 66; 82.

52. Giangrande, *BEN* 1956 pp.59-70 and *Hermes* 1956 pp.320f.

53. Cf., e.g., *Vit. Soph.* 7,3,15-16, on Maximus' wife, and 10,1,10, on the concern at Athens over Eunapius' illness.

54. Cf. Zosimus 4,10,1-2 with *Fr.* 37. Zosimus' expression of 10,4, *καίπερ ἐνεστῶτος οὕτω μεγάλου πολέμου*, seems to be a hangover from the Eunapian hyperbole.

55. Animal similes at *Frr.* 12; 14,2; 37; 68; 69; 71; 83; 87. From medicine (which Eunapius learned from Oribasius) at *Frr.* 33; 41; 45; 75,1 and 2.

56. Cf. *Frr.* 12; 41; 42; 57. *Exempla*, too, can lead Eunapius off into irrelevant discussion (e.g. *Fr.* 66).

57. Cf. Ammianus' statement at 26,1,1.

58. Thus *δευτεραγωνιστής* (=? *comes rei militaris*) of *Fr.* 53 (from the *Suda*) becomes the more conventional *ὑποστράτηγος* in Zos. 4,33,1.

59. E.g. *Fr.* 38, *νοτάριος*; *Fr.* 82, *βικάριος*.

60. E.g. *Fr.* 72, *ὕπατος* (cf. *Fr.* 82); 82, *ἀνθύπατος*, *αὐλῆς ἔπαρχος*, *στρατηγός*. See also from the *Suda*, *Frr.* 47; 80.

61. E.g. *Fr.* 39 (from the *Suda*), *τὴν βασιλικὴν γλῶσσαν ἐπεπίστευτο* = *magister memoriae*.

62. *Vit. Soph.* 7,5,3, *αὐλῆς ἔπαρχος*; 9,2,3, *ἀνθύπατος*; 10,7,5, *στρατοπεδάρχη*.

63. It offers *Χριστιανοί*, *ἐπισκόποι*, *τελεταί* (of Christian rites), and *οἱ καλούμενοι μοναχοί*.

64. E.g. *οἱ τὰ φαιὰ ἱμάτια ἔχοντες*, of monks (7,3,5). Further examples and discussion in Bartelink 1969 pp.296ff.

65. Numbers in *Frr.* 13; 20; 42; 47; 86.

66. See p.6.

67. Zosimus 2,22,4; 26,1; 30,3 and 5, all in stades.

68. See p.28.

69. Cf. *Fr.* 15, on the rhetor Eunapius (not the historian), where the material is oriented to the person, not the historical events. Schmid *RE* VI, 1 col. 1123 calls Eunapius' approach *persönlich-biographische*.

70. This passage is from *Vit. Soph.* 7,6,13. *Fr.* 39 and Zosimus 4,15,2 suggest a similar attitude in the History.

71. This is suggested by *Vit. Soph.* 6,3,8, where it is remarked that Constantine's death, which was described in the History, was a punishment for his honouring of Ablabius, and by Zos. 2,39,1, where the statement that Constantine died of disease follows immediately after the words *τῷ πολιτεύματι λυμηνάμενος* ("having grieved the state").

72. So the articles at *Frr.* 63 and 66. At the end of the former it is stated that much more vituperation of Rufinus can be found in the

History.

73. Other characterisations at, e.g., *Frr.* 38; 44; 60 (from the *Excerpta*), and 4; 11; 36; 53; 66-69; 77 (from the *Suda*).

74. Sexual debauchery also at *Frr.* 4; 76; 77; 84; 89. The prudish Ammianus, by contrast, hardly mentions such things. For examples of anti-Egyptian prejudice see n.108.

75. Also *Frr.* 12; 71.

76. *Sententiae* at *Frr.* 14,6; 18,1 and 2; 31; 46-49; 56; 59; 71 *ad fin.*; 73 *ad fin.* Proverbs at *Frr.* 1 (p.12); 7a; 22,4; 60. Some of the short fragments might be from speeches.

77. For *exempla* see pp.12-13 and n.51.

78. Cf. also the rhetoric on Timasius in *Fr.* 70. I am not suggesting that Eunapius alone among the late historians used such platitudes. They all did to a greater or lesser degree. But the better historians, such as Ammianus and Priscus, usually made them much more to the point.

79. Opelt 1965 pp.931f.; Cracco Ruggini 1972 p.200 n.47; 1973 p.164 n.80; Kaegi 1968 pp.79-81.

80. See Momigliano 1972 pp.1-18; Cracco Ruggini 1977 pp.107-26.

81. *Frr.* 24; 26; 27.

82. *Vit. Soph.* 7,3,9-13; and cf. Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.252f. At *Vit. Soph.* 5,2,1-9, Eunapius is also rather sceptical of a miracle attributed to Iamblichus.

83. This is strongly implied in *Frr.* 1 and 8.

84. Whom Eunapius says (*Vit. Soph.* 16,2,10) he never met and towards whom he seems rather cool.

85. See p.159 n.50.

86. Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.207-16 and esp. n.64.

87. Cf. Cracco Ruggini 1972 p.200 n.47.

88. Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.216ff.

89. Cracco Ruggini 1977 p.122.

90. See de Labriolle 1942 pp.365-67.

91. *Vit. Soph.* 6,5,2, a criticism also in Ammianus (21,16,18).

92. *Vit. Soph.* 6,11,2. The reference is to Theophilus, bishop of Alexandria, as the leader of the polluted ones. This naturally suggests the whole Christian community, although it is possible that Eunapius merely meant the monks.

93. *Vit. Soph.* 6,11,6-8; 7,3,5.

94. Praise of pagan worship is found in *Frr.* 60; 80; 82. The Hierax attacked in *Fr.* 83 is not the Christian of Socrates *HE* 7,13.

95. On this difficult fragment see n.64 on pp.161-62.

96. Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.288-93.

97. On Ammianus see d'Aelia 1962 pp.370-92, who overstates his anti-Christian bias.

98. Cracco Ruggini (1972 p.276) remarks that in some respects Eunapius' work can be called pagan ecclesiastical history.

99. Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.205-07 and n.60.

100. Kaegi (1968 p.81) suggests that Eunapius in *Vit. Soph.* 6,2, 3-7 dates the decline of the state from the murder of Sopater. But the analogy used there is the death of Socrates and the decline of Athens, and the parallel is drawn with Byzantium/Constantinople whose bad site and resultant famines are the subject. Certainly, Eunapius' statements here are generalised and sweeping, but it is typical of him to say such things about subjects of local interest.

101. Luxurious living at 2,32,1.

102. Eunapius makes a general statement to this effect in *Fr.* 48 (cf. Kaegi 1968 p.84).

103. Contrast Priscus' hostility to governmental attempts to shift some of the tax-burdens (see p.64).

104. E.g. Zos. 4,28; 33,3-4; 41; 50.

105. Zos. 4,30-31; 33,2-3; 39,5; 40.

106. Cracco Ruggini 1972 p.273.

107. Since the *Suda* Φ 681 says that he was a Hellene by religion, Eunapius' expression seems to refer to the ancestral Greek religion, not that of the Germans.

108. Anti-Egyptian sentiments at, e.g., *Fr.* 84; *Vit. Soph.* 6,3,1-2; 10,7,10-12 (they are common in other writers also; cf. Ammianus 22, 6). On Eunapius' attitude towards various nationalities see Opelt 1969 pp.28-36.

109. See p.8.

110. *Fr.* 23, in praise of Julian's excellence as Emperor, elicited an indignant counterblast from a Christian reader, which Müller prints *ad loc.*

111. Phrases such as "like a god" (*θεόν τινα*, *Fr.* 12) are mere rhetorical extravagances. They are used liberally of various people in the *Lives*.

112. This is assumed from *Vit. Soph.* 23,2,7-8, where Chrysanthius' moderation in this is praised.

113. Eunapius also used *ὑπομνήματα* for the *Lives of the Sophists* (1,5). Oribasius is sometimes limited as a source for the Persian expedition, but *Fr.* 8 suggests that he supplied material for the whole reign.

114. On Oribasius see Baldwin 1975 pp.85-97.

115. In her introduction to the Loeb edition of the *Lives of the Sophists*, p.320.

116. On Chrysanthius see *PLRE* I 'Chrysanthius'.

117. On Prohaeresius see Ensslin 'Prohaeresios' 1 in *RE* XXIII, 1 cols. 30-32. At *Vit. Soph.* 10,7,1-8 Eunapius speaks of his high favour with Constans, but this may not mean too much in respect of his access to useful information.

118. On Tuscianus see *PLRE* I 'Tuscianus' 1, where he is hesitantly distinguished from the *assessor* on the ground that the former is called "The Lydian", while the *Suda* calls the latter "The Phrygian". But, as *PLRE* itself suggests, Lydia might have been his birthplace and Phrygia where he taught. A parallel is *Suda* A 3752, where Arbazacius is called an Isaurian yet said in the same article to be from Armenia.

119. Cf. *Fr.* 57 which also remarks on the difficulty of obtaining information about the West.

120. Paschoud 1975 *passim*. The argument is diffuse, but put most succinctly on pp.150ff.

121. Cf. A.D.E. Cameron 1968 p.98. Paschoud feels (*op.cit.* p.98 n.1) that he himself has proven that it must be from Eunapius. I do not agree.

122. Discussed by Paschoud, *op.cit.* pp.79-93.

123. See p.6.

124. See my discussion of these passages on pp.9-10.

125. See pp.6-7.

126. *Frr.* 14,7; 24. Cf. Zosimus 3,10,3-4, who also mentions the *Misopogon* at 3,11,5. Recently Clover (1979 pp.65-68) has suggested that Eunapius made use of the *Gainia* of Eusebius Scholasticus. This is itself not unlikely, but Clover's argument, which is based on his acceptance as Eunapian of the anonymous *Suda* article Λ 480 (on which see n.65 on p.162), is not well-founded.

127. Barnes 1978 pp.114-19.

128. See pp.3-5.

129. The *terminus post quem* derives from the reference at 21,10,6 to the urban prefecture of Aurelius Victor (388-89), which could, of course, be a later insert.

130. Libanius *Ep.* 1063 was addressed to Ammianus in 392 and refers to the successful readings of his History at Rome.

131. His presence in Rome at that time is assumed from 14,6,19, where he complains that foreigners were ejected from the city during a famine. It is further assumed that the famine was one of those recorded for 383 or 384, and that Ammianus was one of those ejected.

132. Material in the digressions on Rome (14,6; 28,4) and the

account of the attacks on the Roman aristocracy under Valentinian I (28,1) must have been gathered in the West.

133. Cf., e.g., *Vit. Soph.* 4,1,7-8, where Porphyry's own account of his suicidal depression is seriously distorted, and 4,2,5, where the number of Marcella's children is wrongly reported.

NOTES TO CHAPTER 2: OLYMPIODORUS OF THEBES

1. Biography in Haedicke *RE* XVIII, 1 cols. 201-07; Thompson 1944 pp.43ff.; Matthews 1970 pp.79ff. Matthews would place his birth close to 380 on the assumption that his active life fell in his thirties and forties.

2. A.D.E. Cameron 1965 pp.476 and 497.

3. Livrea 1976 pp.97-123. A line of verse, apparently his own, is quoted in *Fr.* 43.

4. Sirago 1970 pp.20f.; Cracco Ruggini 1973 pp.174-78.

5. *Fr.* 32. On the text of this fragment see Frantz 1966 pp.377-80.

6. In Photius, *Bibl. cod.* 214.

7. Examples are Priscus (see p.48), Eustathius (Eunapius *Vit. Soph.* 6,5,5-10; Ammianus 17,5,15), Sergius and Constantianus (Procopius *Wars* 2,24,3-4), Procopius (Procopius *Wars* 8,30,3), and Epigenes (Priscus *Fr.* 1).

8. So Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.74.

9. *Fr.* 18, on which see n.17 on p.163.

10. These travels are described in *Frr.* 28; 32; 36; 37, on which see n.21 on p.164. The view of Sirago (1970 p.67) that he lived for a long time in Athens has found no support.

11. F.M. Snowden (1970 p.138) suggests that the Blemmyes were interested in Olympiodorus as a pagan because at the time they were feeling threatened by the expansion of Christianity into the area.

12. See Matthews 1975 p.383. There is no categorical statement that Olympiodorus ever went to Italy or Rome, but the material in *Frr.* 43 and 44 suggests a visit at least to Rome. The duration of the visit is disputed. Haedicke (*art.cit.* at n.1) thinks it long, Thompson (*art.cit.* at n.1) thinks it short.

13. Henry in his edition of the *Bibliotheca* I p.166 n.2.

14. Matthews (1970 p.81) is a little too negative in his view of the utility of Photius' summary.

15. Cf. Matthews 1970 pp.81f. and 86f.

16. E.g. 4,43,1; 5,33,1; 45,5. This lack of first-person references might seem strange in a writer like Olympiodorus who included so

much of his own experiences in his work, and perhaps Zosimus edited them out. But perhaps Olympiodorus referred to himself in the third person.

17. Use of Olympiodorus by these writers is discussed on pp.108-109.

18. The view of, e.g., Haedicke *RE* XVIII, 1 col. 202.

19. Thompson 1944 p.44.

20. References at n.110 below. A theory on the development of the story of Boniface's role in the crossing of the Vandals is put forward by Nagy 1967 pp.161-64.

21. Bury 1958 I pp.247f.

22. See *PLRE* II 'Leontius' 6 and cf. Kaegi 1968 pp.65f. Cyrus' career is set out in *PLRE* II 'Cyrus' 7.

23. See Stevens 1957 p.317. Zosimus (6,3,1) seems to place the beginning of the invasions in 406.

24. Matthews 1970 pp.87f.

25. Zosimus 5,26 could well have come from an account of Stilicho's career. The defeat of Radagaisus would have been one of the successes noted by Photius.

26. Olympiodorus probably treated the first two sieges as one for the purposes of causation.

27. So Rosenstein 1862 p.168; Haedicke *RE* XVIII, 1 cols. 203-04. Cf. *Bibl. cod.* 78, where Photius breaks chronological order in his summary of Malchus' History.

28. Matthews 1970 p.87.

29. So Thompson 1944 p.49.

30. Consular dating at *Frr.* 12 and 34; Zosimus 5,28,1; 34,7; 42,8; 6,2,1; 3,1. Roman calendar at *Frr.* 24 and 41; Zosimus 5,34,7.

31. References at n.16. There are forward references in, e.g., *Frr.* 15 and 34.

32. Photius, *Bibl. cod.* 80 vol. I p.166: *οὕτως ἄμορφος καὶ ἀνίδεος καὶ αὐτῷ τοῦ λόγου ὁ χαρακτὴρ κατεφαίνετο*, which Henry, however, translates with reference to style. But on p.202 of the same volume he describes the work as "without charm and without form". For a modern complaint see Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.73.

33. Photius actually calls the work "historical books" (*ἱστορικοὶ λόγοι*), which is not a title. Probably the failure of Constantine Porphyrogenitus' excerptors to include the work was a recognition also that it was not a true history.

34. Pointed out by Matthews 1975 pp.382f. and 385. Not coincidentally, Matthew's book follows the same line of development.

35. See Zosimus 5,30,3; 34,1; 36,2-3; 6,2,3-6; 13,2. I have ignored

Fr. 18 which is digressional.

36. I have assumed the position of the revolt of Heraclian from Philostorgius 12,6.

37. This preparatory use of digressions appears in other late historians, e.g. Ammianus 15,9-11; 23,6. Were the last two books set aside for a special, perhaps rather encomiastic, treatment of the campaign and return to Rome? This might explain why there were twenty-two books rather than two decads.

38. From this structure it is clear that the fall of Rome in 410 was a dominant element in Olympiodorus' thinking (cf. Matthews 1975 p. 385).

39. On the role of Placidia's western supporters see de Lepper 1941 pp.43f. Matthews (1970 p.80) overemphasises the 'eastern' nature of the ending of the History.

40. Of the seventeen fragments of the first decad (2-18), ten deal with affairs in Italy (2-6; 8-10; 13-14), three in Gaul (12; 16; 17), and four are digressional (7; 11; 15; 18).

41. Of the twenty-eight fragments of the last twelve books (19-46), twelve deal with Rome and Italy (23; 25; 34; 38-46, some being digressional), ten with Gaul and Spain (19-22; 24; 26; 29-31; 35), and six are from other digressions (27; 28; 32-33; 36-37). The last fragment to mention the Visigoths is 35 which notes the death of Wallia. No mention is made of Theoderic I. Although it is unlikely that he was completely ignored, Olympiodorus' information may well here have become sketchy.

42. The last nine fragments deal with Italian affairs.

43. Notably *Fr.* 33, and also Zosimus 5,27,1 (where Asinius Quadratus is named as the source, probably following Olympiodorus – cf. Baldwin 1979 pp.57f.); 27,2-3.

44. A work such as the History of Frigeridus Renatus, one passage of which is preserved by Gregory of Tours (*Hist. Franc.* 2,8), could have been used if available. But Matthews (1970 p.90) is correct to reject the possibility that Olympiodorus made large-scale use of a lost Latin work.

45. Matthews 1970 p.80.

46. On this difficult fragment see n.20 on p.164.

47. Suggested by Matthews 1970 pp.89f.

48. Ataulf himself is said to have instigated the marriage (*Fr.* 22), but Oost (1968 p.128 n.153) plausibly suggests that Candidianus expedited it, seeing the advantages. *PLRE* II 'Candidianus' 2 takes this Candidianus to be a different person from the co-commander with Aspar and Ardabur, but concedes that they might be identical.

49. Philostorgius 12,13; Socrates 7,23; Procopius *Wars* 3,3,6-9.

50. Oost 1968 pp.141ff.

51. Thompson 1944 p.47.

52. Since a fair number of them are inserted after *Fr.* 31, when Placidia left the Visigoths, perhaps they were also used as 'padding' to make up for a dearth of material on Gaul and Spain after 416.

53. Cf. *Fr.* 18, on the mission to the Huns, which Photius says ended the first decad.

54. On the protective statues see later p.39.

55. Discussions of the language in Haedicke *RE* XVIII, 1 cols. 202 and 207.

56. Cf. Eunapius (*Vit. Soph.* 10,7,11-12) on the Egyptians' love of poetry.

57. Photius says that he adorned (κοσμεῖν) the work with prefaces.

58. One suspects the use, for dramatic purpose, of the topos of fear of sea-travel, since in his description of another sea-voyage (*Fr.* 36) Olympiodorus told how he suffered much and barely survived it.

59. *Fr.* 16; Sozomen 9,13. Cf. *Fr.* 17, where Photius' remark that Sarus was captured by lassoos suggests a dramatic account of an heroic fight.

60. Short cries are noted at *Frr.* 28 and 41 (cf. Zos. 5,29,9; 6,11, 2).

61. Direct: Zos. 5,29,7; 40,3-4. Indirect: Zos. 5,31,4-5; 40,1; 43,1; 48,4; 6,1,2.

62. Matthews 1970 p.88.

63. This is not a full list. See also Matthews 1970 pp.85ff.

64. Distances, *Fr.* 16 and cf. Zos. 5,31,1 and 48,2 (at *Fr.* 42 stades are used). Sums of money, *Frr.* 5; 20; 23; 44. On the names of provinces see Matthews 1970 p.86.

65. So Thompson 1944 p.43 and 1948 p.58; Harmatta 1952 pp. 290-95. Against them, convincingly, Maenchen-Helfen 1973 pp.195-97.

66. E.g. δομέστικοι, 5,32,4; 36,3. Μάγιστρος, 5,32,6. Πατρίκιος, 5,47,1.

67. Qualified terms at 5,32,6; 34,11 (cf. 40,2).

68. Latin with Greek translation at 5,29,2; 41,7; 6,11,2. Matthews (1970 p.87) suggests that the acclamation said to have been made at Rome in the time of John and preserved in Greek by Photius (*Fr.* 41) was originally in Latin also.

69. By Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.459.

70. The 'error' in *Fr.* 25, where the birthrate at Rome is put at 14,000 per day, can be emended by reading τετάχθαι for τετέχθαι (so Henry). But the figure is still very high.

71. Discussed by Thompson 1944 p.50 and Matthews 1970 p.85.

72. Photius, *Bibl. cod.* 214.

73. Suggested by Thompson 1944 p.43.

74. Suggested by Sirago 1970 p.4.

75. Cracco Ruggini 1973 pp.174-78.

76. Sozomen (9,6) mentions this incident but suppresses the information that Innocentius was prepared to assent.

77. Photius introduces the fragment with the phrase Λιβάνιόν τινα τερατολογεῖ, which could mean "he tells of the marvels worked by a certain Libanius", and goes on to say that Libanius had the deepest possible knowledge of the mysteries.

78. On this fragment see n.16 on p.163.

79. On this fragment see n.20 on p.164.

80. There are also two portents mentioned in *Frr.* 34 and 41, and there is praise of Attalus' consul, who was a pagan (Zos. 6,7,4). No weight can be put on these.

81. There are neutral references to clerics in *Frr.* 16 and 26.

82. Matthews 1975 p.284. Zosimus (5,32,1) specifically attacks Olympius' Christian piety as hypocritical.

83. The anecdote in Procopius (*Wars* 3,2,25-26) about Honorius and his pet chicken, even if it did not originate with Olympiodorus (and it is certainly the sort of story he might have liked), well illustrates this aspect of the Emperor's character.

84. Cf. Sozomen 8,25; 9,4.

85. See p.32.

86. Olympius, *Frr.* 2 and 8; Zos. 5,32,35-36; 44-45. Jovius, *Fr.* 13; Zos. 6,47-51; Sozomen 9,7. Eusebius and Allobich, *Fr.* 13.

87. Oost 1968 pp.143ff.

88. *Fr.* 13; Zosimus 6,8,1; 9,1 and 3; 12,2.

89. The MSS give the name of the man who died fighting in this way as Asarus. Despite the doubts of Henry (Photius *Bibl. cod.* 80, I p.172 n.3) this should be changed to Sarus. Zosimus 5,34,1; 36,2; Sozomen 9,9 (all from Olympiodorus) also stress Sarus' warlike qualities.

90. E.g. Sidonius Apollinaris *Paneg. Avit.* 246ff.; *Paneg. Maj.* 217ff.; Procopius *Wars* 3,7,6-10.

91. The word here, προόδοις, must refer to public processions (cf. Herodian 2,4,1) since in this passage, as in *Fr.* 34, Olympiodorus draws a contrast between Constantius' unease in public and relaxation in private.

92. E.g. Ammianus 16,10,2-17; Procopius *Wars* 4,9,1-12; Theo-

phylact 1,2 and 10.

93. Cf. Zosimus 5,26,2; 29,7; 30,1, who, however, omits the claim that Illyricum had been attached to the West.

94. Cf. Stevens 1957 pp.318ff. Matthews (1975 pp.307-09) accepts the explanation.

95. The plot of Valentinus in 369, mentioned by Ammianus (28,3, 3-6), might have been a similar reaction to the invasions of Britain by the Picts, Scots, and Attacotti. But he treats it in purely personal terms.

96. See p.32.

97. So Matthews 1970 p.95, who rightly rejects the view of Thompson (1944 p.50) that the historian is condemning the social inequality of the imbalance of wealth.

98. So Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.69.

99. See pp.32-33.

100. Costanzi (1904 p.612) argued that the information that Theodosius I left Illyricum to the West was an addition by Photius. But it seems highly unlikely that Photius would have reproduced the Stilichonian view when most of the sources available to him were hostile to Stilicho.

101. On this view of Stilicho see Demougeot 1951 pp.422ff. and n. 346; Matthews 1975 pp.278-83. One would have liked to know Sarus' view on the matter, but unfortunately at this point (5,34,1) Zosimus' summary is very unclear.

102. This charge might have been unfair. See Oost 1968 pp.143f.

103. Her piety is stressed by Oost *op.cit. passim.* Olympiodorus would certainly have found her demand for the death of the magician Libanius (*Fr.* 38) unacceptable.

104. This is strongly suggested by Orosius (*Adv. Pag.* 7,43,3-7), who says that his information came from a man who was present in Narbo at the time of the wedding.

105. Oost 1968 pp.113f., with further bibliography.

106. Olympiodorus says (*Fr.* 34) that when Honorius proclaimed Constantius Augustus in 421 he did so unwillingly, which suggests that Constantius forced the issue.

107. The arguments of Oost (1968 p.114 n.108) that this law is not anti-German are not convincing.

108. Oost 1968 pp.169-75.

109. By Oost 1968 p.170.

110. Rejection of this report with bibliography in Oost 1968 p.223 n.58.

111. *Chron. Gall. s.a.* 433.

112. Matthews 1975 p.386.

113. This statement is, of course, tentative, since we know nothing certain of the views of his sources.

NOTES TO CHAPTER 3: PRISCUS OF PANIUM

1. Birthplace, *Suda* Π 2301. Region, Theophanes *a.m.* 5961; Malalas 14 p.358. Full available biography in Kuranc 1958 pp.7f. and Ensslin *RE* XXIII, 1 col. 9.

2. If his History ended with the death of Leo, as is likely, he survived to at least 474.

3. So Moravcsik 1958 I p.480. Kuranc (1958 p.7) suggests 405-410.

4. Rhetor, Evagrius 1,17; 2,16. Sophist, *Suda* Π 2301. The *Exc. de Leg. Gent.* (p.121,2) and the *Exc. de Leg. Rom.* (p.575,9) call him both.

5. The identification of these two Maximini and the suggestion that Priscus was a *scriniarius* are in Ensslin *loc.cit.* (at n.1), and 1926-27 pp.2-4 and 8. Baldwin (1980 p.21) doubts that Priscus was a *scriniarius* and suggests that his connection with Maximinus arose through work for the commission on the Code. I prefer to follow *PLRE* II 'Maximinus' 11, which keeps the military man distinct from the commissioner.

6. Cf. Ensslin 1926-27 p.8. Maximinus and Bigilas were the official envoys. In *Fr.* 8 p.78 Priscus says "Maximinus by his entreaties persuaded me to join him on this embassy", which suggests unofficial status (cf. Baldwin 1980 p.22). Attila had secretaries sent him by Aetius and presumably properly educated, so that Priscus would have been useful.

7. Ensslin (1926-27 pp.3f.) suggested correspondence with Pope Leo, Thompson (1948 p.221) business connected with Honoria's intrigue with Attila. Both could have been combined, though Leo might merely have taken his chance to send letters with the returning messengers. *PLRE* II 'Maximinus' 10 doubts that Leo's intermediary was the same as the envoy to Attila on the ground that Leo terms the former *filium*, whereas the latter was probably a pagan and would not have been so termed. But there is no clear evidence that Priscus' Maximinus was a pagan (see below p.59), and the doubt is not well-founded. Thompson (*loc.cit.*) accepted Niebuhr's conjecture of *πρεσβευόμενοι* for the MS reading *πρεσβενόμενον* in *Fr.* 16, which would thus indicate Priscus and one or more companions and specify that they were on an official mission. But the reading of the MSS refers to the son of the Frankish king, and although he is described as a young boy, there is no reason why he should not have been sent with others on a friendly embassy. The text says that Aetius and Valentinian III lavished gifts on him, which was the usual treatment of foreign ambassadors.

8. John of Antioch *Fr.* 199,1. In the identification of this Maximinus with the envoy to Attila, which is not certain, I follow Thompson (*loc.cit.* at n.7) and *PLRE* II 'Maximinus' 11.

9. *Frr.* 20-21. In *Fr.* 20 Priscus calls himself τοῦ συγγραφέως. This does not, as Gordon (1960 p.14) thinks, describe him as Maximinus' "secretary". It identifies him as the historian.

10. Maximinus' death, *Fr.* 21. Priscus at Alexandria, Evagrius 2,5 = *Fr.* 22 (that Priscus advised Florus depends on the assumption that the subject of the verb ἐσηγήσει in the last sentence of the fragment is Priscus himself).

11. *Fr.* 26; Ensslin *RE* XXIII, 1 col. 9. Baldwin (1980 p.25) points out that the evidence that Priscus was *assessor* is not entirely secure.

12. The MSS read Ἄτταλον which is usually emended to Ἀττήλαν. Kuranc (1958 pp.9-11) proposed to keep the MSS reading and suggested that Priscus wrote two works, one a Byzantine History in seven books, and the other a history in one book of the western usurper Priscus Attalus. Kuranc's reasons for this suggestion, the coincidence of the name Priscus and the availability to the historian of material when he was in Rome in 450, are hardly compelling, and there is no trace of such a work.

13. The suggestion is Niebuhr's, supported by Romano 1947 p.65 n.1. Evagrius' description of the work (1,17) stresses the importance of Attila; and Baldwin (1980 pp.25f.) suggests that the part of the History on his career was detached from the rest of the work and circulated separately, hence the two titles.

14. E.g. Nicephorus Callistus (14,57) calls Attila "the Goth, descended from the tribe of the Gepids".

15. The view of Moravcsik (1958 I p.481) that he was the sole source is contradicted by the existence of non-Priscan material in Jordanes.

16. For a brief description of Candidus' History see pp.124-25.

17. This sentence and the rest of this paragraph summarise the discussion on pp.113-18.

18. On the date of accession see the discussions cited at n.44 on pp.167f.

19. Moravcsik 1958 I p.480; Kuranc 1958 p.55.

20. It could be countered that the first part of the History was lost after a short while, but that is pushing conjecture too far.

21. The opinion of, e.g., Ensslin (*RE* XXIII, 1 col. 9) and Kuranc (1958 p.56), who, however, hold that the History ended in 474.

22. *Loc.cit.* at n.19 above.

23. Kuranc 1958 p.57.

24. Cf. Thompson 1948 p.63.

25. Bury 1958 II pp.418f., supported recently by Baldwin 1980 pp.26f.

26. See p.23.

27. Fugitives, *Fr.* 8 pp.77 and 78. *Litrai*, *Frr.* 1; 5; 7; 8 p.95; 12; 14; 28.

28. Βαρβαρικῆς πολυπληθίας, *Fr.* 2; cf. *Frr.* 5 (ἄπειρον πλῆθος) and 8 p.90 (πολλοῦ πλήθους). Numbers of ships are given in *Frr.* 27 and 42.

29. Mommsen in the introduction to his text of Jordanes p.xxxv; Thompson 1948 pp.49f. I am not certain that they are correct, for the opening sentence of *Get.* 35,182, where this figure appears, is closely linked to section 181 which is not from Priscus.

30. E.g. *Fr.* 8 pp.79, 90 and 91.

31. *Frr.* 7; 8 pp.78, 84 and 90. A distance in stades is given at *Fr.* 8 p.79.

32. On this problem see Thompson 1948 pp.221f. and Browning 1953 pp.143-45, where further bibliography is given.

33. Κοιαίστωρ, *Fr.* 1. Μαγίστρος, *Frr.* 7; 8 p.77; 13; 26. Κόμης, *Fr.* 8 p.84. Πατρίκιος, *Frr.* 13; 31; 32. The hybrid ἔπαρχος πραιτορίων of *Fr.* 3a (from the *Paschal Chronicle*) is an expression not of Priscus but of an intermediary. The list of terms discussed in this paragraph is not exhaustive.

34. So Thompson 1948 pp.99f., comparing Evagrius 2,2.

35. Ἀγγελιαφόροι (*Frr.* 7; 8 p.78) for the more usual μαγιστριάνοι.

36. In *Fr.* 42 the term ἔξαρχος is used of Basiliscus as the commanding general of the expedition against Gaiseric in 368. That is a usage not of Priscus but of Theophanes (*a.m.* 5961), who preserves the passage, or of an intermediary.

37. Thompson 1948 p.89 (and *PLRE* II 'Theodoulus' 2); Ensslin *RE* V, A, 2 col. 1966. In *Fr.* 20 Maximinus, who was no more than a military count, is called στρατηγός, the usual term for a military *magister.*

38. So Harmatta 1952 pp.297-300, followed by Altheim 1962 pp.280ff. Cf. Thompson 1948 pp.163-67.

39. Maenchen-Helfen 1973 pp.192-94. Bornmann (1974 p.114) points out that Priscus' usage is comparable to Herodotus' employment of the same word of the Persian nobles.

40. Harmatta 1952 pp.296f.

41. The only Latin terms used are Ἰταλία (*Frr.* 15; 16; 19; and often) and Γραικός (*Fr.* 8 p.86).

42. Αὐσωνίος is often used of things in the West (e.g. *Fr.* 8 pp. 86, 92 and 93).

43. E.g. *Frr.* 25; 31. Persians and Parthians are distinguished in *Fr.* 33.

44. General estimates of the language in Mommsen's edition of Jordanes p.xxxv; Ensslin *RE* XXIII, 1 cols. 9f.; Kuranc 1958 pp.65-82 (an analysis of the language of *Fr.* 8). See also Baldwin 1980 pp.50-52.

45. Examples in Bornmann 1974 pp.112-14.

46. Thompson *CQ* 1945 pp.92-94.

47. This summarises my arguments against Thompson in *Phoenix* 1972 pp.22-26. Cf., with more examples of Thucydidean usage, Baldwin 1980 pp.53-56.

48. See Alföldi 1932 pp.232-38; Maenchen-Helfen 1973 pp.278-80.

49. See Moravcsik 1930 pp.54-60, and, on the Avar gryphon-motifs, Szadeczky-Kardos 1972 pp.97f.

50. See Benedicty 1964 pp.1-8; Moravcsik 1966 pp.374f.

51. So Thompson 1948 p.10. Benedicty (1964 p.1 n.3) points out that Priscus' phrase *βασίλειοι Σκύθαι* is also Herodotean, but the use does not affect the historicity of his narrative.

52. Short, *Frr.* 8 pp.80, 81, 83, 88-89, 95; 12; 18. Possibly long, *Frr.* 7; 37; 39. There is the summary of a letter sent by Theodosius to Attila at *Fr.* 8 pp.77f.

53. On the Priscan origin of this material see p.115.

54. On the song of praise of Attila see Thompson 1948 pp.159f. On the funeral ceremonies in general see Schröder 1922 pp.240-44. On the non-Priscan origin of other material in Jordanes see pp.113-14.

55. Bornmann 1975 p.38. On the literary character of the speeches see Baldwin 1980 pp.40f.

56. By Thompson 1948 pp.184-87.

57. Cf. the famous admission of Ataulf that his Visigoths could not be constrained by law in Orosius *Adv. Pag.* 7,43,5-6.

58. The arming of Roman citizens, forbidden by the *lex Iulia de re publica*, had in the last half-century been sanctioned by the western Emperors Honorius (Stevens 1957 pp.334f.) and Valentinian III (*Nov. Val.* 9, AD 440).

59. Cf. Thompson 1948 pp.184-87.

60. *Nov. Marc.* 1,1,7 (= *CJ* 7,51,4).

61. The bibliography on this subject is huge. A comprehensive discussion will be found in F. Dvornik, *Early Byzantine and Christian Political Philosophy* Washington D.C. (1966) II chs. 10 and 11.

62. Thus I disagree with Thompson (1948 p.185) who regards the Greek's speech as the authentic voice of "the humble merchants and

traders of the later Empire".

63. Ammianus *locc.citt.* on p.57; Procopius *Wars* 3,9,20-23; 4,15,30-39 and 54-59; 8,19,9-20.

64. This moralising and its subject are traditional amongst late historians. Cf. especially Ammianus 31,5,14.

65. See pp.63f.

66. Ensslin 1926-27 pp.8f.

67. Thompson *Hermathena* 1946 p.29.

68. E.g. Bury 1958 II p.412 n.2; Thompson 1948 p.221.

69. So Snowden 1970 pp.138f.

70. Things pagan are handled quite neutrally at *Frr.* 8 pp.91 and 93; 21.

71. Evagrius 2,13; Nicephorus Callistus 15,21.

72. Other portents, possibly or certainly from Priscus, in John of Antioch *Fr.* 201,5; Jordanes *Get.* 42,220-21; 49,255.

73. Αἵρεσις, *Fr.* 24; ἐπίσκοπος, *Frr.* 2; 24; etc. (Κληρικόν of *Fr.* 3a and the Christian terminology at the beginning of Evagrius 2,5 were introduced by the Christian users of Priscus.) Less precise references to things Christian at *Frr.* 8 pp.78 and 85; 24; 34.

74. See n.63 on p.170.

75. In my opinion Jordanes' account of the battle of Mauriacus is not from Priscus (see p.113).

76. See p.54.

77. Jordanes *Get.* 42,219-22; Procopius *Wars* 3,4,30-35.

78. See pp.64-65.

79. Thus *Frr.* 25-26 and 34 are the precursors of the long sections devoted to Armenia, Lazica, and the neighbouring lands by Procopius and succeeding historians.

80. Crossing of the Huns, Jordanes *Get.* 24,123-25; Procopius *Wars* 8,5,5-12; cf. Agathias 5,11 and Cedrenus I p.547. Scrithofinni, Jordanes *Get.* 3,21; Procopius *Wars* 6,15,16-23.

81. *Suda* X 144.

82. Respectively, *Fr.* 8 pp.82f., 85, 89, 91-93.

83. E.g. *Frr.* 5; 6; 13; 28; 30. The figures are given in *Frr.* 1 and 5.

84. See esp. *Fr.* 8 p.94, where Constantius, Attila's secretary, offers his master gold if he will press Theodosius to give him the rich wife who had earlier been promised.

85. *Fr.* 1 and Troplong 1908 p.545.

86. See *Fr.* 8 p.90, where the envoy of the western Romans voices this fear.

87. Cf. *Fr.* 8 pp.90f. and the *Suda* K 2123, M 405, which might be Priscan and which illustrate both Attila's ascendency and his greed for gold.

88. Fear of usurpers, John of Antioch *Fr.* 199,1 (cf. Priscus *Fr.* 14). Surrender of Honoria, John of Antioch *Fr.* 199,2. Bad officials, John of Antioch *Fr.* 194; *Suda* Θ 145. Eunuchs, *Suda loc.cit.*

89. E.g. *Frr.* 7; 8 pp.77, 80, 82, 95; 12; 13.

90. Greed for gold, John of Antioch *Fr.* 198; cf. *Suda* Θ 145. Hatred, John of Antioch *loc.cit.* At the beginning of *Fr.* 13 the remark about Chrysaphius that "all united to bear him good will and support" I take to be sarcastic. Baldwin (1980 pp.35-37), who considers, wrongly in my view, that Priscus is quite friendly towards Chrysaphius, takes this remark at face value.

91. *Fr.* 14. Attila, too, made concessions, returning to the Romans the land south of the Danube which had been ceded to him in 447 and dropping the matter of the fugitives. Thompson (1950 p.67) suggests that by this date (late 449 or early 450) Attila had already decided to attack the West and he wanted a stable rear on the lower Danube. But by getting the high-ranking envoys Anatolius and Nomus, whom he had wanted, he also scored important diplomatic points.

92. Heraclius, John of Antioch *Fr.* 201,2 and 4. Antiochus, Theophanes *a.m.* 5936; Malalas, *Chron.* 14 p.361; *Suda* Θ 145; Nicephorus Callistus 14,57.

93. *Fr.* 5; Thompson 1950 pp.72ff. Priscus appears to have assigned an effective political role to the Senate (cf. *Fr.* 1).

94. See Udal'cova 1972 p.196.

95. Procopius *Wars* 3,5,11-17.

96. The view of Gordon 1960 pp.60-69; Thompson 1950 pp.62ff.

97. See K. Guterbock, *Byzanz und Persien in ihrer diplomatischen Beziehungen im Zeitalter Justinians* Berlin (1906) p.34.

98. John of Ephesus *HE* 6,23.

99. E.g. Julian (*Ep. ad Ath.* 280 A-C) and Marcian (see below p. 66). Note that Priscus (*Fr.* 8 p.82) has no criticism for Theodosius' attempt to use gold to detach the tribe of the Akatiri from Attila.

100. See pp.62-63 and cf. *Suda* A 3803 and John of Antioch *Fr.* 206,2, both of which might be Priscan and which place Ardabur in a bad light.

101. At least Priscus makes Attila think this (*Fr.* 8 p.81). Small numbers only seem to have been involved (*Fr.* 8 p.77 mentions 17), and Attila could produce a list of those still not returned (*Fr.* 8 p.81). Ticeliou (1923-24 pp.84-87) thinks that these were merely the nobles and that the rest were demanded but not named. Wirth (1967 pp.41-67) holds that the fugitives demanded in *Fr.* 7 were Roman farmers who had fled the lands south of the Danube which had been ceded to

the Huns, but there is no evidence for this in the texts.

102. This interpretation follows Thompson 1948 pp.87ff. and 1950 pp.58-78.

103. On the notice on Cyrus see pp.116-17.

104. See also pp.67 and 68.

105. Tax arrears, *Nov. Marc.* 2. Abolition of *follis*, *CJ* 12,2,2. Remittance of arrears, *CJ* 12,2,1. Theodore (1,2) says also that he tried to stop the sale of offices.

106. Thompson (1950 pp.69ff.) holds Marcian to have acted rashly and that the Vandals were the greater danger. Courtois (1955 pp. 201ff.), however, says that they were usually considered less important. In my view both were serious threats, so that the eastern government had to act towards both parties according to the circumstances.

107. Jordanes *Get.* 36,194 (from Priscus). Maenchen-Helfen (1973 p.130) rejects Jordanes' assertion that Gaiseric bribed Attila to attack the Visigoths, and certainly the mention of bribery might have been occasioned by the Hun's reputed greed for gold. But Priscus (*Fr.* 15) clearly also thinks that Gaiseric did have a hand in the matter. Such long-distance diplomacy was not impossible: cf. the mission sent by the Ostrogothic king Wittigis to the Persian Khosro I (Procopius *Wars* 4,2).

108. Procopius *Wars* 3,4,1-11; Evagrius 2,1; Nicephorus Callistus 15,1. The story there, which justifies Marcian's treaty with Gaiseric, is probably not from Priscus.

109. *Frr.* 15; 16; John of Antioch *Fr.* 199,2; Theophanes *a.m.* 5943. Maenchen-Helfen (*loc.cit.*) rejects the whole story of Honoria out of hand, but there is a sufficiency of circumstantial details given to support its historicity.

110. Evidence in Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.131.

111. The evidence for this is only in Hydatius *a.* 453. The interpretation is that of *PLRE* II 'Aetius' 8. Maenchen-Helfen (1973 p.138) regards this Aetius as identical with the western general and thus holds that the passage of Hydatius is evidence that Marcian sent help to the West against Attila.

112. Aspar and Leo's elevation, *Suda* A 3803. Murder of Aspar, Evagrius 2,16. Aspar was also not given the prominent role in the failure of Basiliscus in 468 which the Orthodox writers assigned to him.

113. Ulith, *Suda* Υ 583; John of Antioch *Fr.* 205. Revolt of Anagast, Ardabur implicated, John of Antioch *Fr.* 206,2. Murder of Ardabur and Aspar, Evagrius 2,16; Theophanes *a.m.* 5963.

114. Isaurian riots, John of Antioch *Fr.* 206,1. Indacus, John of Antioch *Fr.* 206,2; *Suda* I 368.

115. See pp.51-52.

116. John of Antioch *Fr.* 202.

117. Unless the notice upon Aegidius in Gaul is an insertion by the compilers of the *Exc. de Leg. Gent.*, its inclusion here as an explanatory note suggests that it was not fully dealt with elsewhere.

118. E.g. *Frr.* 7; 8 pp.80 and 84.

119. John of Antioch *Fr.* 201,1-3.

120. John of Antioch *Fr.* 201,3.

121. *Suda* Θ 145. On Sebastian's activities see Clover 1979 pp.68-72.

122. John of Antioch *Fr.* 201,1 and 4-5.

123. Majorian, Ricimer and Avitus, John of Antioch *Fr.* 202; Nicephorus Callistus 15,11. Aegidius and Marcellinus, *Fr.* 30. Ricimer and Anthemius, John of Antioch *Fr.* 207.

124. Cf. Thompson 1948 p.11.

125. Indeed, many of the passages which deal with the West deal with events in which the East was involved (e.g. *Frr.* 24; 29-32; 40).

126. By Thompson 1948 p.12.

127. Attila's greed, n.84 above. Basiliscus' corruption, Theophanes *a.m.* 5961.

128. *Frr.* 15; 16. Cf. Jordanes *Get.* 36,184; John of Antioch *Fr.* 199,2.

129. John of Antioch *Fr.* 201. Cf. Oost 1968 pp.297f.

130. See pp.54-55.

131. Aetius' decline, Oost *loc.cit.* (n.129 above). Attila's retreat, Jordanes *Get.* 42,222; Hydatius *Chron. a.* 453; Maenchen-Helfen 1973 pp.139f. Cf. *Frr.* 37 and 38 where there is no trace of an attempt to explain why Leo first rejected and then agreed to the demands of Dengizich.

132. Cf. the verdict of Bury 1958 II p.418.

NOTES TO CHAPTER 4: MALCHUS OF PHILADELPHIA

1. This paragraph summarises the discussion on pp.124-25.

2. Cedrenus (I p.614), Theophanes (*a.m.* 5966), and Malalas (*Chron.* 14 p.376) all seem to place the onset of Leo's disease at about or after the coronation of Leo II in October 473. Thus, the first two fragments of Malchus should be dated late 473-74. Perhaps Leo's weak responses to both Amorkesos and Theoderic Strabo, which are described in these passages, were related by Malchus to the debilitation of the disease. For in general he seems to have regarded Leo as a successful and terrible ruler (*Suda* Λ 267).

3. The latest is the article Π 137, in which the last event mentioned is the revolt of Marcian in 479.

4. The words which begin *Fr.* 1, "In the seventeenth year of Leo the Butcher everything everywhere seemed to be in confusion", look like the sort of general statement that could have begun the large-scale part of the work. Baldwin (1977 pp.96-98) canvasses the possibility that there were two works, one being the History whose fragments we have, the other a survey from Constantine to Anastasius.

5. On the recapture see Abel 1938 pp.527f. Baldwin (1977 p.91) suggests that the work would have been published after Anastasius had crushed the Isaurians in 496, but could have been in preparation earlier.

6. By Martin 1888 p.11, rejected by Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 851.

7. It has been variously dated to 502, 507 or 512. Bury (1958 I p.453 n.5) would place it in 497.

8. Only *Frr.* 7-9 deal with Basiliscus' usurpation and its aftermath, and of these only the very short 8a is certainly from Malchus.

9. The explanatory phraseology in *Fr.* 1 (εἴτε τιμῆς οὐ τυγχάνων . . . ἢ ἄλλως, cf. *Fr.* 20) looks elegantly Herodotean.

10. On the awkward and poetical style of Candidus see p.125. The only 'tragic' passage amongst Malchus' fragments is *Fr.* 8a where Zeno laments his exile. It is briefer and more to the point than the *Suda* article. Baldwin (1977 pp.105-07) offers an assessment of Malchus' style which differs in some respects from mine, because he regards as Malchan some of the *Suda* articles which I ascribe to Candidus.

11. Κόμης alone is used in the probably Malchan *Suda* article A 3968.

12. In *Fr.* 16 there appear "the collectors of the imperial revenues, whom the Romans call δομέστικοι". The use of δομέστικος of an imperial tax-collector is strange.

13. In the same fragment κατάρχοντα is also used of Strabo. The title στρατηγός is, of course, appropriate for Theoderic, since it refers to his Roman post of *magister militum*.

14. Malchus in fact calls Theoderic the son of Walamir instead of Walamir's less famous brother, Theodemir. The mistake is common in the Byzantine sources, and Martin (1888 p.19 n.1) suggested that it arose from the confusion of the Greek πάτρως (uncle) with πατήρ (father). But perhaps the confusion had a political origin, since in the early part of his career, when Strabo was a dangerous rival and his grip upon the loyalties of his own people was not wholly secure (cf. *Fr.* 15), Theoderic would have derived advantage from a reputation as the son of the famous Walamir. For the sake of accuracy and clarity, I refer to Theoderic the son of Theodemir and Theoderic Strabo (or simply Strabo).

15. E.g. *Frr.* 15; 17; 18 pp.126, 128, 129, 130.

16. Direct, *Frr.* 2a; 3; 4; 18 p.125. Indirect, *Fr.* 14. Mixed, *Frr.* 11; 15.

17. Malchus *Fr.* 18 pp.128f.; Priscus *Fr.* 8 pp.86-88. On Priscus' speeches see pp.55-59.

18. See pp.80-81.

19. See p.83.

20. Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 856; Bury 1958 II p.418 n.2.

21. E.g. Martin 1888 p.8 n.1. The view of Baldwin (1977 pp.94-96) is similar to mine set out below.

22. A.M. and A.D.E. Cameron *CQ* 1964 pp.318f.

23. The first and second terms are from *Fr.* 1, the third and fourth from *Fr.* 18. Most of the *Suda* articles which have been attributed to Malchus and which contain an amount of Christian material, are from elsewhere (see p.125).

24. So Victor of Vita *Hist. Pers. Afric. Prov.* 1,17,51.

25. So the *Suda* M 120.

26. The Camerons (1964 p.319) suggest that Malchus "actually disapproved of Pamprepius' ostentatious and unrepentant paganism". My reading of the fragment suggests that Malchus is describing the disapproval of the inhabitants of the Christian capital, not expressing his own attitude.

27. By Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 853.

28. Cf. Barth 1894 p.68 n.1. On the identification of Adamantius as the prefect, see *PLRE* II 'Adamantius' 2.

29. See p.73.

30. *Fr.* 10, in which Augustulus is said to have taken the initiative in abdicating the western throne and recommending to Zeno that Odovacer act as the representative of the eastern Emperor, suggests a naive view of western events, based perhaps upon official pronouncements.

31. *Fr.* 18 p.130. *Fr.* 2 preserves a trace of what might have been an account of the siege of Arcadiopolis by Theoderic Strabo in 473.

32. E.g. *Frr.* 2; 11; 14; 15; 16.

33. *Frr.* 2; 16; 17. The recording of terms in *Fr.* 17 suggests a documentary or well-informed diplomatic source.

34. See esp. *Fr.* 18 p.130, where Sabinianus and the prefect Johannes are said to have "greatly magnified" their military success.

35. Niebuhr quoted by Müller *FHG* IV p.141; Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 856. See also Baldwin 1977 pp.102-04 on Malchus' characterisation.

36. Malchus says of Amorkesos that he was ἐν δὲ τοῖς Πέρσαις, which could be taken to mean that he was a Persian. But the name

Amorkesos, which is really a title and a name (Amir al-Kais), suggests that he was an Arab (cf. *PLRE* II 'Amorcesus'). His willingness to Christianise, which Malchus notes, was thus probably part of the Christianisation of those Arabs along the Roman borders who, by the beginning of the sixth century, had come under the sway of the pro-Roman house of Ghassan. Jotaba seems to have been an important port at the mouth of the Gulf of Aqaba (Abel 1938 pp.514f.). Certainly, Malchus says that the tribute was rich.

37. Gordon (1960 p.15) misreads Πετραίαν here and has Amorkesos as "commander of the Saracens under Roman rule against Persia".

38. The final part of *Fr.* 2a, which appears to attribute to Leo a concern for education, is probably not from Malchus.

39. Photius *Bibl. cod.* 78, I p.160.

40. Theophanes *a.m.* 5990. Cf. Abel 1938 pp.527f.

41. Bury 1958 I p.321.

42. On a certain sympathy on Malchus' part for the Ostrogoths see pp.82-83.

43. Cf. the charges of peculation against Epinicus in the possibly Malchan article E 2494.

44. Cf. the *Suda* B 164 (= *Fr.* 6, but probably not from Malchus).

45. Perhaps because of his patronage of Pamprepius (*Fr.* 20) or in recognition of his military skill (cf. *Fr.* 14).

46. Evagrius 3,1; Lydus *De Mag.* 3,45.

47. Cf. Barth 1894 p.23.

48. See n.24 above.

49. Procopius *Wars* 1,8; Victor of Vita *Hist. Pers. Afric. Prov.* 2,8 and 17.

50. Distrust of Illus, Brooks 1893 p.219. Earthquake, Stein 1959 II pp.12f.

51. Cf. Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 854.

52. *Suda* A 3968. Cf. *Fr.* 18 p.127, which illustrates the ever-present fear that the Ostrogoths, like the Vandals, would obtain ships. Continuing Roman *hauteur* towards the barbarian is suggested at *Fr.* 18 p.128, where Adamantius issues orders to the Ostrogothic king.

53. *Frr.* 14; 15; 16; 18 pp.125, 126, 129.

54. Cf. esp. *Fr.* 2. *PLRE* II 'Theodericus' 5 suggests that he was a nephew of Aspar's wife.

55. Theoderic's complaints, see pp.75-76. His moderation, *Fr.* 18 p.125. His desire to serve the Romans as a Roman, *Fr.* 18 p.129. Malchus would have been aware that Theoderic had been brought up at Constantinople, which may have influenced his favourable attitude.

56. So Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 853.

57. Cf. Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 col. 854.

58. See p.79.

59. Contrast the obscure account of Amorkesos' movements in *Fr.* 1, for which the sources were probably not as good.

NOTES TO CHAPTER 5
CLASSICISING HISTORY IN THE FIFTH CENTURY AD

1. This term renders the German *Profanhistoriker*.

2. Procopius knows Priscus (Haury, prolegomena to his text of the *Wars* pp.vii ff.). Agathias continues Procopius (*proem.* 22-32). Menander continues Agathias (*Fr.* 1) and knows Procopius (*Fr.* 35a). Theophylact knows Procopius and Menander (1,3,5; 2,3,13).

3. On the possibility that Olympiodorus knew Ammianus see Thompson 1944 p.19. On the possible relationship between Eunapius and Ammianus see pp.24-25.

4. A certain diversity of outlook in these historians is also brought out by Udal'cova 1972 pp.193-213.

5. Thus both were very concerned with the continuing unity of the Empire. On Eunapius cf. Cracco Ruggini 1973 p.160 n.68.

6. See Momigliano, Oxford 1963 pp.89f. He does point out that Eusebius may have had predecessors, but since they wrote before the acceptance of Christianity by the Roman state, from the non-Christian point of view they were of no importance.

7. Momigliano 1963 p.81.

8. Eunapius, see pp.3-5. Ammianus, cf. 22,16,2.

9. Cf. Eunapius' attack on chronography with its anti-Christian implications (see my paper to appear in *Byzantina*).

10. See Blockley 1975 pp.123-36.

11. Cf., e.g., *Relatio* 3, esp. section 8.

12. A.M. and A.D.E. Cameron 1964 pp.316-28.

13. On Procopius see A.M. Cameron 1966 pp.466-82. On Agathias see A.M. Cameron 1970 pp.89-111.

14. The best study of Orosius is E. Corsini, *Introduzione alle storie di Orosio* Torino (1968).

15. I am not suggesting that Zosimus attacked specifically Orosius, nor, however, do I agree with Cracco Ruggini (1976 pp.23-36) that his object was ecclesiastical history in particular. But her view that he attacked the Christian version of history is followed in the text.

16. See the excellent appreciation of Philostorgius by J. Bidez 1926 pp.23-30. A full-scale study of this historian is needed.

17. Cf. esp. Polybius 12,27-28, a criticism of the sedentary nature of the historian Timaeus.

18. Ammianus, the Greek historian writing in Latin, while in some aspects drawing historiographically upon the Greek historians, nevertheless made more obvious stylistic use of the Latin writers, especially Livy and Tacitus, and, in a general way, of Cicero.

19. This comment is made specifically of Ammianus. But in general, with the exceptions of Eunapius and Theophylact, the language of the late classicising historians seems to have been an adequate vehicle for them.

20. Thus, when Goffart (1971 pp.416f.) stresses Zosimus' conservatism rather than his paganism, this observation can be extended to all the subjects of this study, except perhaps Eunapius.

21. Cf. on Malchus Kaegi 1976 pp.5-9, who, however, lays more stress than I do on the pagan orientation of these views.

22. See p.64 on Priscus. These are concerns of Ammianus also (e.g. 31,6,4-5 and 7-8). Cf. Udal'cova 1972 p.196.

23. Barbarians, pp.21 and 62-63. Eunuchs, p.63. Monks, p.19. On the latter as influential representatives of the lower class see Frend 1972 pp.3-24.

24. Kaegi (1968 p.84) considers that Eunapius *Fr.* 48 shows that the writer was an anti-monarchist.

25. The views of the four historians are discussed respectively on pp.21, 44-45, 62-63, 83-84. I have concentrated on the northern barbarians because the fragments are far more concerned with these. Roman attitudes – at least official Roman attitudes – also changed towards Persia. But that is more the concern of the sixth-century historians.

26. Certainly, in the sixth century Menander (*Fr.* 1) thought that the writing of such a history would bring him esteem and rewards.

27. Bury 1958 II p.418.

28. Cf. Ammianus, who, if his work had not survived in the MS Fuldensis (plus a few scraps of the Hersfeldensis), would be unknown, even by name. Similarly the stemmata in the editions of Procopius, Agathias, and Theophylact show that their works descended by a very tenuous thread.

29. Momigliano (1963 pp.97-99) remarks that the Church could ignore the works of secular history because they were irrelevant. This may have been the case with Eunapius and Ammianus, but if, as I have argued, the later works were not anti-Christian either explicitly or implicitly, then their relevance in the eyes of the Church is not an issue.

NOTES TO PART II
EUNAPIUS: HISTORY AFTER DEXIPPUS

1. Of the 110 fragments printed in *FHG* IV fifty are from the *Excerpta* and, of these, forty-three are from the *Exc. de Sent.*, the proportion of approximately 6:1 being reflected in the material. Fragments from other sources are much shorter.

2. Thus, Eunapius is named in Δ 653 (= *Fr.* 100), Ει 310 and Ει 331, all of which are from Theophylact 2,6,2-3 (de Boor 1912 p.418). On the *Suda*'s method of giving names in short articles, which can lead to error, see de Boor 1914-19 pp.22ff.

3. Specifically, E 3252 (= *Fr.* 5), I 403 (= *Fr.* 6), and E 498 (= *Fr.* 49, first part), which are all from Zosimus (see, respectively, Mendelssohn *ad* Zos. 1,73,3; Bidez 1935 pp.434f.; Mendelssohn *ad* Zos. 4, 50,2), and Σ 64 (= *Fr.* 30), which is from Malalas (A.D.E. Cameron *CR* 1963 p.264). E 3770 (= *Fr.* 106) is perhaps from Malchus. Δ 1512 (= *Fr.* 108) is also printed as Damascius *Vit. Isidori Fr.* 28. Norman's attempt (*CQ* 1957 pp.129-33) to assign A 2094 to Eunapius has rightly been rejected by A.D.E. Cameron (*CQ* 1963 pp.232ff.). De Boor (1885 p.330) attributed the second part of I 401 to Eunapius, but there is no sure indication of its provenance.

4. Most recently, Paschoud 1975 and in the introduction to his edition of Zosimus, I pp. xl-lxii, and Barnes 1978 pp.121-23.

5. Material differences, Ridley 1969-70 pp.585-91. Differences of viewpoint, Goffart 1971 pp.412-41; Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.279-82; 1973 p.169.

6. I argue these two points in the paper in *Byzantion* 1980 pp.393-402.

7. Opitz 1874 pp.256-65. The *Epitome*'s direct use of Eunapius has been recently upheld by Barnes 1978 pp.119-20, who also argues (*ibid.* pp.114-17) that the *Historia Augusta* used Eunapius.

8. The passages of the *Epitome* adduced by Opitz which I have omitted are: 40,3 and 7; 41,25; 42,4 and 6-7; 47,6; 48,3.

9. A.D.E. Cameron 1967 p.11.

10. Koecher 1871 pp.30ff.

11. Müller (*FHG* IV p.42) marks a lacuna in *Fr.* 63 (= P 240) before the last sentence, which names Eunapius, thus weakening the ascription, which de Boor (1914-19 p.31) also doubts. However, neither Bekker nor Adler in their editions of the *Suda* marks a lacuna, and they accept the ascription. Müller also derives John of Antioch *Fr.* 183 from Eunapius *Fr.* 30, but the latter is from Malalas (see n.3 above).

12. Jeep 1885 pp.56-64.

13. Mendelssohn in his edition of Zosimus, p. xxxvi n.1; Bidez in his edition of Philostorgius, p. cxxxviii.

14. Bidez 1935 pp.413f.

15. Schoo 1911 pp.80ff.

16. Mendelssohn *op.cit.* (at n.13) nn. to 2,29,3; 30,1 and 4. When Sozomen introduces Constantine's recognition of Christianity (8,1 *init.*) his language parallels Zosimus 2,29,1 *init.*

17. Scavone 1970 pp.62ff.

18. Jeep 1885 pp.127ff.

19. A.D.E. Cameron 1970 p.156 n.2.

20. E.g. Socrates 6,6 (on Tribigild): χιλιαρχοῦντος τῶν ἰδρυμένων ἐν τῇ Φρυγίᾳ στρατιωτῶν / Zos. 5,13,2: ἦρχε βαρβάρων ἐνιδρυμένων τῇ Φρυγίᾳ (John of Antioch *Fr.* 190 uses almost the same words as Socrates). For other parallels see Cameron 1970 p.476.

21. Cf. Julian *Or.* 1,31C; 47C; 2,77A; Themistius *Or.* 1,37B.

22. Geppert 1898 p.69.

23. Jeep 1885 pp.64-73.

24. *Op.cit.* (n.13) p.35 n.2. Patzig (1897 p.382) argued that Zonaras drew upon Eunapius via an intermediary. There is no indication that the Anonymous Continuer of Dio, whom Zonaras used (e.g. Zonaras 11,27 = *Anon. Dionis Cont. Fr.* 10,1 in *FHG* IV p.197), drew upon Eunapius.

25. The fragments not identified are from the *Excerpta*. The position of many of the passages, especially from the *Suda*, is uncertain. Unless there is a firm reason to deviate, the order of Müller (*FHG* IV) is followed. The conspectus is not, of course, intended to be a complete list of the subjects which Eunapius would have included, but merely a list of what has survived.

26. My own view (*art.cit.* n.6) is that Zos. 1,47-62 is based on a number of sources, none of which is Eunapius. The *Suda* article uses a word from the tragic vocabulary, ἀκόρεστος, which appears in *Vit. Soph.* 4,1,7; 5,1,7.

27. Zosimus 1,63,1-67,2 and 71 seem to me to come from an epitome of Roman history not by Eunapius, and 69-70 from a detailed account of the war against the brigand Lydius; 67,3-68,3, on wars with the Germans in the West, is the only part which might be from Eunapius. The collections print *Suda* K 570 here as *Fr.* 3, but its position is uncertain.

28. John of Antioch *Fr.* 162, which summarises the Eunapian material, has been wrongly attributed to Zosimus by his editors and inserted, with John of Antioch *Fr.* 163, in the lacuna after 1,71.

29. Mendelssohn *op.cit.* (n.13) p. xxxvii regards this as not from Eunapius, and certainly the consular dating seems unlikely for Eunapius. Scavone (1970 pp.57-67) treats all the digressions on pagan rites as interpolations by Zosimus.

30. Mendelssohn *op.cit.* (n.13) p. xxxviii regards Zos. 2,36-37, on the oracles portending the greatness of Byzantium, as not from Eunapius. Zosimus does not repeat Eunapius' criticism of the site of Constantinople (*Vit. Soph.* 6,2,7-9).

31. The passage cited of *Vit. Soph.* remarks that Prohaeresius was mentioned in the History. It has been placed here because he flourished under Constans (cf. *Vit. Soph.* 10,7,1-4). But he had a long life, and references to him were probably inserted in a number of places.

32. Zosimus 2,45,3-53,3 may well not be from Eunapius but from a panegyric on Constantius II (so Olivetti 1915 pp.321-33).

33. The first two lines of *Fr.* 7a are clearly separate from the rest of the passage and remark an occasion when Constantius II showed himself to be like his father. I take this to mean the murder of relatives and to refer to the death of Gallus.

34. Unlike Zosimus and like Ammianus, Eunapius appears to have closed this book of his History with the elevation of Julian, since in *Fr.* 7a the latter is already called Caesar.

35. The beginning of the second book is marked in the *Exc. de Sent.*

36. *Fr.* 9 appears to be from the introduction to the account of the battle of Strassburg. It corresponds to Zos. 3,2,4, which is thus slightly displaced.

37. The *Exc. de Leg. Gent.* note that *Fr.* 12 is from the third book. Where this book began is unclear, but that it began after the account of the battle of Strassburg, which thus formed the climax of the second book, is a good guess.

38. This probably corresponds to Ammianus 18,2,17-18, where it is said that Vadomar's request for peace was not answered for the present.

39. *Fr.* 14,1 states the intention to turn aside to narrate the plots of Constantius against Julian. That these went right back to 337 is suggested by *Vit. Soph.* 7,1,5, which refers the massacre of Constantine's relatives to the narrative on Julian. *Fr.* 14,3, which, like 14,1 and 2, is from the *Exc. de Sent.* and cannot be displaced in respect of these latter passages, seems to indicate that Eunapius will give a chronological account of events of Constantius' reign other than the machinations against Julian. The best interpretation of these passages seems to me to be that, after narrating only the events in the West from 355 to 359, Eunapius then, as a preliminary to, and justification of, the revolt of Julian, details the machinations of Constantius, adding also the military activity against the Persians from 355 to 359, omitting Constantius' wars against the Sarmatians. This reconstruction receives some confirmation from Zosimus, who orders his material: peace with the Salii and Chamavi (wrongly called Quadi), Constantius' Persian war, Constantius' jealousy of Julian and demand for troops, Julian's revolt. Eunapius perhaps intentionally omitted Constantius' Sarmatian wars, since Zosimus

says (3,8,1) that the trans-Danubian tribes kept quiet for fear of Julian.

40. *Fr.* 14,7 refers to an attack by Julian on a tribe called the Ναρδωοί. No such tribe is known, and Thompson (1943 p.70) proposed to emend the name to that of Chonodomar, the Alaman king defeated and captured at the battle of Strassburg in 357. Since the position of the fragment cannot be changed, such a reference must be retrospective and that is highly unlikely at this point. The fragment probably describes Julian's attack on the Alamanni in 360 preliminary to his invasion of Illyricum (cf. Ammianus 21,3,1-3 and 4,7-8).

41. *Fr.* 18,1-2 mentions wise planning and swift movement, and is perhaps from a speech during the planning of the advance against Constantius (cf. Ammianus 21,8,3-10,2; Mamertinus [*Pan. Lat.* 3] 6,2-4).

42. The material on Libanius might have been spread through the reigns of Julian, Valens and Theodosius I (cf. Zos. 4,41). The *Suda* article also notices the philosopher Acacius (cf. A 784).

43. The bibliography on the problem of the source for Zosimus' account of the Persian expedition is enormous (see the review in Paschoud's introduction to his text of Zosimus, vol. I pp. xlii-liv). No convincing alternative to Eunapius as Zosimus' source has been advanced, although the independent fragments of Eunapius are too scanty to offer any certainty.

44. The position of these fragments is uncertain. They could be from elsewhere in the History.

45. The last three *Suda* articles are referred to by Adler as possibly Eunapian. They mention the games which Julian is said to have held before Ctesiphon (cf. Libanius *Or.* 1,133; 18,249).

46. On the ascription of the article I 401 see n.3.

47. That Eunapius, like Ammianus, began a new book after the death of Jovian is suggested by the next fragment (28) which offers the kind of discussion, on sources, which would have been suitable for a preface. The suggestion that the sixth book began here is a guess based upon the calculation of one book each for Julian from the battle of Strassburg to the death of Constantius, Julian as Augustus, the Persian expedition.

48. *Suda* Π 380 has been referred to the Procopian revolt, as has E 936 (with the latter cf. *Fr.* 32). *Fr.* 31,1, a *sententia* of Philip of Macedon, could refer to Valentinian I or Valens, perhaps in their illnesses.

49. This material is Eunapian and from Valens' reign, but its position is uncertain.

50. *Suda* E 3996, Γ 301, Θ 599 appear to be from the same source as the article on Festus. The articles on the philosophers Simonides, Patricius, and Hilarius do not name Eunapius. I have included with them the article on Eueterius, which, like the others, puts its subject in the reign of Jovian (Adler labels the article as perhaps from Eunapius).

The article on Jacobus, yet another philosopher-casualty under Valens, is possibly Eunapian (cf. *PLRE* I 'Iacobus' 2).

51. The position of the *Suda* article is uncertain.

52. The extent of the Eunapian material in the article M 1306 (which the *Suda* again refers to the reign of Jovian) is uncertain. Mai is almost certainly wrong to identify Marcianus with the official of Valentinian II (= *PLRE* I 'Marcianus' 14). The death of Musonius occurred in 368, so that this material is far out of chronological order. Since he was killed by Isaurian raiders, it probably comes from an inset on Isaurian hostilities which flared up again in 376 (cf. Zos. 4,20,1).

53. *Suda* Σ 177 is attributed to Eunapius because of similarities of incident with the first part of *Fr.* 47, from the *Exc. de Sent.*; K 1947, Π 2723 use material from Σ 177. E 374 remarks Valens' hasty preparations for battle (cf. Zos. 4,24,1). *Fr.* 46,1 appears to be from the introduction to the campaign of Adrianople, while 46,2 possibly comments on the corruption of Valens' generals (cf. Zos. 4,22,4).

54. The first *Suda* article, which is usually referred to the reception of the Goths in 377, is placed here because it speaks of the settlement of the Goths to defend against Hunnic incursions, which is nowhere mentioned as a policy of Valens and is much more likely for the early years of Theodosius I (cf. Maenchen-Helfen 1973 pp.29ff.). The second and third articles are rather uncertainly placed by comparison with Zos. 4,25,2 and 26,6. With the third article K 67 has been linked, on weak grounds.

55. The position of the *Suda* articles is very uncertain. *Fr.* 48,2, which mentions pennilessness in the face of taxes, can be compared with Zos. 4,29,2.

56. *Fr.* 54, on the adventures of an actor exiled amongst the barbarians during the reign of Nero, is a typically irrelevant digression whose subject is actually physical and moral decay, and which is, therefore, probably aimed at Theodosius (cf. Zos. 4,33,3-4). *Fr.* 55, on how the barbarians duped Theodosius by pretending to be Christians, seems also to come here (cf. Zosimus *loc.cit.*). De Labriolle 1942 p.367 suggested that this fragment refers to Alaric's invasion in 395. But it comes too early in the order and must refer to an incident of the reign of Theodosius.

57. *Fr.* 57 is probably not from a *post mortem* sketch of Gratian (so Müller *FHG* IV p.40), but, since its main theme is reliability of evidence, from the introduction to the section on Gratian's behaviour and death. Zosimus 4,36, on Gratian's refusal of the robe of the Pontifex Maximus, might not be from Eunapius, at least in part (A.D.E. Cameron 1968 p.98; but see Paschoud 1975 pp.93-99).

58. Barnes 1978 pp.115f. argues that the reference to the History in *Vit. Soph.* comprehends only criticism of monks and not the destruction of the Serapeum. This is possible since Eunapius' language here is, as often, unclear. But since in *Vit. Soph.* he usually refers to the

History for specific events or persons, the usual assumption, that he is referring to the Serapeum, seems best.

59. Adler doubts the ascription of the *Suda* article to Eunapius. In the collections it is associated with Gratian's sending of Arbogast and Baudo to the East (cf. Zos. 4,33,1). But since the article mentions Theodosius' sending of Arbogast to Valentinian II, I have placed it with the corresponding passage of Zosimus.

60. Müller marks a lacuna before the last sentence of the article P 240, which would cast doubt upon the attributions to Eunapius of it and of the other articles, which come from the same source. Adler, however, marks no lacuna. The articles A 1569 (= *Fr.* 64), Σ 1032 and B 31 might also be from this part of the History. After *Fr.* 62 two pages of the MS of the *Exc. de Sent.* are missing.

61. On the possible attribution of the *Suda* article to Eunapius see A.D.E. Cameron 1967 pp.10f. The two expeditions of Stilicho to Greece in 395 and 397 are conflated into one by Zosimus and John of Antioch. This probably reflects the topical structure of the Eunapian account (cf. A.D.E. Cameron 1970 pp.474-77).

62. The collections print as *Fr.* 68 the articles M 1436 and K 408 on the weak ground that they use snake-similes as does II 1293, which is not certainly from Eunapius. Adler regards Δ 326 and the last part of Σ 897 as perhaps Eunapian.

63. The interpretation and ordering of the fragments in this and the following sections are difficult. I take *Fr.* 75,1 to introduce the section on Gainas. 75,2 could be about anything. 75,3-4 mentions the depredations of the Goths in Lydia and elsewhere. 75,5-6 are on the deterioration of affairs after the death of Eutropius and the collusion between Gainas and Tribigild. 75,7 is perhaps on the death of Tribigild, who crossed to Thrace just before Gainas left Constantinople and died shortly thereafter (Zos. 4,18,4 and 9; Philostorgius 11,8). *Frr.* 76 and 77 should be placed before 75,5 since they refer to the period before Eutropius' death.

64. The position of this fragment in the *Exc. de Sent.* indicates that it interrupts the narrative on Gainas. It has been suggested that Perses is a nickname rather than an indication that the person mentioned was a Persian, and that the reference is to Clearchus, who was prefect of Constantinople (Mazzarino 1942 p.362, followed by Ridley 1969-70 p.589 n.28, and Baldwin 1976 pp.5-8). But since Eunapius refers to a prefect of Rome, which is nowhere used by him as a name for Constantinople, the subject must be a western urban prefect. Perhaps the fragment is from an effusion upon the foolishness of the Christian habit of ascribing Roman victories to miracles sent by God, and in this case it would have been occasioned by stories such as that in Philostorgius 11,8 and Socrates 6,6, where a heavenly army is said to have delivered Constantinople from Gainas. But the fragment itself is digressional and refers to an event in the West, perhaps the defeat of Gildo, in which the power of God was stressed by the official version

(cf. Orosius *Adv. Pag.* 7,36,5-12; Cracco Ruggini 1972 pp.277f.). In this case the prefect might have been Quintilius Laetus, p.u. 398-99 (see Chastagnol 1962 pp.251-53).

65. *Suda* X 473 (= *Fr.* 104). E 1753 might refer to Fravitta's poor health which is also mentioned at Φ 681. The article Λ 490 (= *Fr.* 81) has been assigned to Eunapius and placed here in the History on no good grounds. *Fr.* 82,2 appears to refer to the improved performance of the Roman army after Fravitta had assumed command. On the order and interpretation of the material from *Fr.* 80 to the end see my paper in *Antichthon*. A.D.E. Cameron (1970 p.135) puts the return of the hostages in 400, immediately after the death of Gainas. But Zosimus (5,23,2) puts the return after the beginning of John Chyrsostom's attacks upon Eudoxia, which began in 401 at the earliest, so that it should be dated to 401 or 402.

66. On the ending of the History see pp.5-6 and my paper cited at n.65.

NOTES TO OLYMPIODORUS: BOOKS OF HISTORY

1. See pp.30-32.

2. See, e.g., Rosenstein 1862 pp.166ff.; Martin 1866; Haedicke *RE* XVIII, 1 col. 203; Paschoud in his introduction to his text of Zosimus, vol. I pp. lviii ff.

3. In his text of Zosimus *ad* 5,38,1. Against, A.D.E. Cameron 1969 p.259.

4. Demougeot 1951 p.457 n.90.

5. Discussion in Rosenstein 1862 pp.189ff.; Haedicke *loc.cit.* (at n.2); Schoo 1911 pp.58-72; Matthews 1970 p.82. The most important divergence is at *HE* 9,13, which differs from *Fr.* 16 in calling Maximus a dependant of Gerontius and saying that Gerontius' own troops mutinied in disgust at his cowardice. Stevens (1957 p.343 n.159) regards Maximus as a dependant of Gerontius and ascribes the identification of him as a son in *Fr.* 16 to an error by Photius.

6. Proposed by Jeep 1885 pp.73-83, rejected by Mendelssohn in his edition of Zosimus, p. xlvii n.1, but accepted by Bidez in his edition of Philostorgius, pp. xv, cxxxix and 140ff.; Thompson 1944 p.43 n.5; Matthews 1970 p.91 n.177.

7. Mendelssohn (*loc.cit.* at n.6), who denies use of Olympiodorus by Philostorgius, regards it as a clumsy insertion by Photius.

8. Stevens 1957 pp.340f.

9. E.g. at *Wars* 3,4,29 Procopius places Attila's attacks upon the Roman Empire after the death of Aetius.

10. Socrates *HE* 7,10 also places the elevation of Attalus after the third siege, but despite the arguments of Jeep (1885 pp.130-37) he

seems to have had no clear contact with the tradition from Olympiodorus.

11. Matthews (1970 p.93 and n.114) notes with hesitation the suggestion that *Wars* 3,2,27, which ascribes the capture of Rome to the treachery of a noblewoman, Proba, came from Olympiodorus. There is no trace of this story in any of the writers who used Olympiodorus.

12. The fragments not identified are from Photius.

13. *Fr.* 4 refers to cannibalism at Rome. Zosimus (5,40,1) says only that there was a danger of it in the first siege and notes later (6,11, 1) that people demanded that a price be put on flesh. Philostorgius (12,3) treats it as a fact. *Fr.* 5, which refers to Stilicho's payment of 40 *centenaria* of gold to Alaric, might be from a discussion of terms for Alaric's lifting of the siege. *Fr.* 7, a note on *buccellarii* and federates, might have been suggested by the defection of the barbarian troops to Alaric.

14. The context of this retrospective note cannot be recovered.

15. Zosimus has placed the account of the British usurpers before the third siege of Rome. Sozomen has it after the third siege. At Zos. 6,5 reference is made to the revolt of Gerontius, which appears later in the fragments (*Fr.* 16). This is probably an example of the confused multiple references made by Olympiodorus.

16. Olympiodorus mentions the success of these statues in keeping Alaric out of Sicily and then refers forward to their removal in the time of the marriage of Constantius III and Placidia (after 417), which resulted in barbarian inroads. The identity of these later invaders is unclear. The position of the statues at Rhegium suggests that they warded off attacks from Italy, so that the barbarians might have been Goths in the service of John sent to hold Sicily against an attack from Africa in 423-24 (cf. de Lepper 1941 pp.43f.). Sirago (1970 p.15) suggests that the reference is to Vandal raids from Africa some time after 430.

17. The direction of Olympiodorus' journey to the Huns has elicited some discussion. The traditional view is that he crossed the Black Sea to visit Huns living north of the Lower Danube. However, Sirago (1970 pp.7-9) argued that he travelled from Athens to the Huns of the Middle Danube, and thus he sailed up the Adriatic. Cracco Ruggini (1973 pp.178-79) rejects this theory and returns to the older view. But if Maenchen-Helfen is correct in his contention (discussed on p.27) that Olympiodorus was in the service of the western court, then it is likely that he did journey to the Huns of the Middle Danube, but sailing from Ravenna across the head of the Adriatic.

18. At the end of *Fr.* 19 Olympiodorus notes that from the time of Theodosius I the heads of various usurpers were exposed at Carthage. Perhaps the account of Heraclian's revolt appeared at this point, even though he is not named as one of the usurpers.

19. Philostorgius places his note on the recovery of Rome after the death of Ataulf, a more logical position since it then goes with Honorius' visit to the city.

20. The dating and the subjects of this fragment are difficult. Olympiodorus says that Thrace and Illyricum were attacked by Goths, Huns, and Sarmatians, "in the days . . . of Constantius the Emperor". Haedicke (*RE* XVIII, 1 col. 202), Thompson (1944 p.44), Henry (Photius *Bibl.* vol. I p.177 n.1) and *PLRE* II 'Valerius' 4 (with reservations) all take the reference to be to the reign of Constantius III when a Valerius was governor of Thrace (in 421). The difficulties are that Theodosius II should be the Emperor named since Thrace was at the time in the eastern Empire, and if Theodosius is the Emperor who gave the order for the destruction, the fragment constitutes an extremely bold attack on the reigning Emperor and dedicatee of the History. In the light of this, Ensslin (*RE* VII col. 2298) suggested that the reference was to the reign of Constantius II, when a Valerius was governor of Thrace in 357, a suggestion later accepted by Thompson (1956 p.379) and Cracco Ruggini (1973 pp.179f.). The difficulties here are that the Huns did not appear until twenty years later and that the Valerius who told Olympiodorus the story must be a different person from the governor, whereas the fragment seems to make them the same. It appears to me that there are two possibilities, neither of which is fully satisfactory. The first, which has recently been restated by Croke (1977 pp.358-65), is that Constantius III is the ruler in question and that Olympiodorus is making a very bold attack upon Theodosius II, and obscuring it slightly by giving the dating reference to the western Emperor (that the fragment comes before the elevation of Constantius is no difficulty, since the structure of the History was very loose). The second is to adopt a suggestion of Matthews (1970 p.90 n.110) that the reference to Constantius is an error and the Emperor in question is Valens, under whom a now unknown Valerius was in authority in the area. The two Valerii would be the same person, and the reference would be to the Adrianople campaign of 376-78 and the subsequent disturbances. This, too, would make sense of the statement that the whole Gothic nation (*τὸ Γότθων ἔθνος πᾶσαν*) attacked.

21. Sirago (1970 p.4), like most scholars, treats this voyage to Athens as separate from the journey to Egypt, dating the former to 415 and the latter to 421. I should prefer to treat the trip to Egypt as an extension of the trip to Athens and to place the whole journey in the years 415-18. Therefore, *Frr.* 28 and 32 refer to the visit to Athens, 33 refers forward to the projected trip to Egypt, 36 describes the sea-voyage from Athens to Egypt, and 37 the sojourn in Egypt itself.

22. Possibly from a general digression on Rome and northern Italy of which *Frr.* 43-44 were also part. It probably looked forward to the visit to Rome by Valentinian for his coronation in 425.

NOTES TO PRISCUS: HISTORY

1. *Get.* 24,123; 34,178; 35,183; 42,222; 49,254 and 255.

2. Nagy (1967 p.179) suggests that the Priscan material came to Cassiodorus through the History of Q. Aurelius Memmius Symmachus.

3. Mommsen 1882 pp. xxxiv-xxxvii. The three exceptions are *Get.* 35,181; 40,209; 42,223.

4. *Get.* 34,178 clearly summarises various parts of Priscus *Fr.* 8 (cf. Bornmann 1974 pp.213f.).

5. Discussed in detail by Romano (1947 pp.65-71), who also points out that much of Jordanes' material on Attila is marked by a crude rhetoric which is hardly Priscan.

6. E.g. Attila's craftiness (*Get.* 36,186; 43,225) and his cowardice (*Get.* 38,198).

7. E.g. Attila pretends to the Visigoths that he intends to attack the Romans and to the Romans that he wishes to attack the Goths (*Get.* 36,185-86), whereas Priscus (*Frr.* 15 and 16) has him marching against the Italians, Goths and Franks. The plea of Valentinian for Gothic help (*Get.* 36,187-89) is presented from a Gothic viewpoint, as is the account of Thorismund's withdrawal from the battlefield (*Get.* 41,215-16), which makes no mention of his hostility to the Romans. In fact, the whole of *Get.* 36,187-41,217 looks as if it has come from an encomium of a Gothic triumph at Mauriacus.

8. So Mommsen 1882 p. xxxiv n.64.

9. Specifically, *Rom.* 328; 333; 336; 337, which are noted in the conspectus.

10. Koecher 1871 pp.34-37.

11. *Fr.* 201 is paralleled by Jordanes *Rom.* 334. *Fr.* 200, which gives a different account of the events described in 201, is more baldly anecdotal and certainly not Priscan. It comes from the Salmasian Excerpts which, Boissevain argues (1887 p.177; cf. Sotiriadis 1888 pp.7-24), did not come from John, certainly after *Fr.* 73 and probably after *Fr.* 29.

12. Koecher (1871 p.61) would derive John of Antioch *Fr.* 206 from Candidus, but gives no cogent reason. *Fr.* 209 illustrates characteristics of the intermediary between Priscus and John: computation of periods of time, especially reigns, bold Christian terminology, and unqualified latinisms, all of which Priscus seems to have avoided.

13. *HE* 1,17; 2,1,5 and 14; 5,24.

14. Evagrius names as the source for the eagle-omen Procopius, in whose *Wars* (3,4,1-11) it appears in its proper place in the account of Aspar's expedition against the Vandals in 432, before Priscus' History begins. In Theophanes (*a.m.* 5943) this portent, which, as in Evagrius, is described at the beginning of Marcian's reign, is connected

with another eagle-portent upon the same Emperor. In the original both probably appeared together.

15. Evagrius does not cite Priscus here, but the latter certainly mentioned the fire (cf. *Fr.* 34).

16. Nagy 1967 pp.178f.

17. In their edition of Evagrius' *Ecclesiastical History*, London (1898) p.54.

18. See n.11 above.

19. *HE* 1,19; 2,15; 3,26, 27, 29 and 37; 5,24.

20. Jeep 1885 p.160, followed by Bury 1958, I p.300 n.2.

21. In his edition of Procopius (corr. G. Wirth) I pp. vii-xix, where he also contends that material in Theophanes and Nicephorus Callistus came from the same source.

22. On the Priscan origin of the fable of the storks which portended the fall of Aquileia see Moravcsik 1926 p.197 n.7.

23. Theophanes in the Priscan part of the entry under *a.m.* 5961 gives Gaiseric's treatment of the Africans as the reason for the expedition under Basiliscus.

24. This looks like a charge concocted after the fall, in 476, of Basiliscus, who favoured the Monophysites. Aspar's involvement first appears in Theodore Lector (1,25) writing in the early part of the sixth century. Bersanetti (1943-44 pp.341ff.) suggests that Basiliscus, like Zeno later, was promoted to *magister militum praesentalis* and *patricius* as a rival to Aspar.

25. Sections 25 and 26 are probably also from a source other than Priscus, since there it is said only that Ardabur was killed with Aspar, whereas the Priscan Evagrius 2,16 says that Patricius also was killed.

26. The story also appears in Agathias 5,11 and, in a very garbled form, in Cedrenus I p.547 (ed. Bonn). For the rather slight evidence that Agathias knew Priscus see Thompson *CQ* 1947 p.63.

27. *Loc.cit.* at n.8 above.

28. Procopius *Wars* 3,4,16-28 and 36-39 are from the same non-Priscan source as John of Antioch *Fr.* 200. Indeed the change at section 29 from this source to Priscus on the siege of Aquileia accounts for the chronological error which places the death of Aetius before that of Attila.

29. The version of the *Paschal Chronicle* appears in Theophanes *a.m.* 5937 and Zonaras 13,22,49-52 (with variants), and that of Malalas in the *Suda* Θ 145. The latter version is preferred by Frend 1972 p.17 and *PLRE* II 'Cyrus' 7.

30. Or rather the first part of the notice upon Cyrus' popularity as prefect. The story of his consecration as bishop is omitted, presumably on the ground that such Christian material would not have appeared in

a secular history. But such material could appear in secular history, and, at least in the version of the *Paschal Chronicle*, Christian terminology is at a minimum.

31. Some of this material appears in Evagrius, but I have used Nicephorus here because his version is fuller and, in my view, he drew his extra information from the same source. Indeed, the words of Nicephorus translated in the text are quoted directly from Evagrius, but the passage which immediately precedes them has been omitted by Nicephorus.

32. And perhaps also created the chronological confusion which has Attila's death before the disgrace of Cyrus, which seems to have happened in 443.

33. That there was material on Cyrus in Priscus is intrinsically likely. Theophanes, who does not repeat the erroneous account of the battle of Mauriacus and Attila's death and who also includes apparently Priscan material which is not in Malalas and the others (see below p.117), seems either to have used Priscus directly or, more likely, to have used another intermediary instead of, or in addition to, Eustathius. This increases the chances that his version, at least, derives from Priscus.

34. See below p.118.

35. In Malalas and Theophanes the ascendency of Chrysaphius is remarked immediately after the fall of Cyrus. In fact, it appears to have been Cyrus who replaced Antiochus in favour after the disgrace of the latter some time after 421 (*Suda* Θ 145).

36. For Basiliscus' expedition see p.115, for Cyrus pp.116-17.

37. See above p.116 and n.30.

38. Some of the articles are discussed by Baldwin 1980 pp.57-61. I have not noted all those short ones which reproduce a few words of no historical significance. Adler lists them in her edition of the *Suda* (V p.122). Most of them I have incorporated in the conspectus. On the article B 163 see n.62 below.

39. Noted by A.D.E. Cameron *CR* 1963 p.264.

40. Adler would place A 1660 with *Fr.* 1.

41. Norman 1953 pp.171f., who points out that the name Oulith in the article is the same as Oullibos of John of Antioch *Fr.* 205.

42. Ascribed to Priscus by Thompson 1948 p.146. Θ 389, which Adler attributes to Priscus, is from the same source as John of Antioch *Fr.* 200, which is not Priscan. Thompson (*CQ* 1947 p.65) rightly rejects the three *Suda* articles which Dindorf includes as Priscan in *HGM* I pp.351f.

43. The fragments not identified are from the *Exc. de Legat.*

44. The *Gallic Chronicle s.a.* 434 dates the succession to that year. For the dating of the treaty to 435 see Thompson 1948 pp.216f.

Maenchen-Helfen (1973 pp.91-94) tried to date the succession to the late 430's, but the traditional date has been convincingly re-asserted by Croke (1977 pp.347-58).

45. This material cannot be closely dated, but in the *Suda* article it appears to be separate from the notice on the disgrace of the chamberlain Antiochus (item 7 below).

46. Again, this cannot be dated.

47. This attack could fall anywhere between the beginning of Priscus' History (434?) and 442, the probable date of the fall of Naissus (cf. Thompson 1948 pp.217f.).

48. The dating and ordering of *Frr.* 1b-6 and Theophanes *a.m.* 5942, which deal with Hunnic attacks upon the Balkans and associated activity, have been much discussed. The discussions hinge upon the question of how much of the information refers to the first onset of 441 and the years following and how much to the attack of 447. There are two general positions on the matter, represented by Thompson and Seeck. Thompson (1948 pp.78-86 and 218f.) assigns *Frr.* 1b-5 and all of the entry of Theophanes to the first series of invasions of 441-43 and *Fr.* 6 to the years following. Seeck (1966 pp.291-94 and 464 and n. to p.293,12) places *Fr.* 5 and the entry of Theophanes in 447 and thus dates *Fr.* 6 to 448. Seeck adduced little argument in support of his view, but recently Maenchen-Helfen (1973 pp.108-25) has argued at length in support of a modified version of Seeck's position. Some of his arguments are in themselves not wholly convincing and can be ignored. But he clinches his case, in my view, when he points out that Priscus *Fr.* 2 speaks of "the kings of the Scythians", whereas the succeeding passages speak only of Attila. Since it seems that Attila killed his brother Bleda in 445 it is a reasonable conclusion that *Fr.* 3 and following, as well as Theophanes *a.m.* 5942, refer to the invasion of 447. Moreover, the terms of peace, which Theophanes sets out, are more appropriate for 447 than for the earlier date. (There is absolutely no basis for the view of Bayless [1976 pp.176-79] that the 6000 lbs. of gold paid to Attila was a punitive payment levied in 443 for the stopping of the yearly tribute in 441.) Thus, the first series of attacks, which Maenchen-Helfen dates to 441-42, was concentrated upon the area of western Illyricum and saw the capture of Margus, Viminacium (*Fr.* 2), Singidunum (Marcellinus *Chron. s.a.* 441) and Sirmium (cf. *Fr.* 8 pp.84f.). Since the *Suda* Z 29 (= *Fr.* 11) says that Zercon was captured in Thrace while Bleda was still alive, the Huns also thrust further East during these attacks, so that the fall of Naissus (*Fr.* 1b; cf. Marcellinus *Chron. s.a.* 441) and possibly of Serdica (*Fr.* 8 p.78; Bury 1958 I p.275 n.1 places it in 447) happened at this time. *Fr.* 3, which begins with an attack on Ratiaria, refers to the onset of 447. Thompson (1948 p.83 n.8) held that the Huns advanced from Ratiaria to Naissus, which was on the same side of the river Nischava, and thus he had to argue away the bridge which Priscus (*Fr.* 1b) says they crossed to attack Naissus. But if the attack on Ratiaria is dated to 447, then the problem

disappears since the Huns, approaching the city from the North-West, could well have been on the other side of the river. The onset of 447, which began with the capture of Ratiaria (cf. *Fr.* 8 p.93), was concentrated on Thrace. Most of the events recorded by Theophanes (*loc. cit.*) with the exception of the capture of Naissus and perhaps of Constantia, took place in this invasion (other sources are Marcellinus *Chron. s.a.* 447; Jordanes *Rom.* 331; *Chron. Pasch.* p.586 ed. Bonn; Nicephorus Callistus 14,57). *Fr.* 4 notes an embassy sent to Attila, presumably in an attempt to stop the fighting (cf. Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.119), *Fr.* 5 notes the same peace-terms as those set out by Theophanes, and *Fr.* 6 describes diplomatic activity of the succeeding year, 448.

49. For the date see *PLRE* II 'Antiochus' 5. For my suggestion that this is a retrospective passage in which Priscus mentioned the disgrace of Antiochus in the context of an attack on Chrysaphius see p.117.

50. Some of the material in the notices on Cyrus comes from previous years, but it was probably all placed together in the original.

51. That the sketch of Attila in Jord. *Get.* 180 came from Priscus seems certain. Jordanes' phrase *superbus incessu, huc atque illuc circumferens oculos* seems to translate the words βαδίζων σοβαρῶς τῇδε κἀκεῖ περιβλεπόμενος. But Jordanes (or his source) clearly did not just excerpt and translate Priscus.

52. The *Exc. de Leg. Rom.* notes the book-division, which perhaps also marks the transition to 450. At this point the excerptor has probably omitted an indeterminate amount of material that was in the original.

53. On the background to these hostilities see Thompson *Hermathena* 1946 pp.18-31. Damascius (*Vit. Isidori* 206) seems to suggest that Zeno was in revolt.

54. I have marked the book-division here because it is likely that the accession of Marcian began a new book and because the Priscan material in Evagrius 2,1 seems to have come from an encomiastic preface.

55. The eagle-portent of Marcian's rise to power, which both Evagrius and Nicephorus relate, is not from Priscus (see n.14 above).

56. The versions of Attila's death in Malalas and *Chron. Pasch.*, though attributed to Priscus, differ from that of Jordanes. But the connection of his death with the battle of Mauriacus might have arisen because Attila's western campaigns and his death were treated consecutively without a break. Thus I have so ordered them in the conspectus.

57. The first part of the passage of Evagrius is treated as non-Priscan because it deals with the replacement of the bishop of Alexandria. It is presumably regarded as the sort of material not suitable for a secular history. While some of the language may not have originated

with Priscus, he must have noted the cause of the rioting, so that the basic material may well have been in his History.

58. Jordanes notes Zeno's death together with that of Attila, but the date is uncertain.

59. Müller (*FHG* IV p.107) thinks that these two fragments should be placed with *Fr.* 34, but in his text keeps them separate, following the order of the *Exc. de Leg. Gent.* Gordon (1960 pp.11f.) takes all three passages together, dating them 465-66. Stein (1959 I pp.352f. and 357), who is followed here, dates *Frr.* 25 and 26 to 456 and 34 to 466, where it must be dated since the text places the events there described after the fire at Constantinople of 465 (cf. *PLRE* II 'Gobazes'). Stein suggests that in 456 Gobazes had resigned the throne in favour of his son (so *Fr.* 26), but by 466 had regained it (so *Fr.* 34). It is clear that *Frr.* 26 and 34 do not cover the same series of events, since in the former Dionysius is sent to the Lazi as a pledge for the safety of Gobazes on his visit to Constantinople, whereas in the latter Dionysius travels to Constantinople with Gobazes. Thus, different visits by Gobazes are described.

60. I have marked the sixth book here for two reasons. First, it is likely that the succession of Leo began a book. Secondly, if Müller (*ad Fr.* 30) and Moravcsik (1958 I p.480) correctly associate Steph. Byz. *s.v. Salonai* with the withdrawal of Marcellinus to Dalmatia in 462-63, that must have fallen in the sixth book, whence Stephanus draws his notice. Thus, if Leo is to begin a book, it can only be the sixth.

61. See the previous note (60) on the placing of the notice of Stephanus.

62. This *Suda* article is usually referred to either Malchus or Candidus. I have placed it with Priscus' fragments on the ground that it refers to Basiliscus' early career as a general in Thrace.

63. On the date see n.59. I have written 465/6 rather than 466 with Stein since, following the fire of 465, the visit could have taken place in the same year (so too *PLRE* II 'Gobazes'). This visit is remarked in the *Life of Daniel the Stylite* (in *Anal. Boll.* 32, 1913, pp. 169f.),who helped to settle the dispute (cf. Baynes 1925 p.398).

64. *Frr.* 36 and 38 both describe negotations between the Romans and the Huns, separated by an account of a Persian call for Roman aid. The dating is uncertain. In *Fr.* 36 Leo rejects the Hunnic demands, and Maenchen-Helfen (1973 p.165) dates it to "465 or, more probably, 466". I prefer 466 or 467. In *Fr.* 38 Leo accepts the Hunnic demand, and this change of policy seems to have been the result both of the natural disasters which struck the Aegean area at the time and the commitment of resources to a projected attack on the Vandals. The second factor indicates a date of 467. The natural disasters are said by Evagrius and Nicephorus Callistus to have taken place at about the same time (ὑπὸ τοῖς αὐτοῖς χρόνοις – vague, as usual) as the fire at Constantinople of 465 and "when the Scythian war against the East Romans was

beginning". Thompson (1948 p.91) is, therefore, clearly wrong to identify these disasters with the earthquake of Jan. 26, 447. 'Scythian' is vague and could indicate that the disasters should be associated with the Roman help given to the Sciri against the Ostrogoths (*Fr.* 35). But Evagrius implies an expected 'Scythian' offensive, of which there is no indication in *Fr.* 35, and he also suggests that the attack was not yet under way, which matches what is said in *Fr.* 38. For these reasons I have placed *Fr.* 38 and the passage of Evagrius together, dating them to 467.

65. The dating of *Fr.* 39 is difficult. Since Basiliscus is one of the generals named, 468 is impossible. After his failure at Carthage in that year he was exiled, so that even if his exile were short (so Bersanetti 1943-44 pp.343f.), it is highly unlikely that he would have held a high command soon after 468. Thus, 467 (as suggested by Thompson 1948 pp.157f. and Maenchen-Helfen 1973 p.168) is the most likely date (*PLRE* II 'Basiliscus' 2 has 466 or 467). This is not the campaign in which Dengizich, one of Attila's sons, was killed, since he died in 469 (Marcellinus *Chron. a.* 469; cf. Stein 1958 I p.357).

66. Stein (1959 I p.357) and Kuranc (1958 pp.51f.) take the last sentence of this fragment (from the *Exc. de Leg. Gent.*), which notes Leo's concern with events in Sicily, to indicate a date just before Basiliscus' expedition. It is also related to *Fr.* 40 (from the *Exc. de Leg. Rom.*) in which Leo warns Gaiseric off Italy and Sicily.

67. Theophanes *a.m.* 5963, which describes the land march of Heracleius and Marsus against the Vandals and their success in recapturing the cities of Libya, is derived from Priscus by Courtois (1955 pp.202f.) who also holds that Theophanes' dating of it to 470 is correct. However, Procopius (*Wars* 3,6,9) connects the march with Basiliscus' expedition which indicates a date of 468, which most scholars have accepted and which seems best. It is unlikely that Leo would have sent out another expedition so soon after Basiliscus' disaster and while the Balkans were still being troubled by the Huns. The most plausible view is that of Barth (1894 p.17 n.2), who suggests that Heracleius was sent out in 468 and, after the failure of Basiliscus, retreated from Carthage to the Libyan cities which he had taken, where he remained until Leo recalled him in 471 to help guard against a violent reaction on the part of the German auxiliaries to the Emperor's plot to murder Aspar (cf. Theophanes *loc.cit.*).

68. The derivation of the *Suda* article from Priscus and its connection with John of Antioch *Fr.* 205 were established by Norman 1953 pp.171f. The date is also the one suggested by him. Ulith seems to have been a barbarian (Gothic? – cf. *PLRE* II 'Ullibos') officer in the Roman army. This material and the following three items of the conspectus appear to have been part of a section of narrative which dealt with various internal disturbances that culminated in the murder of Aspar and Ardabur.

69. I have dated this notice to 470 because it appears in John's list

of various disturbances of that period. It might, on the other hand, be connected with *Fr.* 41 and should thus be dated to 467. In such a condensed narrative as John produced events could easily have fallen out of order.

70. Presumably this refers to fighting between Euric and the generals of Anthemius (Bury 1958 I p.342; Stein 1959 I pp.391-93).

71. The passage of John notes Ostrogothic activities before the death of their king Theudemir in 471. The mention of Walamir, who died *ca* 467, suggests that events of a number of years were touched upon. The passage of Jordanes, which notes an attack on Naissus, may be from Priscus, but it mixes in later, non-Priscan, material also.

NOTES TO MALCHUS: BYZANTINE HISTORY

1. Von Ranke, *Weltgeschichte* IV 1 Leipzig (1883) pp.380-82; Weitersheim-Dahn, *Geschichte der Völkerwanderung* Leipzig (1881^2) II p.326.

2. By, e.g., Barth 1894 p.60 n.1; Martin 1888 p.40 n.1; Laqueur *RE* XIV, 1 cols. 852-53.

3. The scholion is on p.244 of the Bidez-Parmentier text of Evagrius and refers to p.123 1,5. I owe this reference to Professor E.A. Thompson.

4. So Sauerbrei 1881 p.35. Patzig (1897 p.349) and Bury (1958 I p.393 n.4) wrongly take Malchus to be Zonaras' ultimate source.

5. For discussion of the origin of this material see Sauerbrei 1881 and Patzig 1897 pp.345ff. The existence of a third, independent, source seems to be indicated by material such as that on the death of Basiliscus by starvation and on the Persian king Peroz and the Ephthalites, which does not appear in Malchus or Candidus.

6. Gordon (1960 p.132) regards only the part of the article on Eulogius as non-Malchan.

7. Bury (1958 I p.392 n.1) regards *Fr.* 7 (= B 163 and 164) as partly from Malchus and partly from Candidus. B 163 could also be from Priscus, where I have placed it (see n.62 on p.170). Although I have placed B 164 in the conspectus of Malchus, I suspect that it is from elsewhere. Baldwin (1977 pp.99f.), who discusses these articles together with the articles on Harmatus/Harmatius and Longinus, comes to rather different conclusions from those set out here.

8. The theme there of Zeno as a careless spender jibes well with Z 83, on the Emperor Zeno (cf. Baldwin 1977 p.99).

9. Printed by Müller at IV p.618, *ad* John of Antioch *Fr.* 211.

10. This article could equally well be from Priscus.

11. Cf. *PLRE* II 'Heraiscus'.

12. Those not identified are from the *Excerpta de Legationibus.*

13. Gordon (1960 p.141) suggests that the younger Zeno had died in or before 475 because the Emperor Zeno in exile (475-early 476) promised to make the son of Harmatius his successor.

14. *Fr.* 12, from the *Exc. de Legat. Rom.*, could come anywhere between *Frr.* 8a and 14.

15. Photius wrongly places the capture of Epidamnus after the revolt of Marcian.

16. Since the last event noted in this passage is Marcian's revolt, I have followed the editors in placing it after *Fr.* 19. If Photius' summary (*Bibl. cod.* 79 = I p.165) is to be trusted, Candidus dealt with Pamprepius before the revolt of Marcian. John of Antioch (*Fr.* 211,2) certainly did so.

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